

Master's Thesis Spring 2026

Numerical Optimization and Braiding of Poor Man's Majorana Chains

Interactions, Projected Exchange, and Higher-Energy Sectors

Hishem Kløvnes

60 ECTS study points

Computational Science: Physics
Faculty of Mathematics and Natural Sciences



Hishem Kløvnes

Numerical Optimization and
Braiding of Poor Man's Majorana
Chains

Interactions, Projected Exchange, and
Higher-Energy Sectors

Supervisors:
Viktor Svensson
Morten Hjorth-Jensen

Declaration of AI Use

In this thesis, the use of Github Copilot and OpenAI's Codex in VSCode has been used for the following purposes:

- Spell checking, grammar and flow, manually verified by myself.
- Assisting with $\text{\LaTeX}$ formatting and syntax, including the missing references, generation of tables and figures, manually verified by myself.
- Created helper functions for plotting
- Assistance in debugging of code and $\text{\LaTeX}$ errors
- Help with spotting errors, inconsistencies and redundancies in the text, manually verified and corrected by myself.

Acknowledgements

There have been plenty of ups and downs during this project, and I would like to thank the people who have helped me along the way. First, I would like to thank my supervisors, Viktor Svensson and Morten Hjorth-Jensen, for their time, guidance, and support throughout the project.

I would like to thank my family, my father, mother, sister, and cat, for their support both during my studies and throughout the years leading up to this moment. I am also grateful to them for sparking my interest in physics and mathematics at a young age, and for always encouraging me to pursue my interests.

I would also like to thank my friends for helping me unwind and relax when I needed to. I also want to thank Madelén for her unconditional support during both good and stressful times. Lastly, I would like to thank my peers and colleagues for both serious and stupid conversations.

This has been a long journey, and I am grateful for all the help and support I have received along the way.

Abstract

Majorana zero modes are interesting for quantum computation because they can store information non-locally, making the encoded state less sensitive to local disturbances. In realistic devices, however, creating and controlling such modes is difficult. Poor Man's Majorana systems use short chains of quantum dots coupled through superconducting pairing to mimic some of the physics of a Kitaev chain in a smaller and more tunable platform. Because these systems are finite and can be affected by interactions, it is not obvious which parameters give useful Majorana-like behavior or whether the resulting states support the expected exchange operation.

This thesis studies this problem using numerical optimization. Spinless two-, three-, and four-dot chains are optimized at fixed hopping and interaction strengths by tuning onsite energies and pairing amplitudes. The optimized systems are evaluated using energy degeneracy, excitation gaps, local charge differences, and Majorana-polarization diagnostics. The most promising configurations are then used in a three-subsystem braiding geometry, where the resulting exchange operation is tested using numerical adiabatic transport.

The optimization reproduces the known non-interacting two-dot sweet spot and finds more inhomogeneous parameter profiles for longer chains. Among the tested interacting systems, the weakly interacting three-dot chain gives the best overall balance of small ground-state splitting, large excitation gap, edge-localized Majorana polarization, and suppressed bulk polarization. In the lowest projected manifold, this configuration reproduces the expected Majorana exchange with high accuracy.

The braiding analysis was also extended to higher energy sectors. For non-interacting and weakly interacting configurations, the sector-resolved self-target braid tests remain accurate across the tested sectors. However, higher-dimensional sectors can contain several internal blocks with different exchange orientations, meaning that the full sector does not necessarily implement one uniform logical gate. These results show that optimized finite quantum-dot chains can reproduce Majorana-like exchange in controlled projected models, while also showing that braiding beyond a known low-energy block requires additional control over which sector or block is occupied.

Contents

1	Introduction	11
1.1	Scope and Interpretation	12
1.2	Method Overview	13
1.3	Thesis Outline	13
2	Theory	15
2.1	Majorana Zero Modes and Topological Motivation	15
2.2	Kitaev Chain and Poor Man's Majorana Systems	17
2.2.1	Bulk Spectrum and Topological Phase	18
2.2.2	Majorana Representation and Zero Modes	20
2.2.3	From Nanowire Platforms to Poor Man's Majorana Systems	20
2.2.4	Non-interacting and Interacting Descriptions	21
2.3	Diagnostics of Majorana-like States	22
2.3.1	Spectral Diagnostics: Parity, Degeneracy, and Gap	22
2.3.2	Local Distinguishability and Charge Expectation	24
2.3.3	Majorana Polarization	25
2.3.4	Optimization Motivation	25
2.4	Majorana Exchange and Braiding	27
2.4.1	From Qubit Gates to Fermionic Operators	27
2.4.2	Jordan-Wigner Transformation	28
2.4.3	Pauli Matrices in the Majorana Representation	29
2.4.4	Majorana Exchange Gates	29
2.5	Projected Subspaces, Kato Transport and Braid Unitaries	31
2.5.1	Kato Transport in a Degenerate Subspace	31
2.5.2	Effective Braiding Hamiltonian	32
2.5.3	Projected Microscopic Junctions	33

	2.5.4	Energy-Level and Projected Local Majorana Operators	33
3	Method		35
	3.1	Numerical PMM Hamiltonian and Basis	35
	3.1.1	Single-Chain Hamiltonian	35
	3.1.2	Many-Body Fock Basis	35
	3.1.3	Jordan-Wigner Construction of Fermionic Operators	36
	3.2	Parameter Optimization and Loss Function	36
	3.2.1	Optimization Vector and Parameter Reconstruction	36
	3.2.2	Parity-Resolved Spectral Loss	37
	3.2.3	Charge and Majorana-Polarization Terms	38
	3.2.4	Total Normalized Loss	39
	3.2.5	Search Strategy	39
	3.3	Post-Optimization Diagnostics	40
	3.4	Effective Majorana Operator Construction	41
	3.4.1	Energy-Level Majoranas from Parity Pairs	41
	3.4.2	Embedding Into the Three-Subsystem Hilbert Space	42
	3.4.3	Projection to the Retained Space	42
	3.4.4	Projected Local Components	42
	3.4.5	Normalization and Algebra Checks	43
	3.5	Braiding Models and Pulse Protocol	43
	3.5.1	Three-Subsystem Geometry	43
	3.5.2	Energy-Level Reference Model	44
	3.5.3	Projected Microscopic Junction Model	44
	3.5.4	Projected Local-Operator Model	44
	3.5.5	Block-Matched Local-Operator Model	45
	3.5.6	Pulse Sequence	45
	3.6	Kato Transport and Braid Validation	45
	3.6.1	Transported Bands	46
	3.6.2	Numerical Kato Transport	46
	3.6.3	Target Exchange Gate	46
	3.6.4	Operator-Action Checks	47
	3.6.5	Parity-Resolved Gate Checks	48
4	Results		49
	4.1	Optimized PMM Chains	49
	4.1.1	Lowest-loss configurations	49
	4.1.2	Representative optimized spectra	50
	4.2	Post-Optimization Diagnostics	53
	4.2.1	Parity-resolved spectra and low-energy gaps	53
	4.2.2	Local diagnostics and Majorana character	55
	4.3	Selection of Braiding Candidate	56
	4.4	Braiding in the Ground-State Sector	57
	4.4.1	Energy-Level Majorana Reference	57
	4.4.2	Projected Microscopic Junction Braid	59
	4.4.3	Projected Local-Operator Braid	61
	4.5	Braiding in Multiple Energy Sectors	63
	4.6	Summary of Main Findings	70

5	Discussion	73
5.1	Parameter Optimization Scheme	73
5.2	Braiding Analysis	74
5.3	Limitations and Outlook	76
6	Conclusion	79
A	Block Labeling Method	81
B	Energy Sectors	83
C	Block-Matched Coefficients	89

Contents

Chapter 1

Introduction

In 1937, the Italian physicist Ettore Majorana showed that the relativistic wave equation for fermions admits a completely real representation. In his paper *Teoria simmetrica dell'elettrone e del positrone* (*Symmetric theory of the electron and positron*), he described the possibility of a neutral fermion that is identical to its own antiparticle [25, 29]. No elementary Majorana fermion has yet been conclusively identified. However, collective excitations in solid-state systems can behave as Majorana quasiparticles, providing a possible route for studying Majorana physics in controlled devices [7, 26, 42].

The interest in these quasiparticles is closely connected to one of the central challenges of quantum computation: quantum information is highly sensitive to environmental noise. Fluctuations in temperature, electromagnetic fields, and imperfect control can cause decoherence and introduce errors into a calculation [4]. Majorana zero modes offer a possible way to reduce sensitivity to some local disturbances. An ordinary fermionic mode can be decomposed into two Majorana components, and in a one-dimensional topological superconductor these components may become spatially separated at opposite ends of the system [1, 4, 11]. The corresponding fermionic degree of freedom is encoded non-locally. Local perturbations then have limited access to the complete encoded state, provided that fermion parity is preserved, the excitation gap remains open, and overlap between the two Majorana components is sufficiently small [4, 8].

Majorana zero modes are also predicted to exhibit non-Abelian exchange statistics. Adiabatically exchanging two modes transforms the state within a degenerate subspace and can implement a quantum gate [24, 42]. Such an exchange may be realized by physically moving the modes or by tuning couplings in a sequence that produces the same exchange operation. The possibility of combining non-local encoding with exchange-based gates is what makes Majorana systems interesting for topological quantum computation.

The minimal theoretical model illustrating this physics is the Kitaev chain, introduced by Alexei Kitaev in 2000 [19]. It describes a one-dimensional chain of spinless fermions with nearest-neighbor hopping and p -wave superconducting pairing. In its topological phase, the model supports Majorana zero modes at its ends and provides a clear description of how non-local fermionic states and exchange operations can emerge. The Kitaev chain is highly idealized, and realizing its ingredients in a controllable physical system remains challenging [36].

One compact engineered platform inspired by the Kitaev chain is the quantum-dot-superconductor setup, often referred to as a Poor Man's Majorana (PMM) system [22, 36]. Quantum dots act as discrete sites, while superconducting segments

generate effective hopping and non-local pairing through elastic cotunnelling and crossed Andreev reflection. The dot energies, pairing strengths, tunnel couplings, and interaction strengths can be tuned, making PMM systems useful for exploring Majorana-like physics in finite devices. Their finite size is also a fundamental limitation, because the resulting modes are not protected in the same way as the well-separated end modes of a long topological Kitaev chain, and low-energy degeneracy alone does not establish that a configuration has useful Majorana character or supports the desired exchange operation [41].

The analytical non-interacting two-dot sweet spot is known, but longer interacting chains contain many tunable parameters and no simple general sweet-spot condition [40]. Numerical optimization offers a way to search this parameter space, but optimizing energy degeneracy alone could also favor ordinary accidental degeneracies. A useful search must therefore combine several complementary criteria, including even-odd parity degeneracy, excitation gaps, local charge indistinguishability, and edge-localized Majorana polarization. Finding a favorable static configuration is still not sufficient: the stronger operational test is whether it supports the expected Majorana exchange under a braiding protocol. In the ideal non-interacting system, Majorana exchange is protected by the gap to other excitations and can be described within the lowest degenerate manifold. In a finite interacting PMM system, higher many-body states may become relevant through imperfect preparation, thermal occupation, or interaction-induced mixing with the low-energy subspace. This thesis therefore also asks whether the effective exchange structure survives when the projected space is enlarged beyond the lowest parity pair, or whether sector-dependent braid errors appear.

The investigation is organized around four research questions:

1. Can numerical optimization recover known PMM sweet spots and identify promising Majorana-like configurations in interacting two-, three-, and four-dot chains?
2. Which configurations best balance parity degeneracy, excitation gaps, local charge indistinguishability, and edge-localized Majorana polarization?
3. Can projected microscopic junction couplings reproduce the expected Majorana exchange within a selected low-energy manifold?
4. How do energy-level and projected local-operator braid constructions behave across higher energy sectors, and what does the internal block structure of these sectors imply for logical gate operations?

1.1 Scope and Interpretation

The systems studied in this thesis are finite, spinless PMM chains represented in the full many-body Fock basis and analyzed by exact diagonalization. Throughout the thesis, the term “Majorana-like” refers to finite-system configurations that satisfy the selected spectral and local diagnostics. It does not imply exact topological protection or prove the existence of perfectly isolated Majorana zero modes. Instead, the PMM system is interesting because it can be tuned to produce low-energy states that are close enough to the Majorana ideal to make the physical interpretation meaningful and the braiding behavior nontrivial. The numerical optimization identifies favorable minima of the chosen loss function, but it cannot guarantee that the global optimum has been found.

The braiding calculations are also performed within controlled projected models. In the sector-resolved scans, the energy-level, direct local-operator, and block-matched local-operator constructions are each compared with a target defined from their own exchange operators. These self-target comparisons test whether each construction executes its intended braid and how that performance depends on the selected energy sector. They do not by themselves establish that the local constructions reproduce the same exchange channel as the energy-level construction. That stronger statement requires a common-target comparison.

1.2 Method Overview

The first part of the numerical study searches for favorable PMM chains. The hopping amplitudes are fixed to set the energy scale, while the onsite energies and pairing amplitudes are optimized for several chain lengths and fixed interaction strengths. The loss function combines parity-pair splitting, excitation gaps, local charge differences, and Majorana-polarization profiles. Local gradient-based optimization is combined with repeated restarts and basin hopping to explore the resulting non-convex parameter landscape. The selected configurations are then reconstructed and evaluated using parity-resolved spectra and local Majorana diagnostics.

The second part tests braiding. The strongest candidate of the interacting configurations is used as the building block for a three-subsystem junction. Within its lowest projected manifold, an energy-level Majorana reference braid is compared with braids generated by projected microscopic junction operators and projected local Majorana components. The analysis is then extended sector by sector using energy-level Majoranas, direct projected local operators, and block-matched local operators. For each construction, the geometric unitary generated by the braid path is computed using Kato transport and compared with the corresponding target exchange.

1.3 Thesis Outline

Chapter 2 presents the theoretical background, including Majorana zero modes, the Kitaev chain and PMM systems, diagnostics of Majorana-like states, Majorana exchange, projected subspaces, and Kato transport. Chapter 3 describes the numerical PMM representation, optimization strategy, post-optimization diagnostics, effective Majorana construction, braiding models, and braid-validation procedure. Chapter 4 presents the optimized configurations, selects the strongest braiding candidate, benchmarks the braid in the lowest projected manifold, and extends the analysis across the identified energy sectors. Chapter 5 discusses the physical interpretation, quantum-computing implications, and limitations of the results. Chapter 6 summarizes the principal conclusions and outlines directions for future work.

Chapter 2

Theory

2.1 Majorana Zero Modes and Topological Motivation

Topological quantum computing is an approach to fault-tolerant quantum computation in which quantum gates are implemented by braiding non-Abelian anyons. The central idea is that information can be encoded non-locally in a degenerate subspace, so that local perturbations have limited access to the encoded quantum state. In this setting, the result of a gate depends on the topology of the braid rather than on microscopic details of the path.

Anyons are quasiparticles that, so far, have only been observed in effectively two-dimensional systems[28]. In three spatial dimensions, identical particles are classified as either bosons or fermions, corresponding to symmetric and antisymmetric exchange statistics. In two dimensions, however, the topology of particle exchange allows for a richer possibility: exchanging two particles can produce statistics that are neither bosonic nor fermionic [14, 23]. In particular, exchanging two identical particles twice is not necessarily topologically equivalent to doing nothing, because the exchange path cannot always be continuously shrunk to a point without crossing another particle. Particles with such exchange statistics are called anyons, and they are classified as Abelian or non-Abelian depending on how the quantum state transforms under exchange. Abelian anyons acquire only a phase factor, while non-Abelian anyons transform the state within a degenerate subspace. This latter property is what makes non-Abelian anyons especially interesting for quantum computation [39].

A collection of non-Abelian anyons with fixed positions and fixed local quantum numbers can possess a non-trivial topological degeneracy. Quantum information can then be encoded in this degenerate subspace, while braiding the anyons implements unitary transformations within it. Since the resulting transformation depends only on the braid topology, and not on small local deformations of the path, this provides a possible route toward fault-tolerant quantum gates. In suitable schemes, braiding operations can be combined with additional ingredients to implement the gates needed for quantum computation[37].

One of the most promising candidates for realizing non-Abelian exchange statistics in condensed-matter systems is the Majorana zero mode (MZM), predicted to occur in certain topological superconductors. A Majorana zero mode is a zero-energy quasiparticle described by an operator that is equal to its own Hermitian conjugate. In one-dimensional topological superconductors, such modes can appear at the ends of the system. Unlike an ordinary fermionic mode, a single MZM can be viewed as “half” of a Dirac fermion: two Majorana operators can be combined to form one conventional

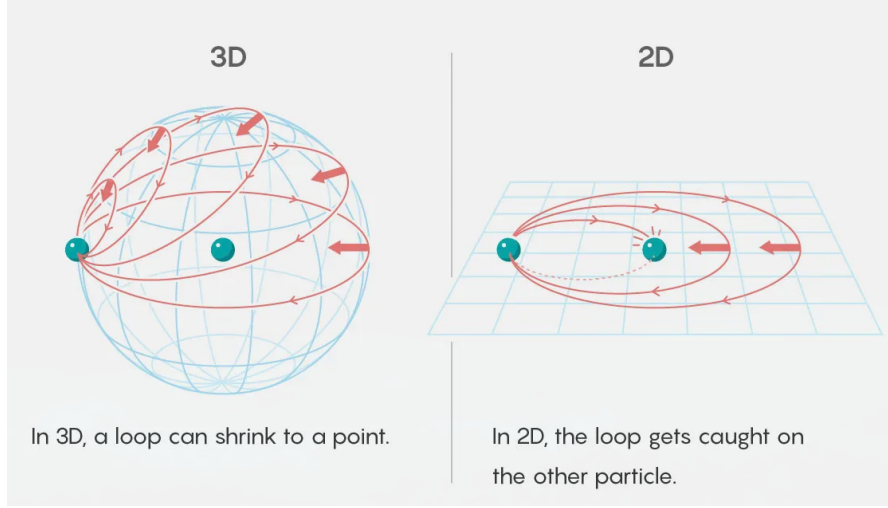


Figure 2.1: Visualization of particle exchange in two and three dimensions. Illustration by 5W Infographics for Quanta Magazine, reproduced from [27].

fermionic operator,

$$c = \frac{1}{2}(\gamma_1 + i\gamma_2) \quad (2.1)$$

with the inverse relations

$$\gamma_1 = c + c^\dagger, \quad \gamma_2 = -i(c - c^\dagger). \quad (2.2)$$

Here γ_1 and γ_2 are Majorana operators satisfying

$$\gamma_i = \gamma_i^\dagger, \quad \{\gamma_i, \gamma_j\} = 2\delta_{ij} \quad (2.3)$$

The non-Abelian character of MZMs is reflected in the fact that exchanging two of them produces a non-trivial unitary transformation on the degenerate ground-state manifold [37].

The primary motivation for studying MZMs and their braiding properties is their combination of non-local encoding and spectral protection. When the total fermion parity is conserved, a fermionic state formed from two spatially separated MZMs cannot easily be determined or flipped by a local perturbation, because such an error would require access to both separated Majorana components [30]. This protection is not absolute, however. In superconducting Majorana platforms, stray quasiparticles or electrons from the environment can tunnel into the system near a Majorana mode and change the fermion parity, a process known as quasiparticle poisoning. Such parity-changing events are not removed by non-local encoding and constitute an important practical decoherence mechanism [6, 37]. Therefore, Majorana encodings suppress parity-preserving local noise, but still require control of parity-changing processes.

MZMs also give rise to ground-state degeneracies. A system with $2n$ Majorana zero modes spans a 2^n -dimensional fermionic Hilbert space associated with the occupations of n non-local fermions. If the total fermion parity is fixed, the physical ground-state degeneracy is reduced to 2^{n-1} . In either case, the useful low-energy manifold must be separated from excited states by a finite spectral gap, which protects the encoded information against thermal excitations[19].

The remaining question is how such Majorana operators can emerge from an ordinary

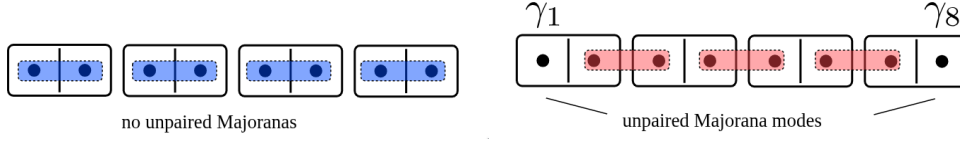


Figure 2.2: Schematic representation of the Kitaev chain in its trivial and topological phases. Left: Majorana modes pair on the same sites. Right: Majorana modes pair between adjacent sites, leaving unpaired modes at the chain ends. Adapted from the *Topology in Condensed Matter* course [2], licensed under CC BY-SA 4.0.

fermionic Hamiltonian. The Kitaev chain provides the minimal model where this mechanism can be seen explicitly, and it also gives the conceptual starting point for the Poor Man's Majorana systems studied in this thesis.

2.2 Kitaev Chain and Poor Man's Majorana Systems

Before discussing the Majorana models used in this thesis, we first introduce their theoretical origin, the Kitaev chain. The Kitaev chain, or Kitaev-Majorana chain, is a simplified model for a topological superconductor. First proposed by Alexei Kitaev in 2000 [19], the Kitaev chain is a one-dimensional superconducting system that can host Majorana zero modes at its ends under certain conditions, illustrated in Figure 2.2. The model is defined on a lattice of spinless fermions with nearest-neighbor hopping and superconducting pairing. The Hamiltonian of the Kitaev chain is

$$H = -\mu \sum_{j=1}^N \left(c_j^\dagger c_j - \frac{1}{2} \right) - t \sum_{j=1}^{N-1} \left(c_j^\dagger c_{j+1} + c_{j+1}^\dagger c_j \right) + \Delta \sum_{j=1}^{N-1} \left(c_j c_{j+1} + c_{j+1}^\dagger c_j^\dagger \right). \quad (2.4)$$

Each term in Eq. 2.4 has a clear physical interpretation. The first term represents the chemical potential μ , which controls the filling of the fermionic states. The second term describes the hopping of fermions between neighboring sites with amplitude t . The third term represents p -wave superconducting pairing, where pairs of fermions are created or annihilated on adjacent sites with amplitude Δ .

As shown schematically in Fig. 2.2, the Kitaev chain has two distinct phases depending on the parameters μ , t , and Δ . In the trivial phase, the Majorana modes on the same site pair up to form conventional fermions, leaving no unpaired modes. In the topological phase, Majoranas on adjacent sites couple, leaving unpaired modes at the chain ends. These unpaired Majoranas combine into a non-local fermionic mode that can be occupied or empty without costing energy, leading to a twofold degeneracy in the ground state. This degeneracy is protected as long as local perturbations do not close the bulk gap or directly hybridize the edge modes.

The topological phase of the Kitaev chain is the basic model for the Majorana zero modes studied in this thesis. The goal is then to understand how similar Majorana-like physics can be engineered in more realistic systems.

2.2.1 Bulk Spectrum and Topological Phase

To determine when the Kitaev chain is topological, it is useful to consider the properties of the bulk spectrum.

For a translationally invariant chain, a Fourier transform to momentum space makes it possible to analyze the energy spectrum and identify the conditions for the topological phase. The Fourier transform is given by

$$c_j = \frac{1}{\sqrt{N}} \sum_p e^{ipaj} c_p. \quad (2.5)$$

This transformation allows the Hamiltonian to be expressed in terms of momentum-space operators c_p and $c_p^\dagger$. Up to an additive constant, the resulting Hamiltonian can be written as

$$H = \sum_p \left[\xi_p c_p^\dagger c_p + \Delta \left(e^{ipa} c_p^\dagger c_{-p}^\dagger + e^{-ipa} c_{-p} c_p \right) \right], \quad (2.6)$$

with $\xi_p = -\mu - 2t \cos pa$ and a the lattice spacing. In the Bogoliubov–de Gennes formalism, the quasiparticle spectrum becomes

$$E_{p,\pm} = \pm \sqrt{(\mu + 2t \cos pa)^2 + 4\Delta^2 \sin^2 pa}. \quad (2.7)$$

Even though the Bogoliubov–de Gennes formalism describes a non-interacting quasiparticle problem, it still provides the basic topological picture that the interacting models in this thesis build on. Fig. 2.3 shows how the spectrum changes as the chemical potential μ is tuned. The presence of a gap is crucial for the stability of the Majorana modes, and the closing and reopening of this gap signals a topological phase transition. The quasiparticle spectrum is gapped for most parameter values, but the gap closes when

$$|\mu| = 2|t|.$$

This is also visible in Fig. 2.3. The gap closing marks the transition between the trivial and topological phases. When μ crosses this boundary, the ground state changes its topological character without requiring ordinary symmetry breaking [1].

Quasiparticle Band Structure for Different Chemical Potentials

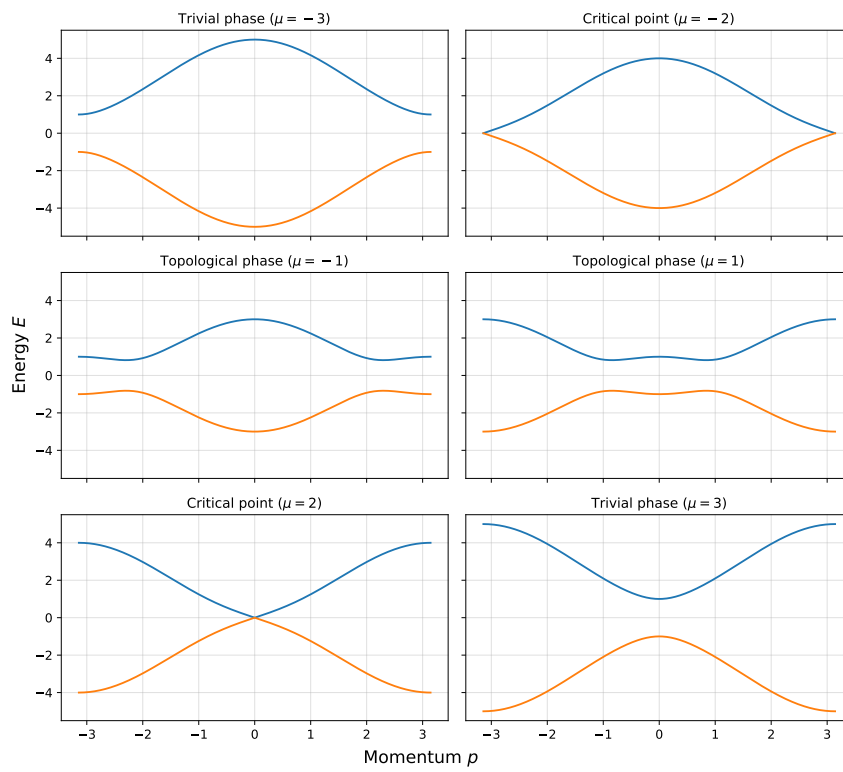


Figure 2.3: Quasiparticle energy spectrum of the Kitaev chain for different chemical potentials μ . Left: In the trivial phase ($|\mu| > 2|t|$), the spectrum is fully gapped with no zero-energy modes. Right: In the topological phase ($|\mu| < 2|t|$), the gap closes and reopens, signaling the emergence of zero-energy edge modes.

2.2.2 Majorana Representation and Zero Modes

The unpaired edge modes in Fig. 2.2 become more explicit by expressing the fermionic operators in terms of Majorana operators. For each site j , two Majorana operators γ_j^A and γ_j^B are defined as

$$c_j = \frac{1}{2}(\gamma_j^A + i\gamma_j^B), \quad c_j^\dagger = \frac{1}{2}(\gamma_j^A - i\gamma_j^B), \quad (2.8)$$

where $\gamma_j^{A,B}$ satisfy $\{\gamma_j^\alpha, \gamma_k^\beta\} = 2\delta_{jk}\delta_{\alpha\beta}$ and $(\gamma_j^\alpha)^\dagger = \gamma_j^\alpha$. In the trivial phase, the Majorana operators pair on the same site. In the topological phase, and especially at the ideal point $t = \Delta$ and $\mu = 0$, γ_j^B couples to γ_{j+1}^A . This leaves two edge modes unpaired, γ_1^A and γ_N^B , at the chain ends. These two unpaired Majoranas define a non-local fermionic mode,

$$f = \frac{1}{2}(\gamma_1^A + i\gamma_N^B), \quad (2.9)$$

which satisfies $\{f, f^\dagger\} = 1$ and costs zero energy to occupy. This non-local fermionic mode is the basis for understanding how Majorana modes can encode quantum information. The occupation of this non-local mode corresponds to a twofold degeneracy in the ground state, which is protected as long as local perturbations do not close the bulk gap or directly hybridize the two edge modes. This non-local encoding is what gives Majorana modes their potential for fault-tolerant quantum computation, as local errors cannot easily access or change the encoded state[1].

2.2.3 From Nanowire Platforms to Poor Man's Majorana Systems

A common experimental route toward Majorana zero modes is to engineer an effective Kitaev chain in a semiconductor-superconductor hybrid [1, 3, 37]. In such nanowire platforms, superconducting proximity effect supplies pairing, spin-orbit coupling and a magnetic field can produce an effectively spinless low-energy band, and gate voltages tune the chemical potential. Early nanowire experiments observed zero-bias features consistent with Majorana bound states, but their interpretation is complicated by finite-size effects, disorder, and other mechanisms that can create near-zero-energy states in non-topological regimes [26, 37].

Poor Man's Majorana systems take a complementary route. Instead of relying on a long continuous wire, they use a small number of gate-defined quantum dots coupled through a superconductor. This gives direct control over the effective hopping, pairing, and onsite energies, and thereby sidesteps some disorder problems associated with extended nanowires. The tradeoff is that the resulting Majorana-like states require tuning and do not have the full topological protection of a long Kitaev chain [1, 10, 22, 40].

The ideal Kitaev chain is a useful theoretical model, but it is not directly realizable in most physical systems, since it is usually treated as infinite, homogeneous, and non-interacting. The reason is that the Majorana modes are localized at the edges of the chain, and their energy splitting decreases exponentially with the chain length, $\exp(-L/l_0)$ [19]. In the ideal limit, this makes the Majorana modes robust against local perturbations. In practice, however, devices are finite, so the Majorana modes generally retain a small energy splitting due to their overlap. A Poor Man's Majorana system is also finite, but under the right parameter conditions it can mimic the low-energy

physics of a Kitaev chain, including the presence of Majorana-like modes, in a much more compact and experimentally accessible setup.

While the Kitaev chain is the minimal theoretical model, it assumes spinless fermions and intrinsic p -wave pairing. Real superconductors are usually spinful and dominated by conventional s -wave pairing. The Poor Man's Majorana (PMM) platform is a compact engineered system whose low-energy behavior can mimic a short Kitaev chain. The simplest version is a double quantum dot coupled through a superconducting segment. Each dot acts as a site, elastic cotunneling produces effective hopping, and crossed Andreev reflection produces an effective non-local pairing term.

The effective two-dot Hamiltonian can be written as

$$H = \sum_{i=L,R} \epsilon_i n_i + t(d_L^\dagger d_R + d_R^\dagger d_L) + \Delta(d_L^\dagger d_R^\dagger + d_R d_L) + U n_L n_R, \quad (2.10)$$

where $d_{L/R}^\dagger$ and $d_{L/R}$ are creation and annihilation operators on the left and right dots, n_i is the number operator, $\epsilon_{L,R}$ are the dot energy levels, t is the elastic cotunneling amplitude, Δ is the crossed Andreev reflection amplitude, and U is the interdot Coulomb interaction energy. The parameters map directly onto the Kitaev-chain language:

- **Elastic cotunneling (ECT):** An electron tunnels coherently from one dot to the other through a virtual process in the superconductor. This produces the effective hopping amplitude t .
- **Crossed Andreev reflection (CAR):** A Cooper pair splits, with one electron entering each dot. This produces the non-local pairing amplitude Δ .
- **On-site energy:** The dot energies ϵ_L and ϵ_R play the role of local chemical potentials.

At the ideal non-interacting sweet spot, $|\epsilon_L| = |\epsilon_R| = 0$ and $|t| = |\Delta|$, the two-dot system develops Majorana-like states localized primarily on opposite dots. Since the system is finite and lacks a true bulk, these states are not topologically protected in the same sense as an infinite Kitaev chain. This is why they are referred to as Poor Man's Majoranas [1].

For the purposes of this thesis, the PMM idea is generalized from two dots to interacting n -dot chains. A schematic representation is shown in Figure 2.4. Adding more dots introduces more tunable parameters and more possible low-energy structure, but it also makes the analytic sweet spot problem much harder. This motivates the numerical optimization strategy discussed later in the thesis.

2.2.4 Non-interacting and Interacting Descriptions

Much of the standard Majorana theory starts from non-interacting, or quadratic, superconducting Hamiltonians. In that setting the problem can be written in Bogoliubov–de Gennes form, and Majorana zero modes appear as single-particle quasiparticle operators. The Kitaev chain and many ideal braiding descriptions are most naturally expressed in this language[3, 19, 37].

The models studied in this thesis are spinless, but with a focus on interactions. The nearest-neighbor term $U_i n_i n_{i+1}$ makes the Hamiltonian interacting and genuinely many-body. As a result, the Majorana-like structure cannot be identified only from a single-particle zero mode. Instead, it must be diagnosed from many-body

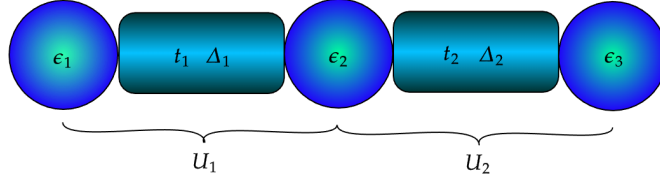


Figure 2.4: Schematic representation of the PMM setup. The three quantum dots are represented by the blue circles, and the superconducting segments are represented by the grey rectangles. The tunable parameters of the system, such as the dot energy levels, ECT, CAR and the Coulomb interaction, are indicated by their respective labels. By tuning these parameters, we can access different regimes of the system and identify the sweet spots where Majorana-like modes emerge.

eigenstates, parity-sector degeneracies, excitation gaps, local charge differences, and Majorana-polarization matrix elements[17, 35, 40].

The spinless approximation is used to isolate the effect of interactions while keeping the numerical problem tractable. Physically, an effectively spinless description can arise when the relevant low-energy states are spin polarized, for example by magnetic fields or engineered dot configurations. Including both spin and interactions would enlarge the local Hilbert space and make the exact diagonalization problem grow much faster with the number of dots. The goal here is therefore not to model all microscopic spin physics, but to test how interaction terms modify the Majorana-like signatures and braiding behavior in a controlled finite chain[10, 22].

2.3 Diagnostics of Majorana-like States

In a finite PMM system, the presence of low-energy or near-zero-energy states is necessary, but not sufficient, evidence for Majorana physics. As discussed in the previous section, the ideal Kitaev chain has zero-energy Majorana modes at its ends, producing a degenerate low-energy manifold. In a short and finite PMM chain, however, the Majorana modes can overlap, hybridize, and split away from zero energy. Other ordinary low-energy states can also appear because the dot energies, tunnel couplings, pairing amplitudes, and interactions are all tunable.

For this reason, the identification of Majorana-like states must rely on several complementary diagnostics rather than a single spectral feature. The diagnostics used here can be divided into two broad groups. Spectral diagnostics test whether the low-energy manifold has the expected parity degeneracy and excitation gap. Local diagnostics test whether the corresponding states are non-local, locally indistinguishable, and Majorana-like in their particle-hole structure. Together, these quantities define what is meant in this thesis by a promising Majorana-like configuration.

2.3.1 Spectral Diagnostics: Parity, Degeneracy, and Gap

An essential first step in identifying Majorana-like states is resolving the energy spectrum by fermion parity. The mean-field Hamiltonian of a superconductor does not conserve particle number because superconducting pairing terms connect states whose particle

numbers differ by two. It does, however, conserve the parity of the total particle number, as required by fermion-parity superselection. The parity operator can be written as

$$P = (-1)^N = \prod_n (1 - 2c_n^\dagger c_n),$$

where N is the total particle number and n labels the single-particle orbitals. Its eigenvalues are $+1$ for even parity and -1 for odd parity.

Two Majorana components combine to form a non-local fermionic mode. Occupying or emptying this mode changes the total fermion parity, connecting states in the even- and odd-parity sectors. At the ideal two-dot sweet spot, where the dot energies vanish and $|t| = |\Delta|$, the ground states in these two sectors become degenerate [2, 10, 22].

Parity resolution makes it possible to search for degeneracies between opposite-parity states, as expected when a zero-energy fermionic mode connects the two sectors. In this thesis, parity resolution is additionally used to examine whether analogous even-odd pairing persists at higher energy levels and how including these levels affects the braiding dynamics.

Once the states have been separated into parity sectors, the next diagnostic is the energy splitting between parity partners. Majorana-like physics requires a near-degenerate pair of states, one even and one odd. In an ideal infinite Kitaev chain, this degeneracy is exact. In a finite PMM chain, the edge modes can overlap, producing a small but nonzero splitting. The goal is therefore not only to find low-energy states, but to find parameter regimes where the even-odd splitting is small compared with all other relevant energy scales.

The excitation gap is equally important. The gap separates the low-energy parity manifold from quasiparticle excitations and suppresses thermal or dynamical leakage out of the computational subspace. In PMM and quantum-dot-chain proposals, the useful gap is controlled by the tunneling amplitude t and the crossed-Andreev pairing amplitude Δ . If the gap closes, the Majorana-like signature is no longer protected, and the low-energy interpretation becomes unreliable [38]. A sizable gap is not only essential for braiding in the ground state, but also in excited energy sectors, as it justifies projecting the dynamics onto an isolated energy subspace.

This thesis also explores whether finite interacting chains can display approximate even-odd degeneracy across several energy levels, not only in the ground state. The even-odd degeneracy occurs automatically in the non-interacting case, but is generically not the case for interacting theories. If such a structure survives, then some Majorana-like features may remain meaningful even when excited states are included in the projected Hilbert space. Figure 2.5 illustrates the particle-hole symmetric structure expected in the idealized superconducting spectrum. In practice, the relevant diagnostic is whether the candidate parity partners are both nearly degenerate and well separated from the rest of the spectrum [2].

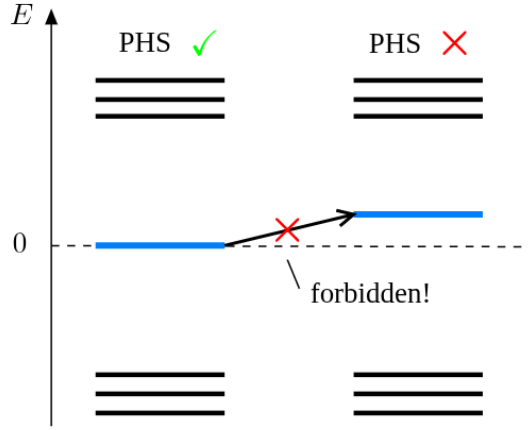


Figure 2.5: Single-particle BdG energy spectrum showing how the energy eigenvalues of the system must be symmetric around zero energy due to particle-hole symmetry. For an interacting system, the symmetry is no longer confined to be around $E = 0$, but can be shifted by an energy offset. Figure adapted from [2].

2.3.2 Local Distinguishability and Charge Expectation

In non-interacting theories, one can often identify Majorana modes from single-particle Majorana operators and inspect their spatial separation directly. In the interacting systems studied here, this is no longer enough: the relevant objects are many-body eigenstates, so the quality measures should also be defined from many-body states.

A defining feature of spatially separated Majorana modes is that the encoded information is non-local. Local measurements should therefore not reveal whether the system is in the even or odd ground state. This principle is central to the topological motivation for Majorana qubits, as the qubit state is stored globally, while local perturbations should have only limited access to it [30]. In the PMM setting, the same idea appears in a finite-system form since the parity qubit can only be fully read out by probing both Majorana components, rather than a single dot alone [22].

One way to quantify this property is to compare the local reduced density matrices of the even and odd parity states. Let ρ_j^e and ρ_j^o denote the reduced density matrices on site j . The trace norm is defined as

$$\|A\|_1 = \text{Tr} \sqrt{A^\dagger A},$$

and the corresponding local trace distance is

$$D_j = \frac{1}{2} \|\rho_j^o - \rho_j^e\|_1.$$

The local distinguishability can then be summarized by an average over sites,

$$\text{LD} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{j=1}^N D_j.$$

A value close to zero means that local measurements cannot distinguish the two parity states, while a larger value means that some information about the parity state is visible

locally [40].

In the spinless model used in this thesis, this reduced-density-matrix comparison has a simple charge interpretation. A single site has only the two local states $|0\rangle$ and $|1\rangle$, and for parity eigenstates the local reduced density matrix is fully determined by the occupation expectation value $\langle n_j \rangle$. The local trace distance therefore reduces to

$$D_j = |\langle n_j \rangle_o - \langle n_j \rangle_e| \equiv q_j.$$

This is the precise relation between local distinguishability and the charge-difference diagnostic used later in the thesis. The optimal value is $q_j = 0$, which means that the even and odd states have the same local charge on site j . It does not mean that the local charge itself is zero. At an ideal spinless PMM sweet spot, for example, the two parity states can have the same half-occupied local charge expectation, $\langle n_j \rangle_e = \langle n_j \rangle_o = 1/2$, giving $q_j = 0$ [10, 22]. In a spinful model this reduction would no longer be complete, since local spin observables could distinguish states even when the charge expectation values agree.

2.3.3 Majorana Polarization

To identify a useful Majorana-like configuration, we also want to know where the Majorana components are located and how well they are separated. The Majorana polarization (MP) is a local diagnostic for this purpose. It measures how strongly the parity-changing matrix elements have the particle-hole structure expected of a Majorana mode at each site. In an ideal PMM configuration, the polarization should therefore be concentrated at the edge dots, with opposite signs on the two ends and little or no weight in the bulk[40].

For the spinless models considered here, all parameters are real. In this case a convenient definition of the site-resolved MP is

$$M_\alpha := \frac{W_\alpha^2 - Z_\alpha^2}{W_\alpha^2 + Z_\alpha^2},$$

where

$$W_\alpha = \langle o | (c_\alpha + c_\alpha^\dagger) | e \rangle, \quad Z_\alpha = i \langle o | (c_\alpha - c_\alpha^\dagger) | e \rangle.$$

Here, α denotes the site index, and $|o\rangle$ and $|e\rangle$ are the odd- and even-parity ground states. This real-Hamiltonian form is the one relevant for the models studied in this thesis; more general complex Hamiltonians require a modified MP expression [34]. In an ideal sweet spot with two perfectly localized Majoranas, the edge values would satisfy $M_L = -M_R = \pm 1$ [1]. The diagnostic therefore checks whether the parity-changing Majorana matrix elements are localized at the chain ends with the expected relative sign.

2.3.4 Optimization Motivation

Together, these diagnostics provide the physical ingredients used later to build the optimization loss function. For a simple two-dot system, the relevant tunable parameters

Visualizing the Loss Landscape for Parameter Search

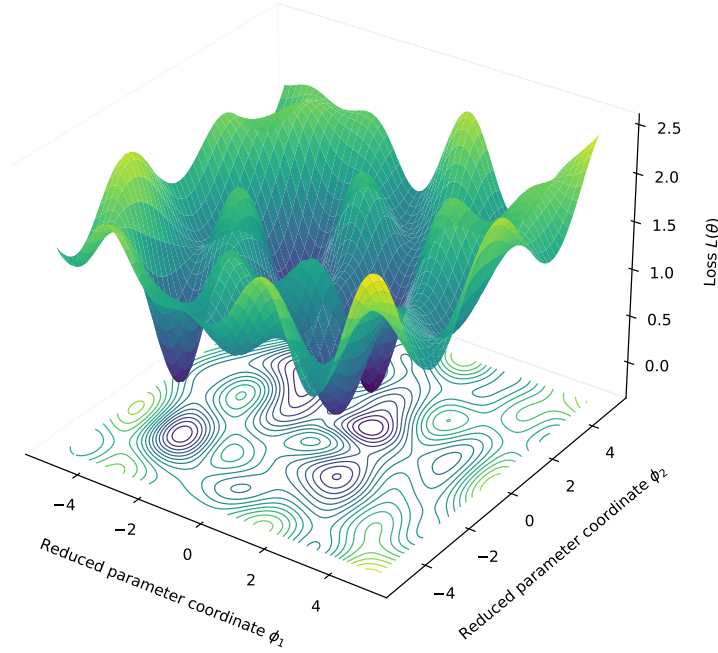


Figure 2.6: Visualization of the parameter space for an n -dot system, showing how multiple parameters and their combinations create a complex landscape with multiple local minima. This figure does not represent the actual parameter space, but serves to illustrate the concept of a high-dimensional optimization problem with many local minima and maxima.

are the dot energies, elastic cotunneling, crossed Andreev reflection, and interaction strength. For longer chains, the number of tunable parameters grows quickly, visualized in Figure 2.6. Since interactions and inhomogeneous parameters make it difficult to identify sweet spots analytically, the diagnostics above can be combined into a loss function and used to search numerically for promising Majorana-like regimes. The resulting loss landscape may contain many local minima, which motivates the repeated-restart and basin-hopping strategy described in the methods chapter.

2.4 Majorana Exchange and Braiding

Non-Abelian braiding is one of the strongest operational signatures of Majorana bound states [37]. When two Majorana modes are exchanged, the system is transformed by a non-trivial unitary operation within its degenerate low-energy subspace. Since different exchanges generally correspond to non-commuting unitary operations, sequences of braids can be used to manipulate quantum information[32]. For perfectly isolated Majorana zero modes, the resulting operation depends on the ordering of the exchanges rather than on details of the path, providing the basis for topological quantum computation [30].

In quantum-dot-based minimal Kitaev chains, braiding does not require the Majorana-like modes to be physically moved. Instead, this thesis considers coupling-based braiding, in which three Majorana systems are coupled together in the shape of a Y-junction. Each arm of the Y junction represents a PMM subsystem. By cyclically turning the relevant couplings on and off, the dominant Majorana pairing is transferred through the junction and produces an effective exchange of two outer Majorana modes, with an additional sign change for one of the nodes [32]. For finite Poor Man's Majorana systems, the modes are imperfect and lack complete topological protection. The resulting operation must therefore be verified by monitoring the low-energy manifold and explicitly calculating the generated braid unitary.

2.4.1 From Qubit Gates to Fermionic Operators

Quantum gates are unitary operations acting on a chosen computational basis. For a single qubit, the Pauli gates X , Y , and Z are represented by the matrices

$$X = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad Y = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -i \\ i & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad Z = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}. \quad (2.11)$$

To connect these gates to Majorana systems, we first need to express the qubit basis and the Pauli operators in fermionic language. For an ordinary qubit, the computational basis can be written as

$$|0\rangle = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad |1\rangle = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}. \quad (2.12)$$

A single fermionic mode has the occupation states $|0_f\rangle$ and $|1_f\rangle = c^\dagger |0_f\rangle$. However, these states have opposite fermion parity, and the fermion-parity superselection rule forbids coherent superpositions between them[5]. They therefore cannot directly serve as the computational basis of a qubit. Instead, a qubit can be encoded using two fermionic modes while fixing their total parity. In the odd-parity sector, the logical basis states can be chosen as

$$|0_L\rangle = |1, 0\rangle = c_1^\dagger |\text{vac}\rangle \quad |1_L\rangle = |0, 1\rangle = c_2^\dagger |\text{vac}\rangle$$

where $|n_1, n_2\rangle = (c_1^\dagger)^{n_1} (c_2^\dagger)^{n_2} |\text{vac}\rangle$. Both states have odd total fermion parity, so coherent superpositions $\alpha |0_L\rangle + \beta |1_L\rangle$ are allowed. Within this encoded subspace, the Pauli operators can be constructed as

$$\begin{aligned} X &= c_1^\dagger c_2 + c_2^\dagger c_1, \\ Y &= -i(c_1^\dagger c_2 - c_2^\dagger c_1), \\ Z &= c_1^\dagger c_1 - c_2^\dagger c_2. \end{aligned} \quad (2.13)$$

This gives the operator dictionary needed below: ordinary Pauli operations on the encoded qubit can be written as parity-preserving fermionic bilinears.

2.4.2 Jordan-Wigner Transformation

The Jordan-Wigner transformation is a mathematical technique used to map spin operators to fermionic creation and annihilation operators. It was proposed by Pascual Jordan and Eugene Wigner in 1928 [15] for the one-dimensional spin-1/2 chain problem and has since become a standard tool in quantum many-body physics.

In the numerical calculations, each spinless dot is represented by a local two-state basis, corresponding to an empty or occupied site. This local basis can be written using Pauli matrices and local raising and lowering operators,

$$\begin{aligned}\sigma_j^+ &= \frac{1}{2}(\sigma_j^x + i\sigma_j^y) \equiv f_j^\dagger, \\ \sigma_j^- &= \frac{1}{2}(\sigma_j^x - i\sigma_j^y) \equiv f_j, \\ \sigma_j^z &= 2f_j^\dagger f_j - 1.\end{aligned}$$

These operators have the correct local action on a single site. However, operators placed on different tensor-product sites commute, while fermionic creation and annihilation operators must anticommute on different sites. The Jordan-Wigner transformation fixes this by attaching a parity string to the local operators [15, 31]. For a fixed ordering of sites, we define

$$\begin{aligned}a_j^\dagger &= e^{i\pi \sum_{k=1}^{j-1} f_k^\dagger f_k} \cdot f_j^\dagger \\ a_j &= e^{-i\pi \sum_{k=1}^{j-1} f_k^\dagger f_k} \cdot f_j, \\ a_j^\dagger a_j &= f_j^\dagger f_j.\end{aligned}$$

The exponential factor counts the parity of all sites before j in the chosen ordering. It can be written as a string of σ^z operators,

$$e^{\pm i\pi \sum_{k=1}^{j-1} f_k^\dagger f_k} = \prod_{k=1}^{j-1} (-\sigma_k^z). \quad (2.14)$$

The resulting operators satisfy the canonical fermionic anticommutation relations,

$$\begin{aligned}\{a_j^\dagger, a_k\} &= \delta_{jk}, \\ \{a_j^\dagger, a_k^\dagger\} &= 0, \\ \{a_j, a_k\} &= 0.\end{aligned}$$

In this thesis, the Jordan-Wigner transformation is therefore used as a construction tool: it builds the fermionic operators used in the Hamiltonian, the Majorana operators, and the enlarged braiding Hilbert space while preserving the correct fermionic sign structure.

2.4.3 Pauli Matrices in the Majorana Representation

The reason for rewriting the Pauli operators in terms of Majorana bilinears is that braiding acts naturally on Majorana operators, while the gate implemented by the braid is usually compared with a Pauli operation on an encoded qubit. By expressing the Pauli gates in terms of Majorana bilinears, we can directly relate the physical operations performed on the Majorana modes to the abstract quantum gates that we want to implement. This connection is important to both understand and implement quantum gates in a Majorana-based quantum computing platform. We start by considering four Majorana operators, grouped into two ordinary fermions:

$$\begin{aligned} c_1 &= \frac{1}{2}(\gamma_0 + i\gamma_1), & c_1^\dagger &= \frac{1}{2}(\gamma_0 - i\gamma_1), \\ c_2 &= \frac{1}{2}(\gamma_2 + i\gamma_3), & c_2^\dagger &= \frac{1}{2}(\gamma_2 - i\gamma_3). \end{aligned} \quad (2.15)$$

These four Majorana operators $\gamma_0, \gamma_1, \gamma_2$, and γ_3 span a four-dimensional Hilbert space, which can be thought of as the state space of two fermionic modes. By fixing the total fermion parity, we can select a two-dimensional subspace that serves as the computational basis for a qubit. Within the odd-parity encoding defined above, the Pauli operators can be represented as bilinears of the Majorana operators:

$$\begin{aligned} X &= i\gamma_0\gamma_3 = -i\gamma_1\gamma_2, \\ Y &= -i\gamma_0\gamma_2 = -i\gamma_1\gamma_3, \\ Z &= i\gamma_0\gamma_1 = -i\gamma_2\gamma_3. \end{aligned}$$

These expressions can be derived by substituting the fermionic operators in Eq. 2.13 with the Majorana representation of the fermionic operators. The resulting bilinears of Majorana operators correspond to the Pauli gates acting on the encoded qubit.

Thus, controlled Majorana couplings of the form $i\gamma_i\gamma_j$ act as Pauli operations on the encoded qubit. This is the operator-level connection between Majorana braiding and gate implementation[3, 20, 30]

2.4.4 Majorana Exchange Gates

With one orientation convention, an exchange of two Majoranas γ_i and γ_j is represented by the unitary

$$B_{ij} = \exp\left(-\frac{\pi}{4}\gamma_i\gamma_j\right) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}(1 - \gamma_i\gamma_j),$$

up to orientation conventions and an overall phase, as was shown by M. Leijnse and K. Flensberg [21] and C.W.J Beenakker [6]. With this convention, the unitary acts on the Majorana operators as

$$\begin{aligned} B_{ij}\gamma_i B_{ij}^\dagger &= \gamma_j, \\ B_{ij}\gamma_j B_{ij}^\dagger &= -\gamma_i, \\ B_{ij}\gamma_k B_{ij}^\dagger &= \gamma_k, \quad k \neq i, j. \end{aligned}$$

The exchange unitary can therefore be read as a quantum gate on the encoded qubit. Defining the Hermitian bilinear $P_{ij} = i\gamma_i\gamma_j$, with $P_{ij}^2 = 1$, gives

$$B_{ij} = \exp\left(\frac{i\pi}{4}P_{ij}\right).$$

Thus an exchange is a square-root of the Pauli operation represented by P_{ij} , up to orientation and global phase. For example, in the odd-parity encoding used above,

$$Z = i\gamma_0\gamma_1 = -i\gamma_2\gamma_3,$$

so exchanging γ_2 and γ_3 gives

$$B_{23} = \exp\left(-\frac{i\pi}{4}Z\right),$$

which is a $\sqrt{Z}$ -type gate. Its square satisfies $B_{23}^2 = -iZ$, equivalent to Z up to a global phase.

This is why the numerical braid unitary can be checked by comparing its action on the Majorana operators and by comparing its projected parity blocks with the expected target gate [3, 30].

The remaining question is how to compute the unitary generated by an adiabatic coupling protocol, which is the role of Kato transport in the next section.

2.5 Projected Subspaces, Kato Transport and Braid Unitaries

This section connects the high-level topological theory of braiding with the microscopic details of the PMM system. The goal is to understand how to compute the braid unitary generated by a time-dependent parameter protocol, and how to compare it with the target gate. In these systems, braiding is not performed by physically moving particles through space, but rather by tuning Hamiltonian parameters in a way that mimics the effect of an exchange.

An adiabatic parameter protocol defines a path in the space of Hamiltonians. If the relevant low-energy subspace remains isolated along this path, the geometric transport of that subspace gives the braid unitary. The Kato formulation provides a convenient way to compute this unitary without having to track individual eigenstates and their arbitrary phases. By projecting the dynamics onto the low-energy subspace defined by the Majorana-like states, we can extract the effective braid unitary and compare it with the target gate expressed in terms of Majorana bilinears.

2.5.1 Kato Transport in a Degenerate Subspace

For a non-degenerate eigenstate, adiabatic evolution around a closed path gives both a dynamical and a geometric phase,

$$|\psi(T)\rangle = e^{-i \int_0^T E(t) dt} e^{i\gamma_B} |\psi(0)\rangle.$$

The first factor depends on the instantaneous energy and the total protocol time, while the Berry phase γ_B depends only on the path followed by the state.

For a degenerate subspace, the situation is richer. The adiabatic evolution can mix states within the degenerate manifold, so the Berry phase becomes a matrix rather than a scalar phase. In this thesis, this non-Abelian Berry matrix is what determines the braid unitary acting on the Majorana qubit space.

The Kato formulation provides a convenient way to compute this adiabatic transport. Instead of tracking individual eigenvectors and their arbitrary phases, one works directly with the projector

$$P(t) = \sum_{a=1}^d |\psi_a(t)\rangle \langle \psi_a(t)|$$

onto the relevant transported subspace. In the convention used in the numerical implementation, the Kato evolution satisfies

$$\partial_t U_K(t) = [\dot{P}(t), P(t)] U_K(t), \quad U_K(0) = I.$$

The final unitary $U_K(T)$ is the geometric transport associated with the path in the chosen subspace [16].

A full physical evolution would also include dynamical evolution generated by the instantaneous energies inside the transported subspace, schematically

$$U_{\text{phys}}(T) = U_{\text{dyn}}(T) U_K(T).$$

The Kato construction isolates the geometric part $U_K(T)$, which is the component relevant for identifying the braid gate. In the numerical calculations, $P(t)$ is obtained

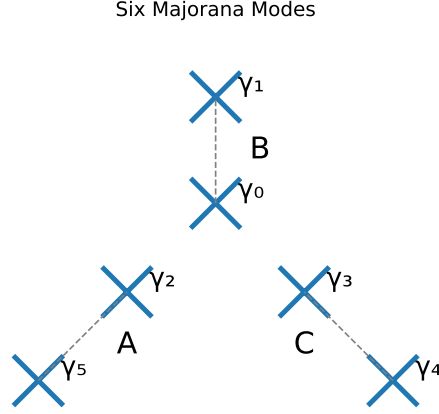


Figure 2.7: Schematic representation of a system hosting six Majorana modes. The illustration shows three coupled Majorana pairs in a Y-junction, where each pair forms a subsystem that can be described by a Poor Man’s Majorana setup, labelled A, B, and C.

by diagonalizing the Hamiltonian at each time step and constructing the projector onto the chosen low-energy manifold.

This unitary matrix is the braid unitary extracted from the parameter protocol. By comparing $U_K(T)$ with the target gate expressed in terms of Majorana bilinears, we can assess how well the parameter-tuning protocol approximates the desired exchange operation. This comparison can be done both by checking how the unitary transforms the Majorana operators and by comparing its matrix representation with the target gate in the transported subspace.

2.5.2 Effective Braiding Hamiltonian

As a reference model, assume that the system contains four Majorana modes γ_0 , γ_1 , γ_2 , and γ_3 involved in the braid. A useful physical picture is a Y-junction made from three PMM subsystems, where one central Majorana is coupled sequentially to different neighboring Majoranas.

In Fig. 2.7, the four Majoranas γ_0 , γ_1 , γ_2 , and γ_3 are the modes actively used in the braid, while γ_4 and γ_5 form a spectator pair. The reference effective Hamiltonian can be written as

$$\begin{aligned}
 H = & \Delta_{01} i \gamma_0 \gamma_1 + \\
 & \Delta_{02} i \gamma_0 \gamma_2 + \\
 & \Delta_{03} i \gamma_0 \gamma_3,
 \end{aligned} \tag{2.16}$$

where Δ_{ij} is a tunable coupling between Majoranas γ_i and γ_j [6, 12]. By turning these couplings on and off in a controlled sequence, the system can implement an effective exchange operation. This model is not meant to describe all microscopic details of the dot device directly. Instead, it serves as a reference model where the intended Majorana exchange can be tested without additional complications from the full interacting Hamiltonian.

2.5.3 Projected Microscopic Junctions

In a microscopic PMM device, the tunable quantities are physical hopping and pairing couplings between dots or subsystems. A junction between two PMM subsystems, A and B , can be modeled by

$$H_{AB}^{\text{junc}} = -t_j (d_A^\dagger d_B + d_B^\dagger d_A) + \Delta_j (d_A d_B + d_B^\dagger d_A^\dagger), \quad (2.17)$$

with an analogous operator for the A – C junction. The time dependence enters through a pulse envelope multiplying this operator, for example $\lambda_{AB}(t)H_{AB}^{\text{junc}}$. Physically, this corresponds to tuning the junction coupling during the braid.

The ratio Δ_j/t_j fixes the relative strength of crossed-Andreev pairing and elastic cotunneling in the junction. In the braiding protocol studied, this ratio is not varied independently during the protocol. Instead, the junction operator is pulsed as a whole, while t_j and Δ_j are chosen from the same PMM parameters that define the intra-subsystem hopping and pairing amplitudes. Thus the time dependence controls the overall junction strength, not the internal ratio Δ_j/t_j .

After projection into the retained low-energy subspace,

$$T_{AB} = V^\dagger H_{AB}^{\text{junc}} V, \quad T_{AC} = V^\dagger H_{AC}^{\text{junc}} V, \quad (2.18)$$

where V contains the retained low-energy eigenstates. These projected operators are used as the microscopic braid couplings in the projected-junction model, which tests whether physical endpoint couplings generate the same low-energy exchange channel as the energy-level Majorana reference.

2.5.4 Energy-Level and Projected Local Majorana Operators

The effective Hamiltonian in Eq. 2.16 uses four Majorana operators. In this setup, the operators are provided by individual subsystems: subsystem A provides the pair γ_{A1} and γ_{A2} , while the Majoranas involved in the exchange are taken from subsystems B and C . In this notation, the abstract operators of Eq. 2.16 correspond to

$$\gamma_0 = \gamma_{A1}, \quad \gamma_1 = \gamma_{A2}, \quad \gamma_2 = \gamma_{B\alpha}, \quad \gamma_3 = \gamma_{C\beta}, \quad \alpha, \beta \in \{1, 2\}. \quad (2.19)$$

The projected junction decomposition determines which values of α and β are selected by the microscopic endpoint couplings. The target exchange operation is therefore

$$B_{\alpha\beta} = \exp\left(-\frac{\pi}{4}\gamma_{B\alpha}\gamma_{C\beta}\right). \quad (2.20)$$

The numerical braid unitary $U_K(T)$ is later compared with this target through its action on Majorana operators and through its projected parity-block representation.

There are two useful ways of constructing the Majorana operators that enter this comparison. The first is an energy-level construction, where Majorana operators are built from even-odd parity pairs of the subsystem Hamiltonian. The subsystem Hamiltonian is the n -dot extension of the effective two-dot model in Eq. 2.10,

$$H = \sum_{i=1}^n \epsilon_i n_i + \sum_{j=1}^{n-1} \left[-t_j (c_j^\dagger c_{j+1} + c_{j+1}^\dagger c_j) + \Delta_j (c_j c_{j+1} + c_{j+1}^\dagger c_j^\dagger) + U_j n_j n_{j+1} \right]. \quad (2.21)$$

Diagonalizing this Hamiltonian gives energy eigenstates that can be classified by parity. By pairing even and odd states that are close in energy, one can construct effective Majorana operators as combinations of these parity partners. These operators must also satisfy the required anticommutation relations. By including m parity pairs, the construction can be written as

$$\begin{aligned}\gamma_+^{(m)} &= \sum_{j=1}^m s_j (|e_j\rangle \langle o_j| + |o_j\rangle \langle e_j|), \\ \gamma_-^{(m)} &= i \sum_{j=1}^m s_j (|e_j\rangle \langle o_j| - |o_j\rangle \langle e_j|).\end{aligned}\tag{2.22}$$

Here $s_j = \pm 1$ is the remaining relative sign convention for each even-odd pair [17, 35]. For $m = 1$, only the ground-state parity pair contributes. Larger values of m include more of the low-energy spectrum and allow the same construction to be tested in enlarged projected spaces.

The projected junction calculation identifies the active channel by decomposing T_{AB} and T_{AC} into Majorana bilinears. A second, more local check starts from the endpoint Majorana operators themselves. For an endpoint dot in subsystem $S = B, C$, the two local Majorana components are

$$\chi_{S,+} = c_S^\dagger + c_S, \quad \chi_{S,-} = i(c_S^\dagger - c_S).\tag{2.23}$$

After projection into the retained low-energy space, the component associated with the active channel is written as

$$\Gamma_B^P = s_B \mathcal{N}_B V^\dagger \chi_{B,\mu_B} V, \quad \Gamma_C^P = s_C \mathcal{N}_C V^\dagger \chi_{C,\mu_C} V, \quad \mu_B, \mu_C \in \{+, -\},\tag{2.24}$$

where V contains the retained low-energy states, $\mathcal{N}_{B,C}$ normalize the projected operators, and $s_{B,C} = \pm 1$ fix the overall sign convention. These operators lead to a projected local-operator braid Hamiltonian of the form

$$\begin{aligned}H_{\text{loc}}(t) &= \lambda_A(t) i \gamma_{A1} \gamma_{A2} + \\ &\quad \lambda_{AB}(t) i \gamma_{A1} \Gamma_B^P + \\ &\quad \lambda_{AC}(t) i \gamma_{A1} \Gamma_C^P.\end{aligned}\tag{2.25}$$

The coefficient $\lambda_A(t)$ tunes the effective coupling within subsystem A , corresponding microscopically to changing the PMM parameters that control the overlap between γ_{A1} and γ_{A2} . The coefficients $\lambda_{AB}(t)$ and $\lambda_{AC}(t)$ tune the couplings from A to the B and C endpoints.

The projected microscopic junction and local-operator constructions therefore answer different questions. The junction construction identifies which Majorana bilinear channel is selected by the physical hopping-and-pairing coupling between subsystems. The local-operator construction tests whether this channel is also visible in projected endpoint Majorana operators. Agreement between these checks supports the interpretation that the braid is carried by a local endpoint Majorana channel, while the braid quality itself is assessed from the generated unitary.

Chapter 3

Method

This chapter describes the methods used to optimize the Majorana modes in the junction setup and to analyze their properties. We first discuss the parameter optimization process, including the model parameterization, loss function design based on Majorana criteria, and the optimization strategy. Next, we detail the post-optimization analysis of the setup, covering Hamiltonian reconstruction, parity classification, and various diagnostics. Finally, we describe the braiding protocol implemented in an effective Majorana model and how we validate the results using gate-validation checks.

3.1 Numerical PMM Hamiltonian and Basis

The numerical calculations are built from the spinless n -dot PMM Hamiltonian introduced in the theory chapter. This section specifies how that model is represented in the code: which Hamiltonian is diagonalized, which basis is used, how the fermionic operators are constructed, and how the model parameters are organized before optimization and braiding calculations.

3.1.1 Single-Chain Hamiltonian

For a single n -dot PMM chain, the Hamiltonian used in the optimization and diagnostic calculations is

$$H_{\text{PMM}} = \sum_{i=1}^n \epsilon_i n_i + \sum_{i=1}^{n-1} \left[-t_i (c_i^\dagger c_{i+1} + c_{i+1}^\dagger c_i) + \Delta_i (c_i c_{i+1} + c_{i+1}^\dagger c_i^\dagger) + U_i n_i n_{i+1} \right]. \quad (3.1)$$

Here $c_i^\dagger$ and c_i create and annihilate a spinless fermion on dot i , and $n_i = c_i^\dagger c_i$ is the corresponding number operator. The onsite energies ϵ_i play the role of local chemical potentials, t_i are elastic cotunneling amplitudes, Δ_i are crossed-Andreev pairing amplitudes, and U_i are nearest-neighbor density-density interaction strengths.

3.1.2 Many-Body Fock Basis

All operators are represented in the full many-body Fock basis. For a chain with n dots, a basis state is specified by the occupation pattern

$$|n_1 n_2 \cdots n_n\rangle, \quad n_i \in \{0, 1\}, \quad (3.2)$$

so the Hilbert-space dimension of a single chain is 2^n . Diagonalizing Eq. 3.1 in this basis gives the full many-body spectrum and eigenstates used to calculate the Majorana diagnostics.

For braiding calculations, several optimized chains are combined into a larger Hilbert space. If D identical PMM subsystems are used, each containing n dots, the total number of fermionic sites is $N_{\text{tot}} = Dn$ and the full Hilbert-space dimension is $2^{N_{\text{tot}}}$. In the three-arm braiding geometry used later, $D = 3$, corresponding to subsystems A , B , and C .

3.1.3 Jordan-Wigner Construction of Fermionic Operators

Using the Jordan-Wigner construction introduced in Sec. 2.4.2, the code builds fermionic creation and annihilation operators from local spin raising and lowering operators. For site j , the operators are represented schematically as

$$c_j^\dagger = \left[\prod_{k < j} (-\sigma_k^z) \right] \sigma_j^+, \quad c_j = \left[\prod_{k < j} (-\sigma_k^z) \right] \sigma_j^-. \quad (3.3)$$

The same construction is used for single-chain calculations and for the enlarged three-subsystem Hilbert space.

Once the creation and annihilation operators have been constructed, the code precomputes the basic operator products needed repeatedly:

$$n_i = c_i^\dagger c_i, \quad h_{ij} = c_i^\dagger c_j + c_j^\dagger c_i, \quad p_{ij} = c_i^\dagger c_j^\dagger + c_j c_i, \quad d_{ij} = n_i n_j. \quad (3.4)$$

These building blocks are then combined with the parameter values in Eq. 3.1 to assemble the Hamiltonian matrix. For the three-subsystem geometry, the Jordan-Wigner ordering is

$$A_1, A_2, \dots, A_n, B_1, B_2, \dots, B_n, C_1, C_2, \dots, C_n.$$

Operators acting on subsystem B therefore carry a Jordan-Wigner string over all sites in subsystem A, while all operators acting on subsystem C carry a string over all sites in both A and B.

The parameter conventions used when assembling this Hamiltonian during optimization are described in Sec. 3.2.1.

3.2 Parameter Optimization and Loss Function

The purpose of the optimization is to find parameter regimes where the finite PMM chain has the spectral and local signatures of Majorana-like states. The theory chapter defined the physical criteria; here they are turned into a numerical objective. For each trial parameter vector, the Hamiltonian in Eq. 3.1 is constructed, diagonalized, separated into parity sectors, and assigned a scalar loss. The optimizer then updates only the free parameters, while fixed parameters are reinserted when the physical Hamiltonian is rebuilt.

3.2.1 Optimization Vector and Parameter Reconstruction

The Hamiltonian in Eq. 3.1 is specified by the physical parameters $\{t_i, U_i, \epsilon_i, \Delta_i\}$. In the numerical implementation, each group of parameters can be fixed, homogeneous, or inhomogeneous. A fixed parameter is held at a prescribed value and is not included in

the optimization vector. A homogeneous parameter has the same value on every site or bond, while an inhomogeneous parameter is allowed to vary independently from site to site or bond to bond. This makes it possible to compare restricted ansatz with more flexible parameter searches using the same Hamiltonian-building routine.

The optimizer therefore does not act directly on a full dictionary of physical parameters. Instead, it acts on a reduced real vector θ containing only the entries that are free in the chosen parameter configuration. For example, if t_i is fixed and U_i is fixed to a selected interaction strength, then those entries are excluded from θ . If a parameter is homogeneous, only one number is included, or if it is inhomogeneous, one number is included for each site or bond.

The reduced vector is converted back into a parameter dictionary before the Hamiltonian is evaluated. Schematically,

$$\theta \longrightarrow \{t_i, U_i, \epsilon_i, \Delta_i\} \longrightarrow H_{\text{PMM}}(\theta). \quad (3.5)$$

During this conversion, fixed values are reinserted, homogeneous values are expanded across all sites or bonds when needed, and positive couplings such as t_i , U_i , and Δ_i are constrained to be non-negative. This separation lets the optimizer work with a compact vector while the Hamiltonian is still assembled from physical parameters.

In the optimization runs, the hopping amplitudes are fixed to $t_i = 1$, while the interaction strength U is fixed to the value being studied. The remaining parameters, the onsite energies ϵ_i and pairing amplitudes Δ_i , are optimized. Fixing the hopping scale prevents the optimizer from lowering the loss through a trivial global rescaling of the kinetic energy, and instead forces the search to find nontrivial onsite and pairing profiles for each interaction strength. This also rules out the possibility of blowing up all other parameters in order to suppress the relative effect of interactions, which would be an unphysical way to achieve a low loss in the strongly interacting regime.

For each system size n and interaction strength U , the lowest-loss physical parameter set is stored and later reused in the diagnostic and braiding calculations. The same parameter convention is also used when constructing the three-subsystem braiding geometry, as the optimized single-chain parameters define each subsystem, while additional inter-subsystem couplings are introduced only in the braiding-model sections below.

3.2.2 Parity-Resolved Spectral Loss

For each trial Hamiltonian, the full many-body spectrum is obtained by exact diagonalization. The eigenstates are then classified by the total fermion parity operator,

$$P_{\text{tot}} = \prod_{i=1}^n (1 - 2n_i). \quad (3.6)$$

This gives two ordered energy lists, one in the even sector and one in the odd sector,

$$\{E_k^{(e)}\}, \quad \{E_k^{(o)}\}. \quad (3.7)$$

The loss function compares these parity partners level by level. For the parity-conserving Hamiltonians considered here, the even and odd sectors have equal dimension. The implementation nevertheless checks this explicitly, so that numerical or construction errors in the parity classification do not enter the loss evaluation.

The first loss contribution penalizes the energy splitting between even- and odd-parity partners,

$$\delta_k = |E_k^{(e)} - E_k^{(o)}|. \quad (3.8)$$

As discussed in Sec. 2.3.1, small even-odd splittings are one of the main spectral signatures of Majorana-like states. In the loss, these splittings are weighted more strongly at low energy. If N_p parity pairs are used, the implementation defines a decreasing weight array

$$w_\ell = \left[w_{\max} - \frac{\ell}{2N_p - 2} (w_{\max} - w_{\min}) \right]^2, \quad \ell = 0, \dots, 2N_p - 2, \quad (3.9)$$

with $w_{\max} = 3$ and $w_{\min} = 0.1$. The degeneracy contribution is

$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{deg}} = \sum_{k=0}^{N_p-1} w_k |E_k^{(e)} - E_k^{(o)}|. \quad (3.10)$$

This term encourages the optimizer to produce an approximately parity-paired spectrum, with particular emphasis on the lowest-energy states.

The first N_p entries of the weight array are used for the degeneracy term, while the remaining $N_p - 1$ entries are used for the excitation-gap term. For adjacent parity pairs, the relevant gap is taken as

$$\Delta_k = \min(E_{k+1}^{(e)} - E_k^{(e)}, E_{k+1}^{(o)} - E_k^{(o)}). \quad (3.11)$$

This Δ_k is the smaller spacing between adjacent levels in the two parity sectors. The corresponding weight is w_{N_p+k} .

Small gaps are penalized using a smooth threshold function,

$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{gap}} = \sum_{k=0}^{N_p-2} w_{N_p+k} \text{softplus}(\Delta_{\text{target}} - \Delta_k), \quad (3.12)$$

where Δ_{target} is the desired minimum gap scale, and the softplus function is defined as $\text{softplus}(x) = \log(1 + e^x)[9]$.

3.2.3 Charge and Majorana-Polarization Terms

The local part of the loss turns the charge and Majorana-polarization diagnostics from Secs. 2.3.2 and 2.3.3 into numerical penalties. The charge penalty measures how differently the even and odd partners occupy each site,

$$\mathcal{L}_Q = \sum_k \sum_j |\langle e_k | n_j | e_k \rangle - \langle o_k | n_j | o_k \rangle|. \quad (3.13)$$

This is the implementation form of the site-resolved charge-difference diagnostic.

The Majorana-polarization diagnostic itself was defined in Sec. 2.3.3. In the optimizer, the corresponding penalty is implemented directly from the parity-changing matrix elements of the two local Majorana components $\gamma_{j,1} = c_j^\dagger + c_j$ and $\gamma_{j,2} = i(c_j^\dagger - c_j)$. For parity pair k and site j , the code forms

$$\widetilde{M}_{k,j} = (\langle o_k | \gamma_{j,1} | e_k \rangle)^2 + (\langle o_k | \gamma_{j,2} | e_k \rangle)^2. \quad (3.14)$$

The target profile is concentrated on the two ends of the chain with opposite sign,

$$\widetilde{M}_{k,1}^{\text{tar}} = 1, \quad \widetilde{M}_{k,n}^{\text{tar}} = -1, \quad \widetilde{M}_{k,j}^{\text{tar}} = 0 \quad (1 < j < n). \quad (3.15)$$

The sign of this target pattern is allowed to flip, since exchanging the labels of the two Majorana components changes the overall sign but not the physical localization pattern. The implemented Majorana-polarization penalty is therefore

$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{MP}} = \min_{\sigma=\pm 1} \left| \sum_{k,j} \left(\tilde{M}_{k,j} - \sigma \tilde{M}_{k,j}^{\text{tar}} \right)^2 \right|. \quad (3.16)$$

3.2.4 Total Normalized Loss

The full loss is a sum of the spectral and local contributions. The implemented total loss is

$$\mathcal{L} = \frac{\mathcal{L}_{\text{deg}} + \mathcal{L}_{\text{gap}} + \mathcal{L}_Q + \mathcal{L}_{\text{MP}}}{|\overline{E}| + \eta}, \quad (3.17)$$

where $|\overline{E}|$ is the mean absolute energy scale of the spectrum and η is a small numerical offset. The spectral weights are already included in $\mathcal{L}_{\text{deg}}$ and $\mathcal{L}_{\text{gap}}$.

The normalization by $|\overline{E}|$ makes the spectral part of the loss less sensitive to the overall energy scale of a trial Hamiltonian. However, this normalization is not invariant under a uniform energy shift $H \mapsto H + \alpha \mathbb{1}$, since such a shift changes the absolute energies but leaves gaps and eigenvectors unchanged. In the parametrization used here there is no independent identity-shift parameter, so the optimizer does not explore such shifts directly.

A further limitation is that the same denominator also rescales the charge and Majorana-polarization penalties. These terms are dimensionless eigenvector diagnostics rather than energy penalties, so dividing them by an energy scale can make their contribution smaller when the spectrum becomes larger, even if the local Majorana quality does not improve. This possible bias is partly mitigated by fixing the hopping scale to $t = 1$ and fixing U during each optimization run, but the scalar loss should still be interpreted together with the separate spectral and local diagnostics.

3.2.5 Search Strategy

The resulting loss landscape is non-convex, especially once interactions are included. The numerical search therefore combines local gradient-based optimization with a basin-hopping procedure. The local optimizer is Adam, implemented with PyTorch automatic differentiation [18, 33].

At each Adam step, the reduced vector θ is converted into physical parameters, the Hamiltonian is constructed and diagonalized, and PyTorch automatic differentiation computes the gradient of the loss with respect to θ .

The Adam update can be written as

$$\theta_k = \theta_{k-1} - \eta_{\text{Adam}} \frac{\hat{m}_k}{\sqrt{\hat{v}_k + \varepsilon_{\text{Adam}}}}, \quad (3.18)$$

where η_{Adam} is the learning rate, and $\hat{m}_k$ and $\hat{v}_k$ are the bias-corrected moving averages of the gradient and squared gradient, respectively [18]. In the implementation, Adam is called with learning rate $\eta_{\text{Adam}} = 0.05$, while the remaining Adam parameters are left at the PyTorch defaults, $\beta_1 = 0.9$, $\beta_2 = 0.999$, and $\varepsilon_{\text{Adam}} = 10^{-8}$. The parameters β_1 and β_2 set the moving averages that enter $\hat{m}_k$ and $\hat{v}_k$.

The numerical implementation of the Adam and basin-hopping search starts from a current parameter vector θ_{current} . A basin-hop is generated by drawing a trial vector

$$\theta_{\text{trial}} = \theta_{\text{current}} + 0.25 \xi, \quad (3.19)$$

where the components of ξ are normally distributed with zero mean and unit variance. Around this trial vector, we perform 6 restarted Adam runs, each with an additional random perturbation,

$$\theta_{\text{trial}} + \delta^{(r)}, \quad \delta_i^{(r)} \sim \text{Unif}(-0.8, 0.8). \quad (3.20)$$

The scale 0.8 was kept fixed as a practical perturbation scale, so that each basin-hop proposal is tested by several local Adam searches rather than a single trajectory. Each restarted run uses 300 Adam iterations. The lowest-loss result from these restarts is used as the candidate for that basin-hopping step.

If the candidate has lower loss than the current vector, it is accepted. A candidate with higher loss is accepted with probability

$$p = \exp[-(\mathcal{L}_{\text{cand}} - \mathcal{L}_{\text{current}})]. \quad (3.21)$$

This allows the search to occasionally leave a local basin instead of always moving downhill. The full basin-hopping search uses 30 such steps for each pair (n, U) .

These search hyperparameters were not optimized systematically. They were kept fixed as practical settings chosen to balance exploration of the loss landscape against computational cost. For each pair (n, U) , the best configuration found by this procedure is stored together with its loss, parameter configuration, and reconstructed physical parameters.

3.3 Post-Optimization Diagnostics

The optimization procedure returns candidate parameter sets ranked by a scalar loss. Since this loss combines several criteria, a low value does not by itself show which Majorana signatures are actually present. For each pair (n, U) , the lowest-loss parameter set is therefore used to rebuild and diagonalize $H_{\text{PMM}}(\theta_{\text{opt}})$, after which the parity, charge, and Majorana-polarization diagnostics introduced in the theory chapter and used in the loss function above are evaluated separately.

For plotting and comparison, the parity-resolved spectrum is shifted so that the lowest state in either parity sector has energy zero. The reported spectral quantities are the splitting of the lowest even-odd pair,

$$\delta_0 = |E_0^{(e)} - E_0^{(o)}|. \quad (3.22)$$

The corresponding gap from this lowest pair to the nearest excited state is

$$\Delta_{\text{gap}} = \min(E_1^{(e)}, E_1^{(o)}) - \max(E_0^{(e)}, E_0^{(o)}), \quad (3.23)$$

using the shifted energies. The local charge diagnostic is evaluated for the same lowest parity pair. The site-resolved charge difference is

$$q_i = |\langle e_0 | n_i | e_0 \rangle - \langle o_0 | n_i | o_0 \rangle|. \quad (3.24)$$

The summed charge difference reported in the results is

$$Q_0 = \sum_{i=1}^n q_i. \quad (3.25)$$

In the diagnostic figures, the individual q_i values are plotted together with the Majorana-polarization profile so that charge visibility and spatial localization can be compared site by site. From the lowest-pair Majorana-polarization profile M_i , the reported edge and bulk summaries are

$$\overline{|M_{\text{edge}}|} = \frac{1}{2} (|M_1| + |M_n|), \quad (3.26)$$

and

$$\max |M_{\text{bulk}}| = \max_{2 \leq i \leq n-1} |M_i|. \quad (3.27)$$

For two-dot systems there are no interior sites, so the bulk contribution is set to zero.

The post-optimization diagnostics determine which optimized chains are used in the braiding calculations. Since the later sector-resolved braiding analysis tests projected manifolds beyond the lowest parity pair, the selected configurations are not judged only by the ground-state splitting, but also by the excitation gap, charge difference, and Majorana-polarization profile across the relevant low-energy structure.

3.4 Effective Majorana Operator Construction

The braiding calculations require explicit matrix representations of the Majorana operators associated with the optimized PMM chains. The theory chapter described why these operators should connect even and odd parity states. Here the focus is narrower: how the operators are constructed from the optimized eigenstates, embedded into the three-subsystem Hilbert space, projected to a chosen low-energy space, and checked before they are used in the braid.

3.4.1 Energy-Level Majoranas from Parity Pairs

For each optimized subsystem, the Hamiltonian is diagonalized and the eigenstates are separated into even and odd parity sectors. The states are then paired by their order in energy and inserted into the energy-level construction of Eq. 2.22. In the implementation, the selected number of parity pairs is denoted by m , so the effective Majorana operators are built as

$$\gamma_+^{(m)} = \sum_{j=0}^{m-1} \gamma_{+,j}, \quad \gamma_-^{(m)} = \sum_{j=0}^{m-1} \gamma_{-,j}. \quad (3.28)$$

Here $\gamma_{\pm,j}$ denotes the contribution from the j th even-odd pair. In the code, m is controlled separately from the total projection dimension: the projection dimension determines how much of the full three-subsystem Hilbert space is retained, while m determines how many subsystem parity pairs are used to build the Majorana operator itself.

3.4.2 Embedding Into the Three-Subsystem Hilbert Space

Using the Jordan–Wigner ordering specified in Sec. 3.1.3, subsystem operators are embedded into the full three-subsystem Hilbert space as

$$\gamma_A \mapsto \gamma_A \otimes I_B \otimes I_C, \quad (3.29)$$

$$\gamma_B \mapsto JW_A \otimes \gamma_B \otimes I_C, \quad (3.30)$$

and

$$\gamma_C \mapsto JW_{AB} \otimes \gamma_C, \quad (3.31)$$

where JW_A is the Jordan-Wigner string over subsystem A , and JW_{AB} is the corresponding string over subsystems A and B . The strings preserve the fermionic anticommutation relations between subsystems.

3.4.3 Projection to the Retained Space

The full three-subsystem Hamiltonian is diagonalized, and a projection basis V is formed from a selected set of eigenvectors. In the low-energy benchmark, V contains the eigenvectors of the retained lowest-energy manifold. In the sector-resolved scans, a separate basis V_i is instead formed from all eigenvectors belonging to energy sector i . Here, sector i denotes the i -th degenerate energy manifold, meaning the set of eigenvectors with the same energy within numerical tolerance. Any full-space operator O is then represented in the selected space by

$$O_P = V^\dagger O V. \quad (3.32)$$

This projection is applied to the embedded Majorana operators before they are used in the projected braid models. The same projection basis is also used for all other operators in a given calculation, so that the energy-level Majoranas, local operators, static Hamiltonian, and driven braid terms act in the same retained space.

3.4.4 Projected Local Components

In addition to the energy-level construction above, the code constructs projected local Majorana components from the microscopic endpoint operators introduced in Eq. 2.24. For a chosen projection basis V , the generic projected components are

$$\Gamma_{+,P} = V^\dagger (c^\dagger + c) V, \quad \Gamma_{-,P} = V^\dagger i(c^\dagger - c) V. \quad (3.33)$$

These projected local components provide a more microscopic reference for the Majorana operator at a chosen end of a subsystem. The direct projected local-operator model uses the normalized minus component $\Gamma_{-,P}$. When this operator is compared with the corresponding energy-level Majorana, only an overall sign is allowed,

$$s_{\text{opt}} = \underset{s \in \{-1, +1\}}{\text{argmin}} \left\| \Gamma_{-,P} - s \gamma_-^P \right\|_F. \quad (3.34)$$

This comparison fixes the arbitrary overall sign of the Majorana operator. It does not fit a general linear combination of $\gamma_{+,P}$ and $\gamma_{-,P}$.

For higher-dimensional energy sectors, a single overall sign became insufficient. Degenerate sectors contain several independent blocks associated with different combinations of subsystem energy-level labels. A label operator is therefore constructed

from the paired eigenstates of each subsystem and projected into the selected sector. Diagonalizing this projected label operator decomposes the sector into labelled blocks. Within each block r , the projected local operator is fitted independently to the two available energy-level Majorana components,

$$\Gamma_{-,P}^{(r)} \approx a_r \gamma_{+,P}^{(r)} + b_r \gamma_{-,P}^{(r)}. \quad (3.35)$$

The coefficients a_r and b_r are continuous least-squares coefficients and are allowed to differ between blocks. The fitted blocks are then reassembled into a block-matched local operator on the full selected sector. This construction tests whether the local operator can be represented by the energy-level Majorana pair after the independent degenerate blocks have been identified. The detailed construction of the label operator and the resulting block structure is presented and explained in the appendix A.

3.4.5 Normalization and Algebra Checks

After projection into the retained subspace, the Majorana operators used in the braid are checked numerically. This includes the projected energy-level Majoranas and, when used, the projected local or block-matched operators. The diagnostics test Hermiticity, normalization,

$$\gamma_i^2 \approx I, \quad (3.36)$$

and mutual anticommutation,

$$\{\gamma_i, \gamma_j\} \approx 0 \quad (i \neq j). \quad (3.37)$$

These algebra checks quantify how well the projected operators retain the Majorana structure in the chosen subspace.

3.5 Braiding Models and Pulse Protocol

The braiding calculations use the optimized PMM chains as building blocks for a three-subsystem junction. The purpose of this section is to define the Hamiltonians that are driven during the braid and the common pulse sequence used for all model variants. The following section then describes how the resulting time-dependent evolution is calculated and compared with the target exchange gate.

3.5.1 Three-Subsystem Geometry

The junction consists of three optimized PMM subsystems, labelled A , B , and C . For each subsystem, energy-level Majorana operators are constructed from the even-odd parity pairs as described in Sec. 3.4. In the braid notation used below, the two energy-level Majoranas from subsystem A are denoted by γ_0 and γ_1 . The Majoranas associated with subsystems B and C are denoted by γ_2 and γ_3 when they are used as the exchanged pair.

In this notation, the intended exchange is generated by moving the coupling of γ_0 from γ_1 to γ_2 , then to γ_3 , and finally back to γ_1 .

All braiding models are built in the projected Hilbert space introduced in Sec. 3.4.

The driven braid terms are supplemented by the projected static Hamiltonian of the uncoupled subsystem background,

$$H_{\text{static}} = V^\dagger (H_B + H_C) V. \quad (3.38)$$

This term keeps the internal optimized-chain structure of subsystems B and C while the time-dependent junction couplings are varied. Since it is included in the same way for the model comparisons, the differences between the braid results come from the choice of driven coupling operators rather than from a different static background.

3.5.2 Energy-Level Reference Model

The reference braid model uses four energy-level Majorana operators and hand-chosen bilinear couplings. In the projected space, the time-dependent Hamiltonian is

$$H_{\text{ref}}(t) = \lambda_1(t) i\gamma_0\gamma_1 + \lambda_2(t) i\gamma_0\gamma_2 + \lambda_3(t) i\gamma_0\gamma_3. \quad (3.39)$$

This model is used as a reference calculation. Since the couplings are written directly as Majorana bilinears, it isolates the braid protocol itself from the additional complications of microscopic junction operators and imperfect projected Majoranas.

3.5.3 Projected Microscopic Junction Model

The projected microscopic junction model starts from the physical endpoint couplings between the optimized PMM subsystems. We use the junction operator introduced in Eq. 2.17, with an analogous operator for the A – C junction, and project these full-space operators into the retained low-energy space,

$$T_{AB} = V^\dagger H_{AB}^{\text{junc}} V, \quad T_{AC} = V^\dagger H_{AC}^{\text{junc}} V. \quad (3.40)$$

These two terms can help identify which low-energy Majorana channel is selected by the physical endpoint coupling. We can decompose the projected junction operators T_{AB} and T_{AC} , into the basis of Majorana bilinears,

$$c_\alpha^{AB} = \frac{1}{d} \text{Tr} [(i\gamma_{A1}\gamma_{B\alpha})^\dagger T_{AB}], \quad c_\beta^{AC} = \frac{1}{d} \text{Tr} [(i\gamma_{A1}\gamma_{C\beta})^\dagger T_{AC}], \quad (3.41)$$

testing for both $\alpha, \beta \in \{1, 2\}$, where d is the dimension of the projected space. The normalized trace is the Hilbert–Schmidt overlap between the projected junction operator and a Majorana bilinear[13]. The $\gamma_{S,i}$ operators are the projected energy-level Majoranas from the subsystems $S = A, B, C$, constructed from the parity-pair operators of Eq. 2.22 as summarized in Eq. 3.28. The maximum absolute value of the coefficients c_α^{AB} and c_β^{AC} identifies which low-energy Majorana channel is selected by the physical endpoint coupling.

The projected microscopic braid Hamiltonian is then

$$H_{\text{junc}}(t) = \lambda_1(t) T_A + \lambda_2(t) T_{AB} + \lambda_3(t) T_{AC}, \quad (3.42)$$

where $T_A = i\gamma_0\gamma_1$ is the initial coupling inside subsystem A . This model keeps the full projected hopping-and-pairing structure of the microscopic junctions.

3.5.4 Projected Local-Operator Model

The projected local-operator model uses the channel identified by the projected microscopic junction decomposition, but constructs the exchanged operators from local endpoint Majorana components instead of from the full junction Hamiltonian. The endpoint components are those defined in Eq. 2.24. After projection and normalization,

the component selected by the junction analysis defines the local Majorana operator Γ_S^P used in the braid.

The corresponding local-operator braid uses the same bilinear form as Eq. 2.25. In the method notation, this corresponds to the identifications $\gamma_{A1} \rightarrow \gamma_0$, $\gamma_{A2} \rightarrow \gamma_1$, $\lambda_A \rightarrow \lambda_1$, $\lambda_{AB} \rightarrow \lambda_2$, and $\lambda_{AC} \rightarrow \lambda_3$. This construction tests whether the same exchange channel selected by the full projected junction is also obtained from projected local endpoint Majorana operators.

3.5.5 Block-Matched Local-Operator Model

The sector-resolved scans also use a block-matched local-operator model. It has the same bilinear form as Eq. 2.25, but replaces the direct projected local operators by the block-matched operators defined in Eq. 3.35. The labelled blocks are fitted independently and then reassembled before the braid Hamiltonian is constructed. This model tests whether resolving the internal degeneracy structure of a sector improves the braid generated from the local channel.

3.5.6 Pulse Sequence

The same pulse sequence is used for each braid model. To avoid confusing the braid amplitudes with the superconducting pairing parameters Δ_i , the time-dependent braid couplings are denoted by $\lambda_i(t)$. The coupling envelope is a smooth pulse constructed from two sigmoid functions,

$$\lambda(t; T_p) = \lambda_{\min} + (\lambda_{\max} - \lambda_{\min}) \frac{1}{1 + \exp[-sP_+(t; T_p)]} \frac{1}{1 + \exp[sP_-(t; T_p)]}, \quad (3.43)$$

where

$$P_+(t; T_p) = t - T_p + w/2, \quad P_-(t; T_p) = t - T_p - w/2. \quad (3.44)$$

Here T_p is the pulse center, w is the pulse width, and s controls the steepness of the rise and fall. The three braid couplings are then chosen as

$$\lambda_1(t) = \lambda(t; 0) + \lambda(t; T) - \lambda_{\min}, \quad \lambda_2(t) = \lambda(t; T/3), \quad \lambda_3(t) = \lambda(t; 2T/3). \quad (3.45)$$

Thus the A -arm coupling is active at the beginning and end of the cycle, while the A - B and A - C couplings are activated in sequence during the middle of the protocol. In the numerical calculations used here, the total braid time is set to $T = 1$, with $\lambda_{\max} = 1$, $\lambda_{\min} = 0$, pulse width $w = T/3$, and steepness $s = 20/w$.

At each time step, the Hamiltonian for the chosen model is assembled from the same three time-dependent coefficients. The instantaneous spectrum is monitored along the path, and the isolated low-energy band is then transported using the Kato procedure described in the next section.

3.6 Kato Transport and Braid Validation

After a braid Hamiltonian has been defined, the remaining task is to compute the unitary generated by the adiabatic path and to check whether it implements the desired Majorana exchange. The calculation is performed in the projected Hilbert space, but the transported subspace can be smaller than the full projection space. This section describes the transported bands used in the calculations, how the Kato evolution is computed, and which diagnostics are used to compare the resulting unitary with the target braid.

3.6.1 Transported Bands

In the low-energy benchmark, the transported subspace is the isolated four-dimensional lowest-energy manifold. Its gap to the remaining projected states is monitored throughout the braid path.

In the sector-resolved scans, each energy sector is projected and tested independently. Activating the braid Hamiltonian splits the initially degenerate sector into a lower and an upper band of equal dimension. The Kato calculation transports the lower band, so that for a sector projection of dimension d_{P_i} the transported dimension is fixed to

$$d_{T_i} = \frac{d_{P_i}}{2}. \quad (3.46)$$

The spectral gap between these two bands is monitored along the path. The existence of this isolated lower band makes the transport well defined, while the final target comparison determines whether the transported unitary actually performs the intended exchange.

3.6.2 Numerical Kato Transport

The braid path is discretized into time points $t_0, \dots, t_N$. At each time step, the Hamiltonian is diagonalized and the projector onto the transported band is constructed,

$$P(t_\ell) = \sum_{a=1}^{d_T} |\psi_a(t_\ell)\rangle \langle \psi_a(t_\ell)|. \quad (3.47)$$

The Kato generator is approximated from consecutive projectors,

$$K(t_\ell) = P(t_\ell)\dot{P}(t_\ell) - \dot{P}(t_\ell)P(t_\ell), \quad \dot{P}(t_\ell) \approx \frac{P(t_{\ell+1}) - P(t_\ell)}{\Delta t}. \quad (3.48)$$

The transport unitary is updated as

$$U_K(t_{\ell+1}) = \exp[-\Delta t K(t_\ell)]U_K(t_\ell), \quad U_K(t_0) = I. \quad (3.49)$$

This gives the geometric transport of the selected subspace along the braid path. The instantaneous energies and pulse amplitudes are stored at the same time, so that the quality of the transported band can be checked together with the final braid unitary.

3.6.3 Target Exchange Gate

The target unitary for exchanging γ_2 and γ_3 is taken to be

$$U_{\text{target}} = \exp\left(-\frac{\pi}{4}\gamma_2\gamma_3\right). \quad (3.50)$$

This convention corresponds to the exchange action

$$\gamma_2 \mapsto -\gamma_3, \quad \gamma_3 \mapsto \gamma_2, \quad (3.51)$$

up to the overall sign convention chosen for the Majorana operators. This is the Heisenberg action $U_K^\dagger \gamma_i U_K$ used in the numerical checks, which is the inverse conjugation convention to the one written in Sec. 2.4.4. Since a global phase of the transported unitary is physically irrelevant, comparisons with the target gate are made after aligning

the overall phase. In practice, the reported gate error is a Frobenius-norm distance between the transported unitary and the phase-aligned target unitary, restricted to the initial transported basis.

For the sector-resolved scans, the agreement with the target is also summarized by the normalized overlap

$$\mathcal{O} = \frac{1}{d_T} \left| \text{Tr} \left(U_{\text{target}}^\dagger U_K \right) \right|, \quad D_{\mathcal{O}} = |1 - \mathcal{O}|, \quad (3.52)$$

where d_T is the dimension of the transported subspace. A perfect match up to a global phase gives $\mathcal{O} = 1$, so the plotted quantity $D_{\mathcal{O}}$ vanishes for a perfect target match and increases as the transported unitary deviates from the target.

3.6.4 Operator-Action Checks

The first validation step checks the induced action on the Majorana operators directly. For each model, the transported unitary is applied as

$$\gamma'_i = U_K^\dagger \gamma_i U_K. \quad (3.53)$$

The resulting operators are compared with the expected single-exchange map,

$$\gamma'_2 \approx -\gamma_3, \quad \gamma'_3 \approx \gamma_2, \quad \gamma'_0 \approx \gamma_0, \quad \gamma'_1 \approx \gamma_1. \quad (3.54)$$

The mismatch is measured as the normalized Frobenius norm of each operator-map residual. For the exchanged Majoranas,

$$\epsilon_{\gamma_2} = \frac{\|U_K^\dagger \gamma_2 U_K + \gamma_3\|_F}{\sqrt{d}}, \quad \epsilon_{\gamma_3} = \frac{\|U_K^\dagger \gamma_3 U_K - \gamma_2\|_F}{\sqrt{d}}. \quad (3.55)$$

The spectator Majoranas are checked in the same way,

$$\epsilon_{\gamma_0} = \frac{\|U_K^\dagger \gamma_0 U_K - \gamma_0\|_F}{\sqrt{d}}, \quad \epsilon_{\gamma_1} = \frac{\|U_K^\dagger \gamma_1 U_K - \gamma_1\|_F}{\sqrt{d}}. \quad (3.56)$$

Here d is the matrix dimension in the comparison space. These quantities report the braid error directly in the Majorana-operator language used to define the target exchange. In the projected calculations, the same operator-action check is evaluated with the target Majoranas appropriate to the construction being tested. For the energy-level construction, γ_2 and γ_3 are the Majorana operators constructed from even-odd parity pairs, as described in Sec. 3.4. For the projected-local and block-matched constructions, the corresponding target operators are instead built from the projected local endpoint Majorana components.

The mismatch between the energy-level target and the projected-local target is also recorded. A small mismatch indicates that the two constructions define the same effective exchange channel in the retained subspace, while a larger mismatch means that the target definition itself contributes to the reported braid error.

3.6.5 Parity-Resolved Gate Checks

The transported unitary is also analyzed in a parity basis. The total parity operator is projected into the initial transported space and diagonalized, separating the unitary into odd- and even-parity blocks. The off-block leakage is defined from the norm of the odd-to-even and even-to-odd blocks,

$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{parity}} = \|U_{oe}\| + \|U_{eo}\|. \quad (3.57)$$

A small value indicates that the braid approximately preserves fermion parity inside the transported manifold. This is required by fermion-parity conservation and therefore serves as a numerical check.

After the parity blocks have been separated, each block is compared with the corresponding block of the target exchange gate in Eq. 3.50. This produces separate odd- and even-sector target-gate errors. Reporting the parity blocks separately is useful because the same Majorana exchange can appear with different matrix representations in the two parity sectors, while still describing the same physical braid.

Chapter 4

Results

This chapter presents the main numerical results of the thesis. The first part analyzes the optimized PMM chains obtained from the basin-hopping optimization procedure. The optimized parameters are compared across system sizes and interaction strengths, and the resulting Hamiltonians are evaluated using the spectral and local Majorana diagnostics introduced in the previous chapters.

The second part focuses on braiding. Based on the post-optimization diagnostics, the most promising optimized configuration is selected as the building block for a three-subsystem braiding geometry. The braid analysis begins with a controlled ground-state benchmark, comparing the energy-level Majorana reference model, the projected microscopic junction model, and the projected local-operator model. The projected microscopic junction is used to identify which low-energy Majorana channel is selected by physical endpoint couplings. The selected projected local Majorana operators, denoted by Γ^P , are then used in the final and most extensive part.

The final part extends the braid analysis to perform braiding in all identified energy sectors of the full three-subsystem system. This tests whether the optimized PMM chains can support Majorana-like exchange beyond the lowest projected manifold and how braids constructed from local microscopic operators behave across different sectors. The sector scans reported here compare each construction with its own target; a common-target comparison is required to determine whether the local constructions reproduce the energy-level exchange channel.

4.1 Optimized PMM Chains

This section presents the parameter configurations obtained from the basin-hopping optimization procedure and compares how they depend on chain length and interaction strength. The optimization was performed for chain lengths $n = 2, 3$, and 4, and for fixed interaction strengths $U = 0, 0.1, 0.5, 1.0, 2.0$, and 5.0. In all cases, the hopping amplitudes were fixed to $t_i = 1$, while the onsite energies ϵ_i and pairing amplitudes Δ_i were optimized inhomogeneously.

4.1.1 Lowest-loss configurations

Table 4.1 displays the lowest-loss configuration found for each combination of chain length n and fixed interaction strength U . Since the hopping amplitudes were fixed to $t_i = 1$ in these runs, the table lists only the optimized pairing amplitudes and onsite energies. Empty entries correspond to parameters that are absent for shorter chains.

The two-dot results provide a useful reference point. In the non-interacting case, the optimizer approximately reproduces the sweet spot, with $\Delta_1 \approx t_1 = 1$ and onsite energies close to zero. As the interaction strength is increased, the optimized pairing amplitude grows above the fixed hopping scale, while the onsite energies move approximately toward $\epsilon_i \approx -U/2$.

At the same time, the loss increases substantially with interaction strength. The interacting $n = 2$ cases show that the relation between ϵ and U remains close to $\epsilon_i \approx -U/2$, while the pairing amplitude Δ grows above the fixed hopping scale. This suggests that the parameter search becomes more constrained as the interaction strength increases.

For the three-dot system, the weak- and intermediate-interaction configurations remain close to the homogeneous pairing limit, with $\Delta_1 \approx \Delta_2 \approx 1$ for $U = 0.1$ and $U = 0.5$. The onsite energies, however, become inhomogeneous, with the middle dot often shifted more strongly than the edge dots. This suggests that the optimizer uses the additional site to reshape the effective potential profile while keeping the pairing amplitudes near the hopping scale.

The four-dot results show a more complex optimization landscape. Several of the lowest-loss configurations have strongly enhanced central pairing amplitudes, while the outer pairing amplitudes remain closer to unity. The onsite energies also become increasingly inhomogeneous, especially at larger interaction strengths.

One recurring feature in the longer chains is that interior onsite energies are often shifted more strongly than the edge onsite energies. A possible interpretation is that this interior detuning helps separate the Majorana-like modes toward the edges. The parity-resolved spectrum, charge diagnostics, and Majorana-polarization profiles below test whether the resulting configurations have the desired properties.

4.1.2 Representative optimized spectra

The representative spectra in Figs. 4.1 and 4.2 illustrate how interactions affect the optimized two-dot system. In the non-interacting case, both parity pairs are nearly degenerate, consistent with the expected two-dot sweet spot. When a weak interaction is introduced at $U = 0.1$, the lowest parity pair remains close to degenerate, while the excited pair begins to show a visible splitting. At $U = 2.0$, this excited-state splitting becomes much larger. This means that although the ground-state pair can retain a low-energy Majorana-like signature, the system does not maintain clean parity-pair degeneracy across the full finite spectrum when interactions are included.

n	U	Loss	Δ_1	Δ_2	Δ_3	ϵ_1	ϵ_2	ϵ_3	ϵ_4
2	0.0	5.657e-03	1.000	—	—	-0.001	0.002	—	—
2	0.1	2.617e-01	1.047	—	—	-0.050	-0.047	—	—
2	0.5	1.083e+00	1.249	—	—	-0.255	-0.249	—	—
2	1.0	1.940e+00	1.498	—	—	-0.499	-0.496	—	—
2	2.0	3.203e+00	2.000	—	—	-1.006	-1.004	—	—
2	5.0	4.004e+00	3.499	—	—	-2.508	-2.506	—	—
3	0.0	3.442e-01	1.010	1.348	—	0.019	1.774	-0.466	—
3	0.1	5.603e-01	1.001	1.002	—	-0.101	-0.607	-0.003	—
3	0.5	9.359e-01	1.004	1.012	—	-0.046	-0.889	-0.454	—
3	1.0	1.452e+00	1.025	1.130	—	-0.195	-1.530	-0.802	—
3	2.0	2.326e+00	1.584	0.978	—	-1.511	-3.077	-0.484	—
3	5.0	3.142e+00	0.846	1.746	—	-4.814	1.009	-0.184	—
4	0.0	3.161e-01	2.698	5.332	1.004	-0.059	-4.252	0.236	-0.003
4	0.1	4.840e-01	1.790	5.002	1.013	0.156	2.376	-1.966	-0.050
4	0.5	1.006e+00	1.212	3.490	1.206	-0.246	-0.499	-0.503	-0.250
4	1.0	5.670e-01	2.238	18.807	1.072	-0.500	-1.028	-1.025	-0.496
4	2.0	1.824e+00	1.492	5.537	1.588	-0.869	3.526	-6.508	-1.220
4	5.0	2.600e+00	3.389	9.513	3.336	-2.645	5.032	-15.431	-2.293

Table 4.1: Lowest-loss optimized configurations extracted from the optimization procedure for each combination of system size n and fixed interaction strength U .

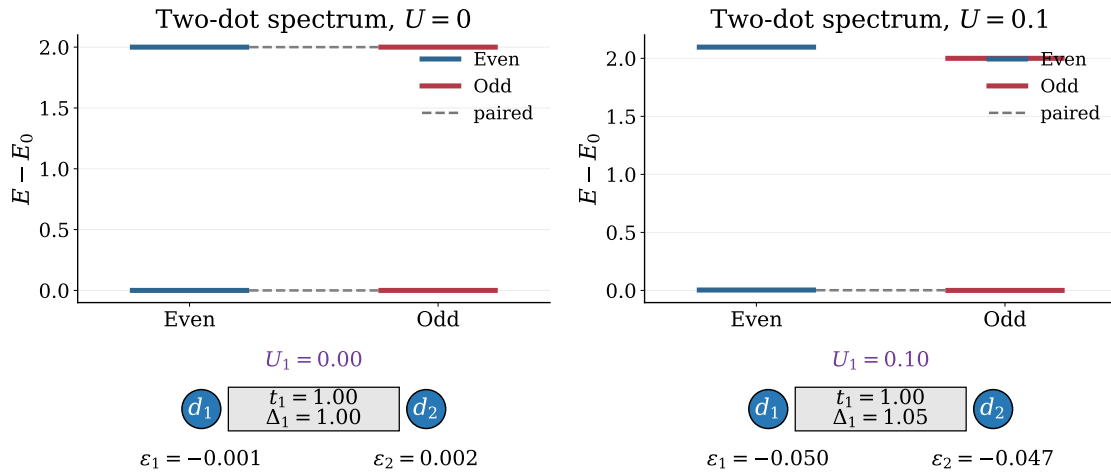


Figure 4.1: Parity-resolved spectra after optimization for the two-dot system at $U = 0$ and $U = 0.1$. Energies are shifted by the ground-state energy in each panel, and the optimized parameters are shown schematically below each spectrum.

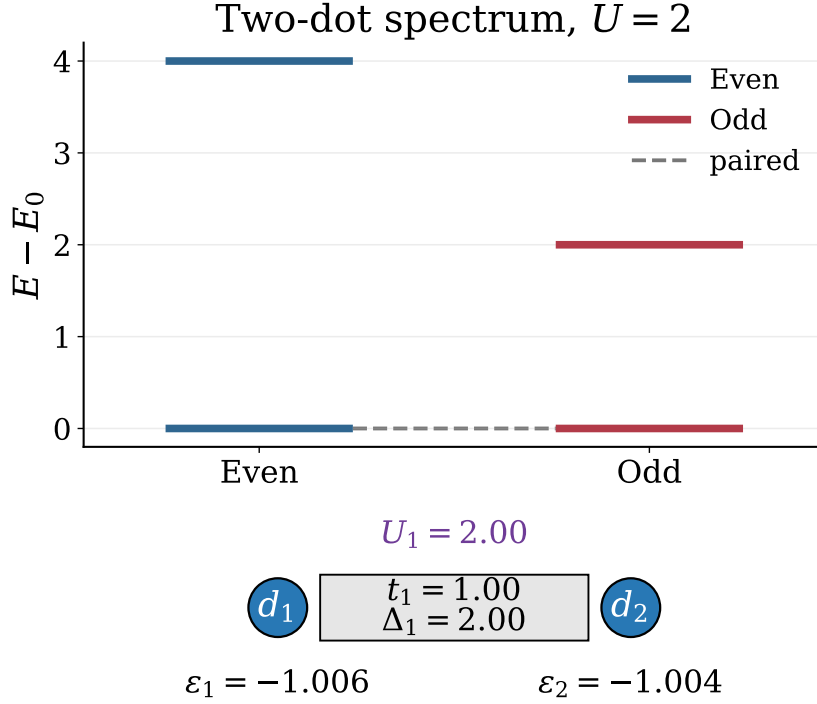


Figure 4.2: Parity-resolved spectrum after optimization for the two-dot system at $U = 2.0$. Energies are shifted by the ground-state energy, and the optimized parameters are shown schematically below the spectrum.

The optimized three-dot system at $U = 0.1$ provides a more promising configuration. As shown in Fig. 4.3, the parity-resolved spectrum remains nearly paired, while the Majorana-polarization profile has the expected edge-localized structure. The polarization is large and opposite in sign on the two outer dots, and it is strongly suppressed on the middle dot. This combination of spectral pairing and spatial Majorana character motivates using this configuration as the main candidate for the braiding calculations below. Comparing the three-dot and two-dot configurations at $U = 0.1$ also illustrates how the additional site can help stabilize Majorana-like features in the presence of interactions. The excited-state degeneracy is better preserved in the three-dot case than in the two-dot case, even though both configurations have similar ground-state splitting and similar optimized parameters. The additional site therefore provides more freedom to optimize the excited states, which is important for maintaining a clean low-energy manifold that can support braiding.

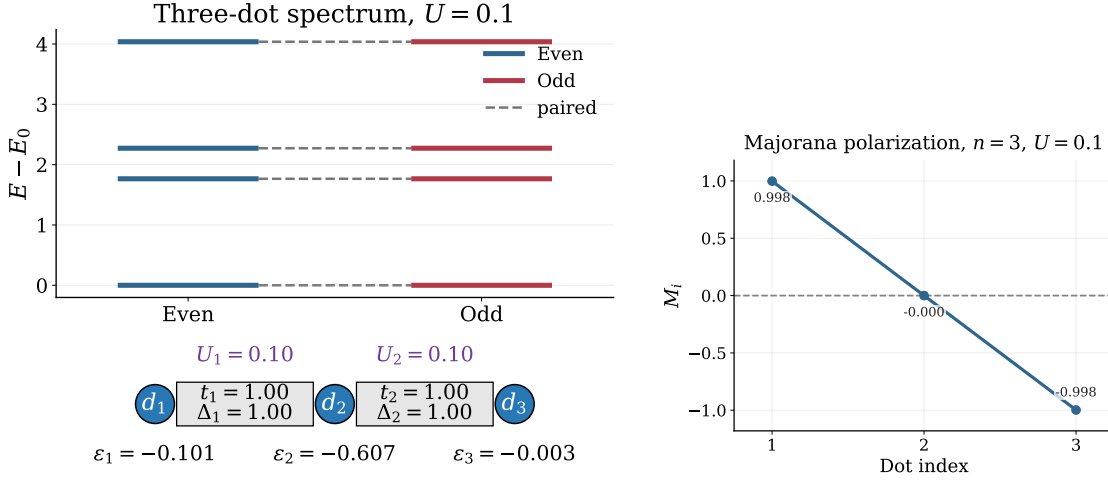


Figure 4.3: Parity-resolved spectrum and Majorana-polarization profile for the optimized three-dot system at $U = 0.1$. The left panel shows the optimized spectrum and parameters, while the right panel shows the Majorana polarization of the lowest even-odd pair.

4.2 Post-Optimization Diagnostics

After optimization, the candidate Hamiltonians must therefore be tested through spectral and local diagnostics. The parity-resolved spectra and low-energy gaps show whether the optimizer has produced an isolated nearly degenerate low-energy manifold, while the charge difference and Majorana-polarization profile test whether this manifold has the expected non-local and edge-localized Majorana character.

4.2.1 Parity-resolved spectra and low-energy gaps

Figure 4.4 compares the parity-resolved spectra for $n = 2, 3$, and 4 at selected interaction strengths. A useful Majorana-like configuration should have a nearly degenerate lowest even-odd pair, together with a finite gap separating this pair from higher excited states. The dashed connectors in the figure indicate parity pairs that remain close in energy after optimization.

The non-interacting cases give the cleanest spectra, as expected. For the two-dot system, the parity pairing is nearly ideal at $U = 0.0$, but the excited-state splitting becomes visible already at weak interaction and increases further at stronger interaction.

The three-dot system is more stable across all interaction strengths shown, compared to both the two-dot and four-dot systems. For $U = 0.0$, $U = 0.1$, and $U = 2.0$, the spectrum remains paired up to the numerical threshold, with relatively large gaps separating distinct energy sectors. The four-dot system shows a promising structure in the non-interacting and weakly interacting cases, while for the stronger interaction $U = 2.0$ the energy degeneracy falls apart. Most importantly, the ground-state energies are no longer degenerate, so there is no longer a clear low-energy manifold that can support braiding. The three-dot system therefore appears to be the most robust candidate for maintaining a clean low-energy manifold across different interaction strengths, but the local diagnostics and Majorana character must also be checked before choosing it for braiding.

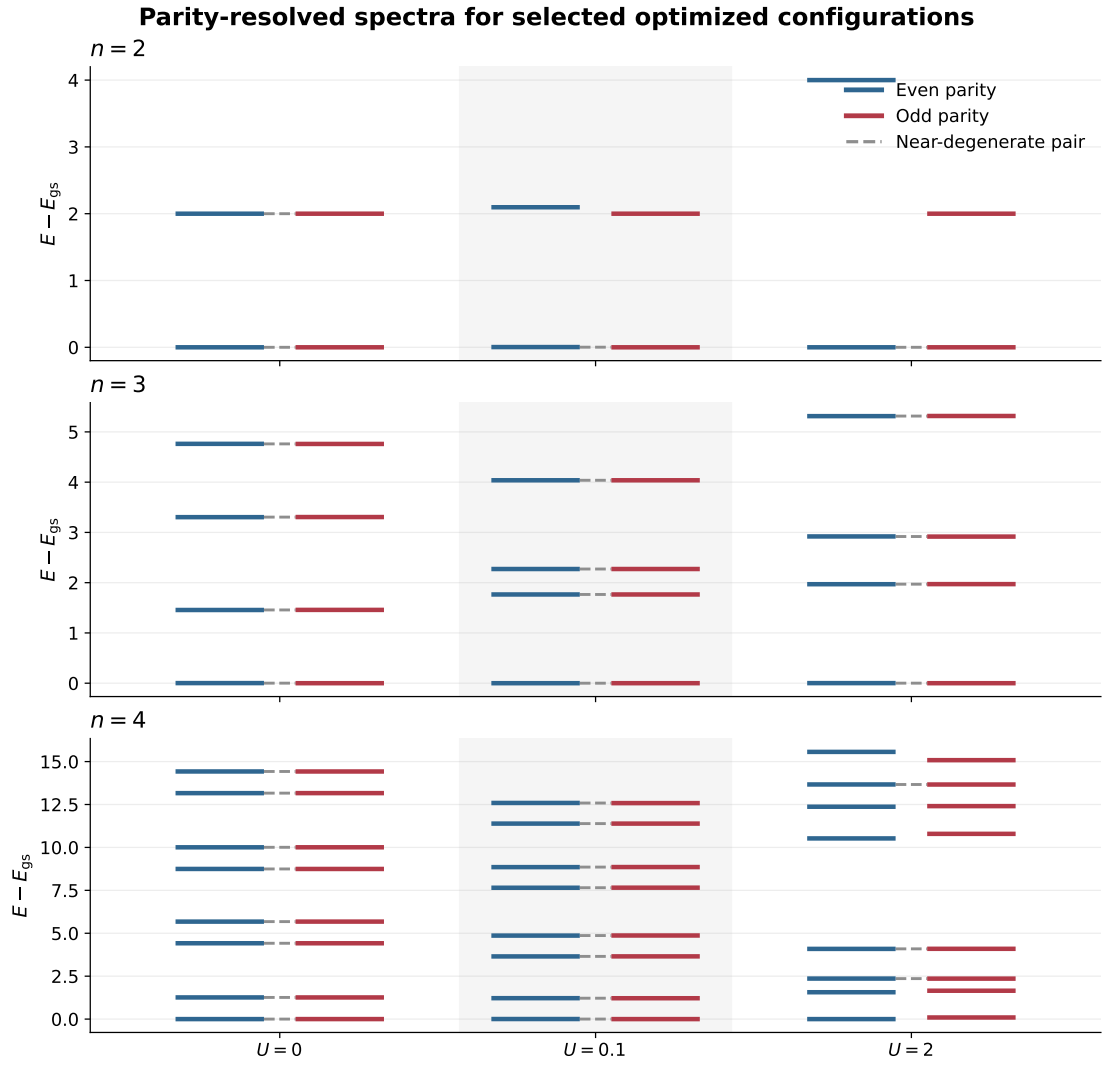


Figure 4.4: Parity-resolved spectra for the best optimized configurations at selected interaction strengths. Each panel corresponds to a different system size n , and energies are shifted so that the ground state is at zero.

4.2.2 Local diagnostics and Majorana character

As discussed in the method chapter, Majorana-like states cannot be identified from spectral degeneracy alone. The parity-resolved spectra and low-energy gaps test whether the optimized Hamiltonian contains an isolated, nearly degenerate low-energy manifold. This subsection examines the complementary local diagnostics: the Majorana-polarization profile and the local charge difference between the lowest even-odd parity partners.

A convincing Majorana-like configuration should have opposite Majorana polarization on the two ends of the chain, with strongly suppressed polarization in the interior, as quantified by Eqs. 3.26 and 3.27. In addition, the even and odd parity partners should be locally difficult to distinguish. This is tested by the charge-difference diagnostic in Eq. 3.25, where smaller values indicate that the parity information is less visible to local charge measurements.

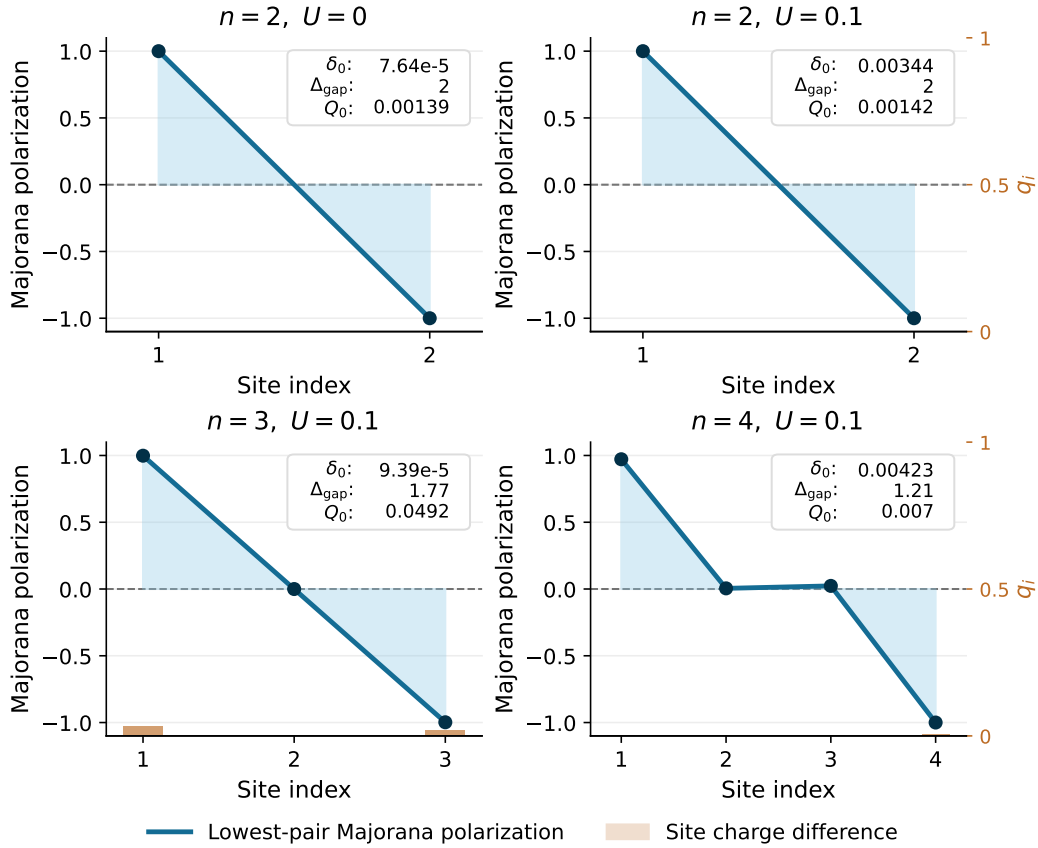


Figure 4.5: Local diagnostics for representative optimized configurations. The blue curve shows the Majorana-polarization profile of the lowest even-odd pair, while the orange bars, read against the 0–1 right axis, show the local charge difference $q_i = |\langle e|n_i|e\rangle - \langle o|n_i|o\rangle|$ on each site. The inset in each panel reports the ground-state splitting δ_0 , the low-energy gap Δ_{gap} , and the total charge difference Q_0 .

n	U	δ_0	Δ_{gap}	Q_0	$\overline{ M_{\text{edge}} }$	$\max M_{\text{bulk}} $
2	0	7.64e-05	2	0.00139	1	0
2	0.1	0.00344	2	0.00142	1	0
3	0.1	9.39e-05	1.77	0.0492	0.998	0.000202
4	0.1	0.00423	1.21	0.007	0.986	0.0233

Table 4.2: Summary of local diagnostics for the representative configurations shown in Fig. 4.5. Here δ_0 is the splitting of the lowest even-odd pair, Δ_{gap} is the gap separating this pair from the next excited states, Q_0 is the total charge difference between the parity partners, $\overline{|M_{\text{edge}}|}$ is the mean absolute Majorana polarization on the first and last sites, and $\max |M_{\text{bulk}}|$ is the largest absolute polarization on the interior sites.

Figure 4.5 compares the spatial profiles directly, while Table 4.2 summarizes the corresponding scalar diagnostics. For the two-dot system, the edge polarization is essentially ideal, with $\overline{|M_{\text{edge}}|} \approx 1$ and no bulk contribution by construction. The total charge difference is also very small, $Q_0 \approx 1.4 \times 10^{-3}$, both at $U = 0$ and at $U = 0.1$. These two-dot cases are useful references, but because they have no interior sites they do not test suppression of Majorana weight in the bulk.

The three-dot configuration at $U = 0.1$ gives the clearest interacting Majorana-polarization pattern. The ground-state splitting is only $\delta_0 = 9.39 \times 10^{-5}$, the excitation gap remains large, $\Delta_{\text{gap}} = 1.77$, and the bulk polarization is almost completely suppressed, with $\max |M_{\text{bulk}}| = 2.02 \times 10^{-4}$. Its charge difference, however, is larger than in the two-dot and four-dot reference cases, with $Q_0 = 0.0492$. This shows that the three-dot state is not ideal in every diagnostic, even though its spectral and polarization properties are the strongest.

The four-dot configuration at $U = 0.1$ shows the opposite tradeoff. It has a smaller charge difference, $Q_0 = 0.0070$, and comparably strong edge polarization, $\overline{|M_{\text{edge}}|} \approx 0.986$. However, the ground-state splitting increases to $\delta_0 = 4.23 \times 10^{-3}$ and the bulk polarization rises to $\max |M_{\text{bulk}}| = 2.33 \times 10^{-2}$.

Together, these diagnostics show that different system sizes optimize different aspects of the Majorana criteria. The four-dot case performs better in terms of local charge indistinguishability, while the three-dot case performs better in terms of spectral near-degeneracy and suppression of bulk Majorana weight. Since the braiding analysis requires a low-energy subspace that is both nearly degenerate and spatially well localized, the interacting three-dot system remains the most convincing candidate for the rest of the thesis.

4.3 Selection of Braiding Candidate

The braiding calculations are performed using the optimized three-dot configuration at $U = 0.1$. This choice is based on the combined post-optimization diagnostics above. Although the four-dot configuration has a smaller local charge difference, the three-dot configuration has the most favorable combination of small ground-state splitting, large excitation gap, clear edge-localized Majorana-polarization profile, and strongly suppressed bulk polarization. Since the braiding analysis relies on a nearly degenerate and spatially localized low-energy subspace, the three-dot system is chosen as the main microscopic building block.

The optimized parameters used for each three-dot subsystem are

$$\Delta_1 = 1.001, \quad \Delta_2 = 1.002, \quad \epsilon_1 = -0.101, \quad \epsilon_2 = -0.607, \quad \epsilon_3 = -0.003, \quad (4.1)$$

with fixed hopping amplitudes $t_i = 1$ and fixed interaction strength $U = 0.1$.

In the braiding geometry, three identical copies of this optimized three-dot chain are combined. Each subsystem has Hilbert-space dimension $2^3 = 8$, giving a total microscopic Hilbert space of dimension $2^9 = 512$. This system is large enough to test braiding beyond the lowest projected manifold, while still being small enough for exact diagonalization and systematic sector-resolved scans. The selected configuration therefore provides a useful setting for studying how interactions affect braiding across the many-body spectrum.

4.4 Braiding in the Ground-State Sector

The optimized three-dot chain is now used as the building block for the braiding calculations. Before studying higher energy sectors, we first establish a controlled ground-state benchmark. The goal is to separate three related questions: whether the energy-level Majorana operators generate the expected exchange, whether projected microscopic junction couplings select the same exchange channel, and whether this channel is also visible through projected local endpoint operators.

The energy-level reference model generates the braid directly from tunable Majorana bilinears built from the four Majorana operators defined in Eq. 2.15. This provides the clean baseline for the exchange protocol. In the projected microscopic junction model, these direct bilinears are replaced by projected junction operators constructed from the hopping and crossed-Andreev pairing Hamiltonian introduced in Eq. 2.17. After projection into the retained low-energy subspace, this gives the effective couplings T_{AB} and T_{AC} defined in Eq. 3.40, which are used in the driven braid Hamiltonian of Eq. 3.42. Finally, the projected local-operator model uses endpoint Majorana components instead of the full junction Hamiltonian, testing whether the same low-energy exchange channel is accessed by local microscopic operators.

4.4.1 Energy-Level Majorana Reference

Figure 4.6 shows the reference braid generated by four active Majorana operators in the projected low-energy space. The three couplings are turned on sequentially, so that the dominant coupling is first between γ_0 and γ_1 , then between γ_0 and γ_2 , and finally between γ_0 and γ_3 before returning to the initial configuration. Throughout this cycle, the transported low-energy manifold remains essentially four-fold degenerate. The largest instantaneous splitting within this manifold is only $\max(E_3 - E_0) = 2.28 \times 10^{-12}$, while the minimum gap to the excited states remains open at $\min(E_4 - E_3) = 1.414$.

Using Kato transport, the resulting unitary reproduces the expected single-exchange action on the Majorana operators. The largest error in the transformations $\gamma_2 \rightarrow -\gamma_3$ and $\gamma_3 \rightarrow \gamma_2$ is 3.34×10^{-6} . In the parity-resolved gate blocks, the odd and even 2×2 blocks agree with the target exchange gate to within 6.53×10^{-8} , while the off-block leakage is only 1.02×10^{-11} . The effective model therefore provides a clean benchmark for the more microscopic projected calculations.

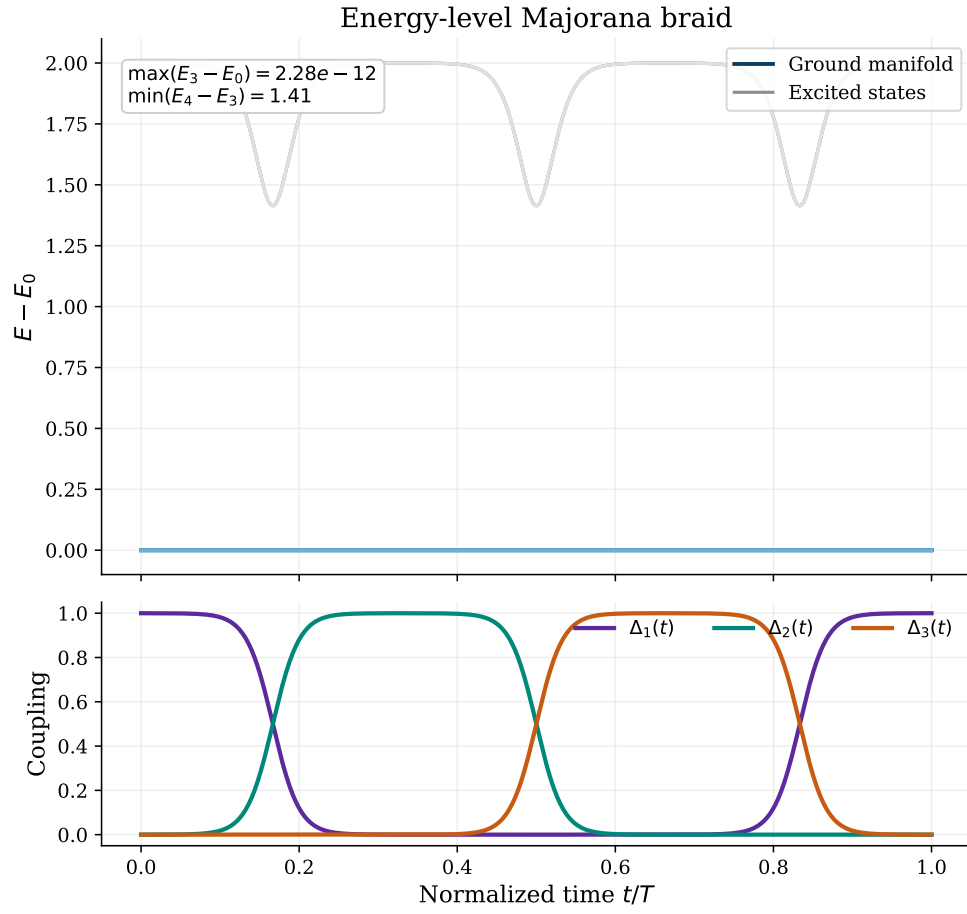


Figure 4.6: Energy-level Majorana braiding protocol. The top panel shows the instantaneous spectrum of the effective Hamiltonian during the braid, with all energies shifted so that the lowest state remains at zero. The bottom panel shows the three smooth pulse couplings that move the dominant Majorana coupling through the network.

4.4.2 Projected Microscopic Junction Braid

In this subsection we replace the direct Majorana-bilinear couplings from the previous subsection with the projected microscopic junction operators defined in Eq. 3.40. The goal is to test whether it is possible to reproduce the same low-energy exchange channel using the junction Hamiltonian of Eq. 2.17 instead of direct Majorana bilinears. This subsection identifies two separate findings. The first is which Majorana operators are actually being exchanged in the microscopic model. The second is whether this junction-based exchange can reproduce the target exchange channel of the energy-level reference model.

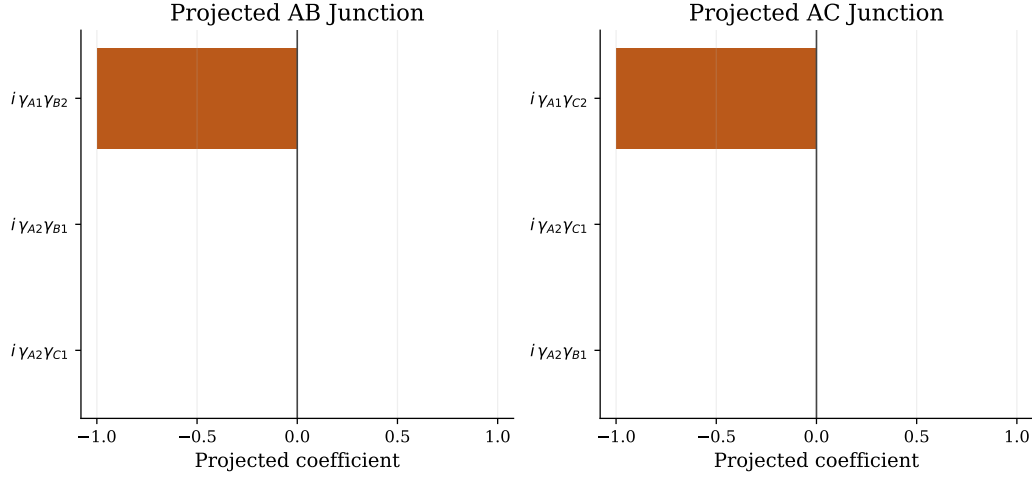


Figure 4.7: Dominant Majorana-bilinear components of the projected microscopic junction operators. The AB junction is almost entirely $i\gamma_{A1}\gamma_{B2}$, while the AC junction is almost entirely $i\gamma_{A1}\gamma_{C2}$. All subleading bilinears are strongly suppressed.

Figure 4.7 shows the decomposition of the projected junction terms T_{AB} and T_{AC} in the energy-level Majorana-bilinear basis. The AB junction is dominated by the bilinear $i\gamma_{A1}\gamma_{B2}$, while the AC junction is dominated by $i\gamma_{A1}\gamma_{C2}$. This identifies γ_{B2} and γ_{C2} as the Majoranas that participate in the microscopic braid, while γ_{A1} acts as the shared Majorana through which the exchange is mediated. The remaining bilinear components are strongly suppressed, indicating that the junction Hamiltonian effectively selects a single low-energy exchange channel.

Figure 4.8 shows the resulting braid after replacing the energy-level Majorana bilinears with the projected microscopic junction operators. The spectral evolution remains almost identical to the effective-model benchmark, with a well-isolated low-energy manifold throughout the cycle. The maximum splitting inside this manifold increases only to $\max(E_3 - E_0) = 7.18 \times 10^{-7}$, while the minimum gap remains large, $\min(E_4 - E_3) = 1.413$.

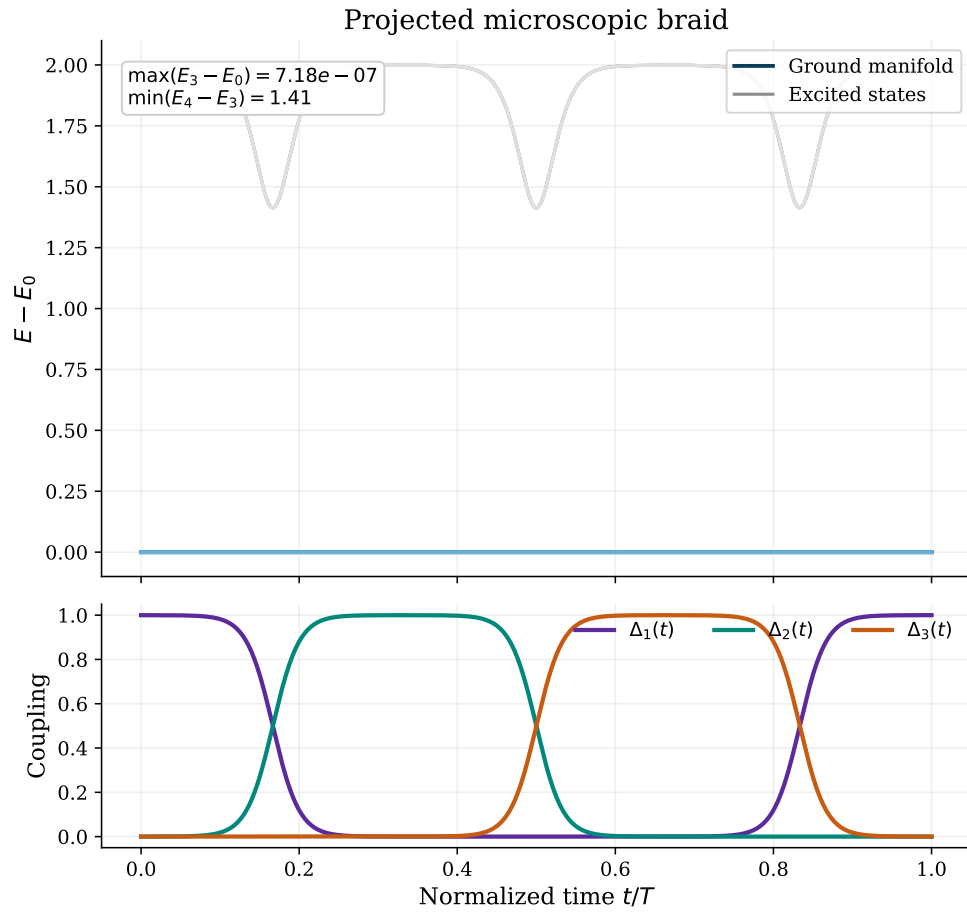


Figure 4.8: Braiding protocol after replacing the direct reference couplings by projected microscopic junction operators. The spectral evolution remains almost identical to the energy-level benchmark, with a well-isolated low-energy manifold throughout the cycle.

4.4.3 Projected Local-Operator Braid

The junction decomposition above identifies γ_{B2} and γ_{C2} as the active exchange channels. The next question is whether the same channels are obtained from local endpoint Majorana operators. For this, we use the projected local component

$$\Gamma_{S,-}^P = \mathcal{N}_S V^\dagger \chi_{S,-} V, \quad \chi_{S,-} = i(c_S^\dagger - c_S),$$

corresponding to the Γ_-^P component introduced in Eq. 2.24. The local-operator braid is then generated with the Hamiltonian of Eq. 2.25, using the same pulse sequence as in the energy-level and projected microscopic junction models.

Projected local operator	Dominant energy-level Majorana	Coefficient
$\Gamma_{B,L,-}^P$	γ_{B2}	-1.000
$\Gamma_{B,R,-}^P$	γ_{B2}	1.000
$\Gamma_{C,L,-}^P$	γ_{C2}	-1.000
$\Gamma_{C,R,-}^P$	γ_{C2}	1.000
Endpoint consistency checks		
B endpoints, χ_- component	opposite orientation	8.969e-14
C endpoints, χ_- component	opposite orientation	5.787e-14

Table 4.3: Projected local endpoint operators used in the local-operator braid. The minus components project onto the same low-energy Majorana channels selected by the microscopic junction decomposition, γ_{B2} and γ_{C2} , up to endpoint orientation.

Table 4.3 shows that the projected local minus components on the relevant endpoint sites select the same low-energy channels as the projected junction calculation. The left and right endpoint projections in subsystem B both reduce to γ_{B2} , but with opposite orientation, and the same happens for subsystem C and γ_{C2} . This sign only fixes the endpoint convention for the projected operator; the factor of i is already contained in the definition of the minus component $\chi_- = i(c^\dagger - c)$.

Figure 4.9 shows that the projected local-operator braid has the same stable low-energy structure as the two previous ground-sector braids. The transported four-dimensional manifold remains essentially degenerate, with $\max(E_3 - E_0) = 5.00 \times 10^{-15}$, while the gap to the excited states remains open at $\min(E_4 - E_3) = 1.414$.

Model	Split	Gap	1x err.	Leakage	Odd err.	Even err.
Energy-level	2.275e-12	1.414	3.343e-06	1.016e-11	6.527e-08	6.527e-08
Projected junction	7.175e-07	1.413	3.343e-06	8.727e-16	6.531e-08	6.531e-08
Projected local	4.996e-15	1.414	3.343e-06	7.542e-16	6.530e-08	6.530e-08

Table 4.4: Comparison of the main braid diagnostics for the energy-level Majorana reference model, the projected microscopic junction model, and the projected local-operator model. Here “Split” denotes $\max(E_3 - E_0)$, “Gap” denotes $\min(E_4 - E_3)$, “1x err.” is the largest deviation in the expected single-exchange Majorana map, “Leakage” is the off-block norm in the parity basis, and the last two columns compare the odd and even parity blocks with the target exchange gate.

Table 4.4 shows that all three ground-sector braid constructions give essentially the same result. The maximum single-exchange error is 3.34×10^{-6} in each case, the parity leakage remains below 10^{-11} , and the odd- and even-parity blocks agree with the target exchange gate to approximately 6.5×10^{-8} . In the ground-state sector, the projected local endpoint operators therefore access the same exchange channel as the energy-level and microscopic junction constructions.

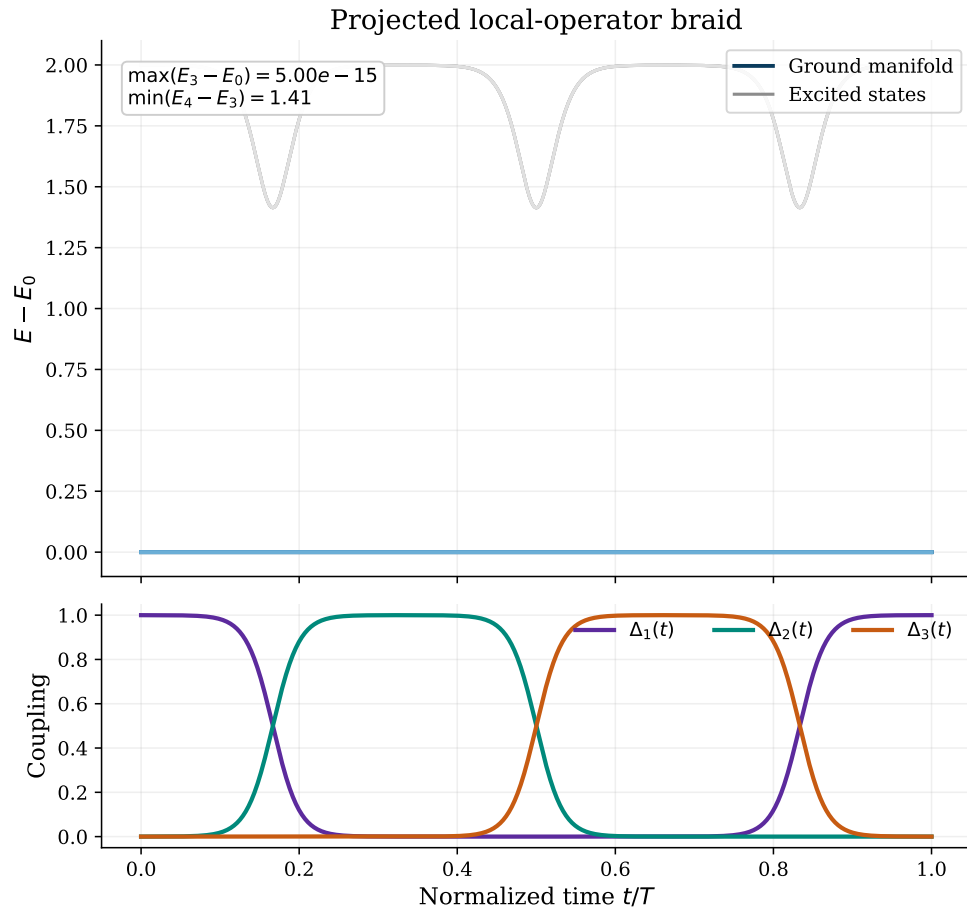


Figure 4.9: Projected local-operator braiding protocol. The driven couplings follow the same pulse sequence as in the energy-level and projected microscopic junction models, but the exchanged operators are constructed from projected local endpoint Majorana components.

4.5 Braiding in Multiple Energy Sectors

To explore whether braiding is possible beyond the lowest projected manifold, we first identify distinct energy sectors in the three-dot, three-subsystem system. This is done by combining the three single-subsystem Hamiltonians into one full-system Hamiltonian,

$$H = H_A \otimes I_B \otimes I_C + I_A \otimes H_B \otimes I_C + I_A \otimes I_B \otimes H_C. \quad (4.2)$$

This Hamiltonian captures the entire $2^9 \times 2^9$ Hilbert space of the Y-junction system. The three subsystems, A , B , and C , are initially decoupled and identical.

The full-system spectrum can then be grouped into distinct energy sectors. Each sector consists of states that are degenerate in energy, within the numerical tolerance, and separated by a gap from neighboring sectors, as shown in Fig. 4.10.

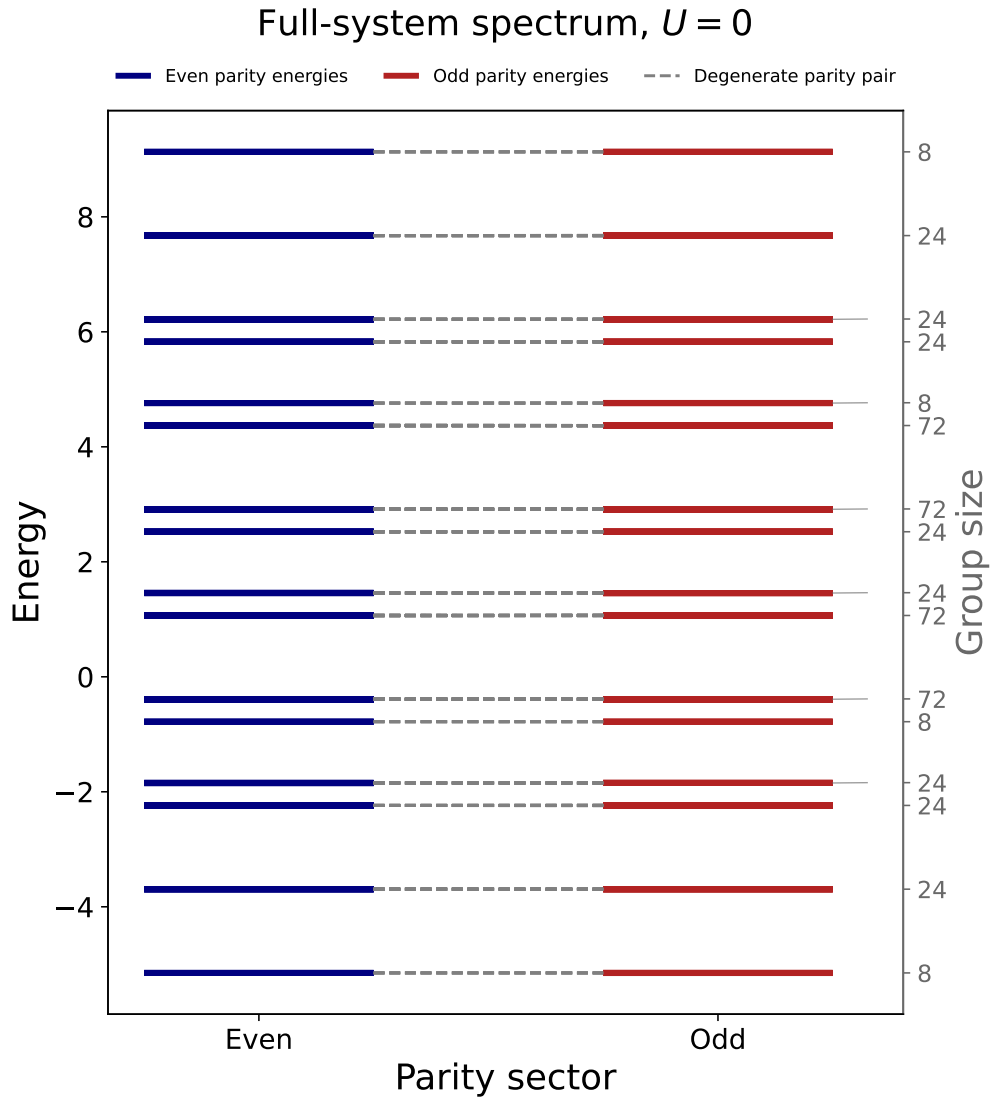


Figure 4.10: Full-system Hamiltonian energy spectrum. The spectrum is split into even and odd eigenenergies. The dashed lines represent the degeneracy link between the even and odd sectors. The left-hand y-axis shows the energy levels, while the right-hand y-axis shows how many states reside in each energy sector. This figure was created for a single non-interacting system. Similar plots for the interacting model can be found in Appendix B.

After the sectors have been identified, the same braid protocol can be applied sector by sector. For sector i , we form a sector basis V_i from the eigenvectors belonging to that sector, and operators are represented in the selected space as $V_i^\dagger O V_i$, as described in Eq. (3.32). This makes it possible to test whether each braid construction produces its intended exchange behavior beyond the lowest projected manifold.

The sector bases have different dimensions. For example, the ground-state sector contains 8 states inside the full 512-dimensional Hilbert space, while the first excited sector contains 24 states. When the braid couplings are activated, the selected sector splits into a lower and an upper band of equal dimension, separated by a gap, as shown in Fig. 4.11. This split provides a well-defined lower band for Kato transport, but does not by itself establish that the resulting unitary performs a successful Majorana exchange. The target-overlap deviation $D_{\mathcal{O}} = |1 - \mathcal{O}|$, defined in Eq. (3.52), provides that separate test.

For the sector-resolved scans, the transported dimension was therefore fixed to half of the selected sector dimension, as defined in Eq. (3.46). In each sector, the Kato calculation transports the lower band and measures whether its final unitary reproduces the intended exchange. The scans below are self-target comparisons: each braid construction is compared with its own target operator. Agreement between the projected local and energy-level exchange channels requires the separate common-target comparison discussed in the method section.

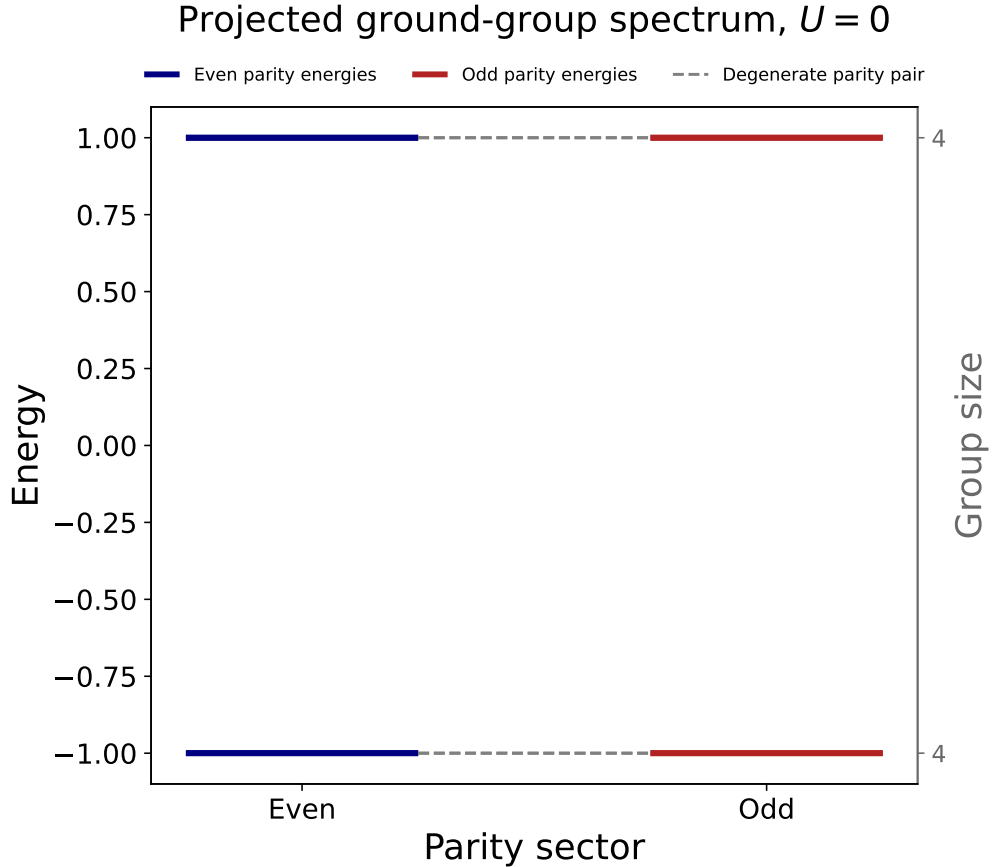
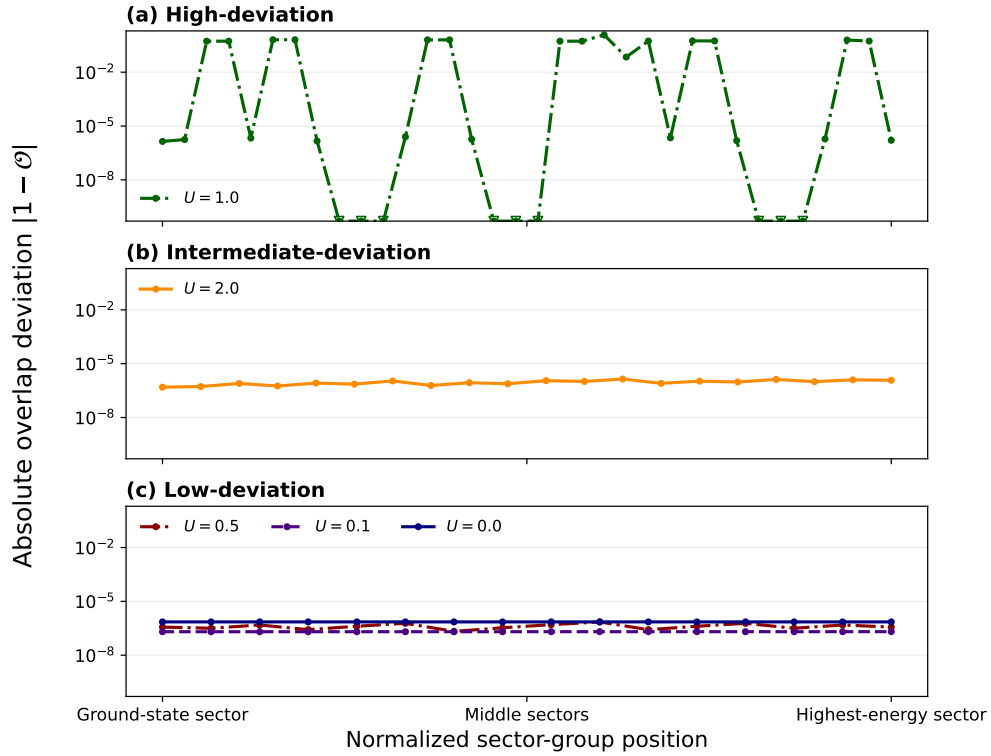


Figure 4.11: Splitting of an initially degenerate energy sector into two distinct bands when the braid Hamiltonian is initialized. This representative example is the ground-state sector of the projected local-operator braid in the non-interacting system.

The first scan provides an energy-level Majorana baseline, starting with the ground-state sector and then moving through the higher energy sectors while simultaneously checking different interaction strengths. In this construction, the Majorana operators are built directly from paired even and odd eigenstates of each optimized subsystem. The non-interacting case provides the cleanest reference, while the interacting cases test whether the energy-level exchange channel extracted from the optimized spectra remains stable across sectors.

Energy-Level Majorana Baseline Braid Target Deviation



Exact printed zeros are unresolved and shown at 5×10^{-11} .

Figure 4.12: Self-target braid errors for the energy-level Majorana baseline across different energy sectors and interaction strengths $U = 0.0$, $U = 0.1$, $U = 0.5$, $U = 1.0$, and $U = 2.0$, plotted as the overlap deviation $D_{\mathcal{O}} = |1 - \mathcal{O}|$. The figure is split into three deviation regimes: a) $U = 1.0$, b) $U = 2.0$, and c) $U = 0.0$, $U = 0.1$, and $U = 0.5$. The energy-level construction supports accurate braiding across all sectors for the non-interacting and weakly interacting configurations, while the $U = 1.0$ configuration shows strong sector-dependent failures.

Figure 4.12 displays the energy-level Majorana baseline. Here the γ operators are created directly from the paired eigenstates by the construction $\gamma = |e\rangle \langle o| + \text{h.c.}$ before being projected into each sector and placed in the braid Hamiltonian. The high-deviation panel shows that the $U = 1.0$ configuration is strongly sector dependent, as some sectors remain accurate, while others have errors of order 10^{-1} . The $U = 2.0$ results are much more stable across sectors and generally lie around 10^{-6} . For $U = 0.0$, $U = 0.1$, and $U = 0.5$, the errors remain below the 10^{-6} threshold across all sectors. The unusually poor and irregular $U = 1.0$ result, despite the stronger $U = 2.0$ configuration performing better in this baseline, shows that interaction strength alone does not necessarily explain the ordering of the selected configurations.

Since the low-energy junction decomposition identifies γ_{B2} and γ_{C2} as the active exchange channels, the projected local-operator model uses the minus endpoint components in subsystems B and C ,

$$\Gamma_{S,-}^{(i)} = \mathcal{N}_{S,i} V_i^\dagger \chi_{S,-} V_i, \quad \chi_{S,-} = i(c_S^\dagger - c_S), \quad S = B, C. \quad (4.3)$$

When these local operators are compared with γ_{B2} and γ_{C2} , only an overall plus or minus sign is allowed.

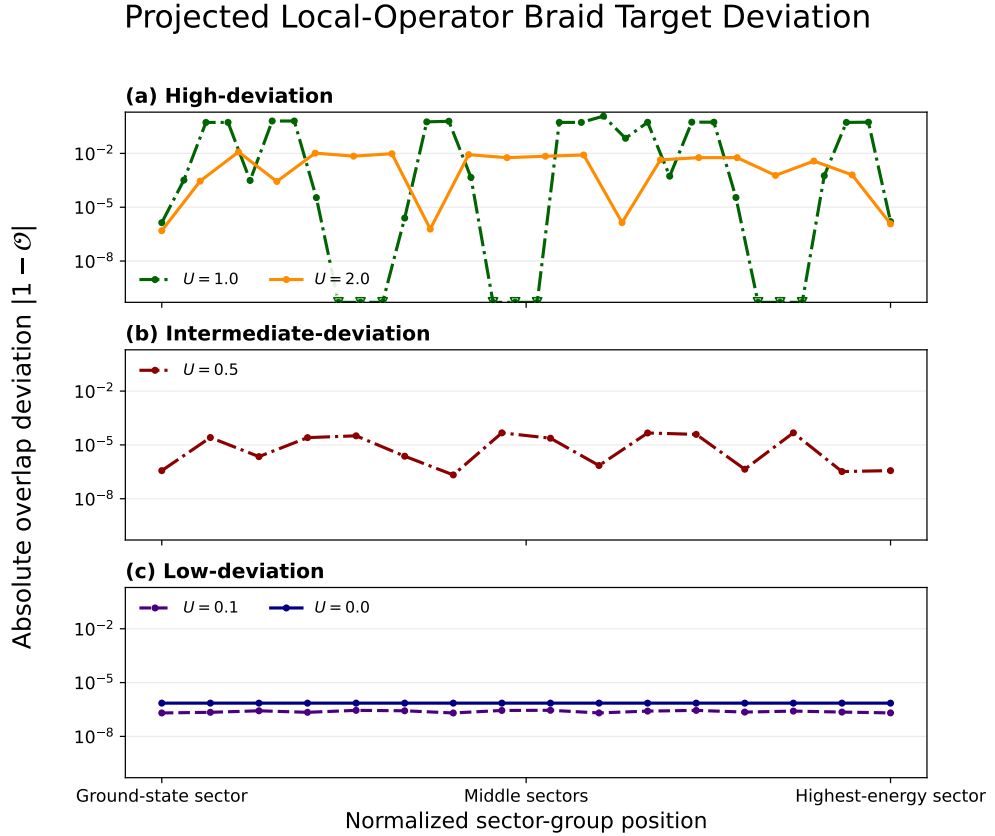


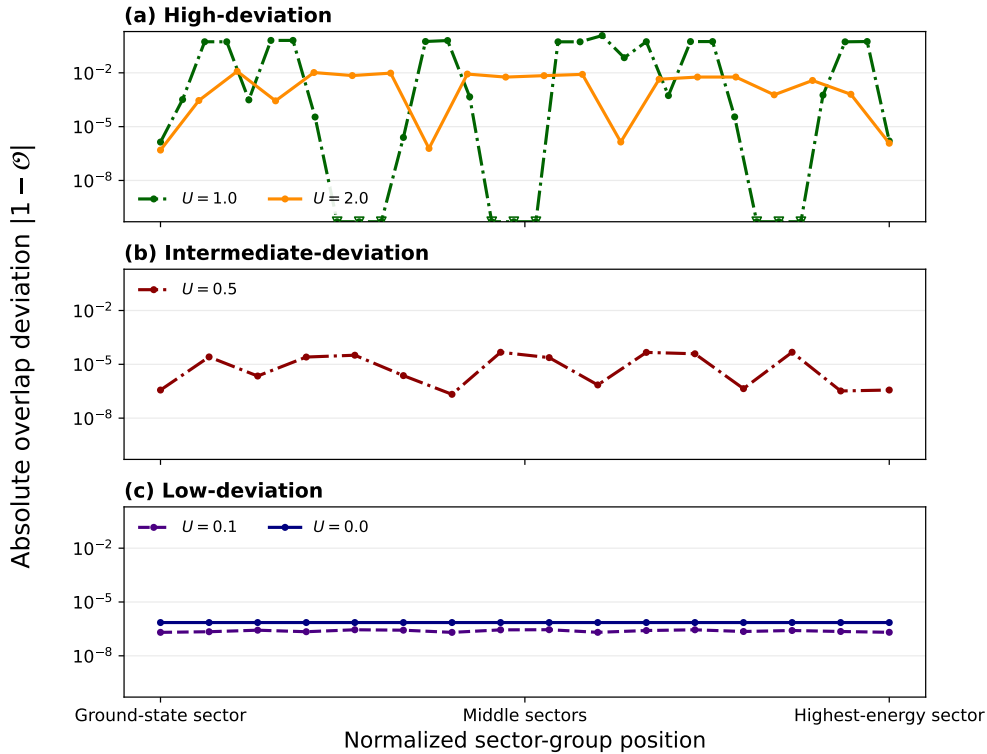
Figure 4.13: Self-target braid errors for the projected local-operator model across different energy sectors and interaction strengths $U = 0.0$, $U = 0.1$, $U = 0.5$, $U = 1.0$, and $U = 2.0$, plotted as the overlap deviation $D_{\mathcal{O}} = |1 - \mathcal{O}|$. The figure is split into three deviation regimes: a) $U = 1.0$ and $U = 2.0$, b) $U = 0.5$, and c) $U = 0.0$ and $U = 0.1$. The selected weak-interaction configurations have low deviations across all sectors, while the selected stronger-interaction configurations contain sectors with larger self-target errors.

Figure 4.13 shows how the self-target braid errors vary among the projected local-operator configurations. The high-deviation panel shows that the selected $U = 1.0$ and $U = 2.0$ configurations contain sectors with errors as large as order 10^{-1} and 10^{-2} , respectively. Compared with the energy-level Majorana baseline in Fig. 4.12, the $U = 0.5$ configuration is also more sensitive to sector choice in the projected local-operator model, with errors reaching approximately 10^{-5} . For $U = 0.0$ and $U = 0.1$, the errors remain below 10^{-6} across all tested sectors. However, because each interaction strength uses a separately optimized parameter set, this trend does not isolate interaction strength as the sole cause.

During the scans, many higher-dimensional energy sectors were found to contain several internal blocks. For example, a 24-dimensional sector can contain three independent 8×8 blocks, as illustrated in Fig. A.1. This matters because a projected local operator does not necessarily have one global orientation across the full sector. In some sectors, the local operator can be fitted to the energy-level Majorana operator with one overall sign across all blocks. In others, different blocks select different relative signs.

To account for this structure, we use the block-matched local-operator model described in Eq. (3.35) and Chapter A. Each sector scan first fits the projected local operators independently within the labelled blocks. The fitted blocks are then reassembled into one operator on the full sector and used in the braid Hamiltonian.

Block-Matched Local-Operator Braid Target Deviation



Exact printed zeros are unresolved and shown at 5×10^{-11} .

Figure 4.14: Self-target braid errors for the block-matched local-operator model, plotted as the overlap deviation $D_{\mathcal{O}} = |1 - \mathcal{O}|$. The same three deviation regimes as in Fig. 4.13 remain visible: a) $U = 1.0$ and $U = 2.0$, b) $U = 0.5$, and c) $U = 0.0$ and $U = 0.1$.

Figure 4.14 shows that the block-matched construction retains the same overall

self-target error regimes as the direct projected local-operator model. The $U = 0.0$ and $U = 0.1$ configurations remain accurate across the tested sectors, while the deviations increase at $U = 0.5$ and become larger and more sector dependent for $U = 1.0$ and $U = 2.0$. Resolving and independently fitting the internal blocks therefore does not by itself remove the sensitivity observed in the local-operator construction.

The resulting blockwise coefficients are reported in Table C.1. The numerical fitting errors remain between approximately 10^{-15} and 10^{-13} across all tested interaction strengths, showing that the block-matched operators reproduce the projected local operators essentially exactly. The first-component coefficients are strongly suppressed, so the local endpoint operators remain aligned with the intended second Majorana component rather than rotating into a different energy-level Majorana direction. For $U = 0.0$ and $U = 0.1$, the fitted second-component coefficients are close to ± 1 across all blocks. Small deviations become visible at $U = 0.5$, while $U = 1.0$ and $U = 2.0$ show larger block-dependent variations in magnitude.

The coefficient table also reveals that different blocks within the same sector can select different relative exchange orientations. Since the first-component coefficients vanish at the saved precision, the blockwise braid is controlled mainly by the sign of the product $b_{B,r}b_{C,r}$, as explained in Chapter C. A sector containing both signs does not implement one uniform exchange orientation relative to the energy-level convention. Instead, its fitted target is a direct sum of block-dependent exchange orientations. The individual signs depend on the chosen Majorana sign convention, but their blockwise pattern records how the projected local channels are oriented relative to the fixed energy-level construction.

Figure 4.15 summarizes the sector-resolved self-target errors for the projected local-operator model, the block-matched local-operator model, and the energy-level Majorana baseline. For each interaction strength, the bar shows the unweighted mean across the identified sectors, the white diamond marks the ground-sector error, and the black bar shows the sector-to-sector standard deviation. Within these respective target comparisons, the $U = 0.1$ and $U = 0.0$ configurations have the lowest mean deviations. At $U = 0.5$, the local-operator constructions show a noticeable increase in their mean errors, while the energy-level Majorana baseline remains accurate. The worst and most sector-dependent performance occurs at $U = 1.0$, while $U = 2.0$ is accurate in the energy-level baseline but less accurate in both local-operator constructions.

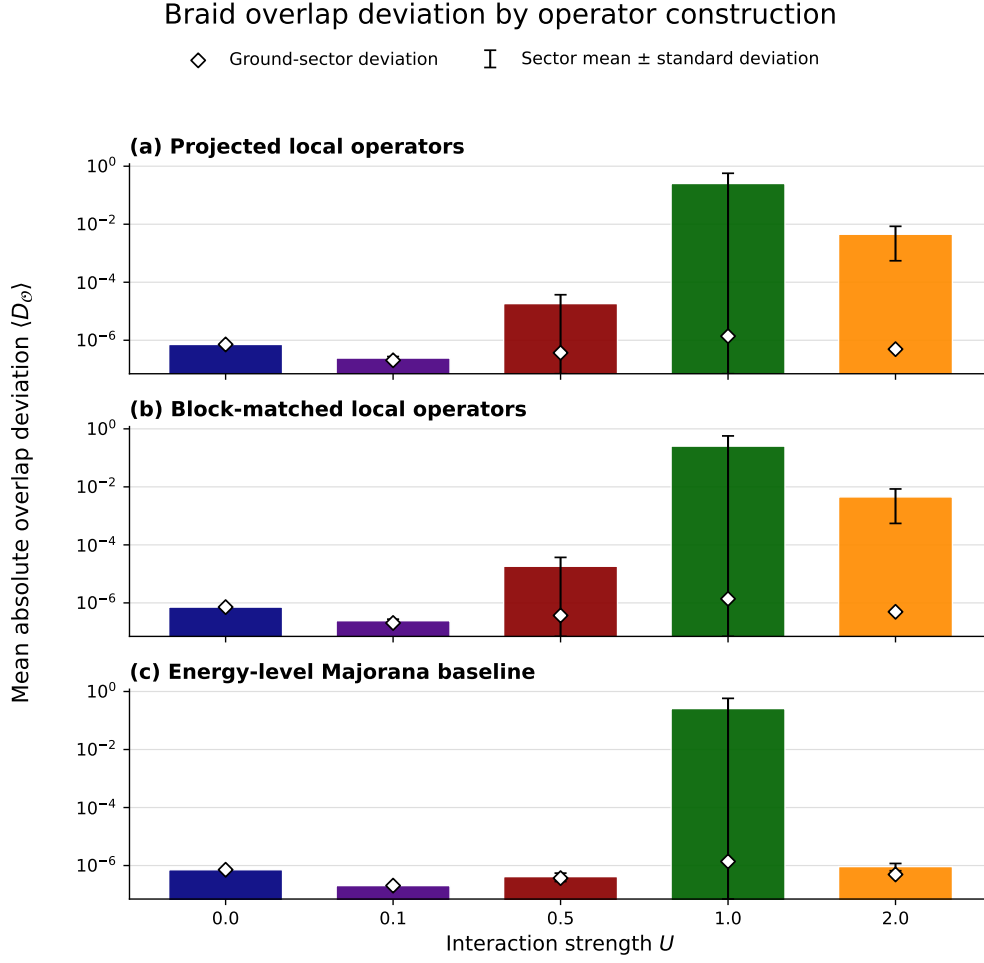


Figure 4.15: Mean self-target braid error across the tested sectors for a) the projected local-operator model, b) the block-matched local-operator model, and c) the energy-level Majorana baseline, using the overlap deviation $D_{\mathcal{O}} = |1 - \mathcal{O}|$. The ground-sector error is marked by a white diamond, and the standard deviation across sectors is shown by a black bar.

4.6 Summary of Main Findings

The optimization study shows that the PMM chains recover the expected limits while also producing nontrivial interacting configurations. For the non-interacting two-dot system, the optimizer reproduces the known sweet spot, with nearly degenerate parity pairs and edge-localized Majorana polarization. For longer chains, the optimized parameters become increasingly inhomogeneous. In particular, the interior onsite energies are often shifted more strongly than the edge onsite energies. This interior detuning is correlated with favorable edge-localization diagnostics.

The post-optimization diagnostics identify the three-dot system at $U = 0.1$ as the strongest interacting braiding candidate. This configuration combines a small ground-state splitting, a large excitation gap, strong opposite-sign edge Majorana polarization, and strongly suppressed bulk polarization. The four-dot system gives a smaller charge difference in the representative weakly interacting case, but it also shows larger ground-state splitting and stronger bulk polarization. Among the tested configurations, the three-dot system therefore provides the best overall compromise between spectral degeneracy and spatial localization. It also decreases the computational cost of the sector-resolved braiding calculations compared with the four-dot system.

The low-energy braiding calculations support this choice. After projection to the lowest manifold, the optimized three-dot building block reproduces the energy-level Majorana operator exchange with high accuracy. The projected microscopic junction operators are dominated by the intended Majorana bilinears, and the energy-level Majorana reference model, the projected microscopic junction model, and the projected local-operator model give nearly identical braid diagnostics in the lowest projected space. This shows that the optimized interacting PMM system can realize the expected Majorana exchange within the controlled low-energy projected model.

Within their respective target comparisons, the sector-resolved scans show low self-target braid errors across all identified energy sectors for the non-interacting and weakly interacting configurations. The energy-level Majorana baseline remains stable for $U = 0.0$, $U = 0.1$, $U = 0.5$, and $U = 2.0$, while the selected $U = 1.0$ configuration shows large variations between sectors. The direct and block-matched local-operator models are more sensitive in their self-target errors, as these errors increase already at $U = 0.5$, and both $U = 1.0$ and $U = 2.0$ contain less accurate sectors.

The block-matching analysis shows that the projected local operators can be represented essentially exactly within the energy-level Majorana basis. Within each block, the local endpoint operator remains aligned with the intended second Majorana component, while its magnitude and sign can vary between blocks. The relative signs of the two exchanged operators determine whether a block follows the same or opposite exchange orientation relative to the fixed energy-level convention. A sector containing both orientations therefore does not implement one uniform logical exchange across all its internal blocks. Despite resolving this structure, block matching does not substantially change the self-target braid deviations relative to the direct projected local-operator model.

The especially poor and irregular $U = 1.0$ result should therefore be treated as a property of the selected optimized configuration, not as evidence that $U = t = 1$ is generally worse for braiding than $U = 2t$.

For configurations that support a stable exchange channel, the self-target braid accuracy is relatively insensitive to the chosen energy sector. However, the strongly sector-dependent $U = 1.0$ result shows that this behavior is not guaranteed and

depends on the selected optimized configuration. The differing sector dependence of the energy-level and local constructions leaves a common-target comparison as an important next check before drawing conclusions about how accurately a projected local channel accesses the energy-level exchange.

Chapter 5

Discussion

This chapter interprets the numerical results in relation to the main goal of the thesis: to test whether numerical optimization can identify favorable parameter regimes in interacting quantum-dot-superconductor chains that support Majorana-like low-energy physics and useful braiding behavior. It also discusses the implications of extending the braiding analysis beyond the ground-state manifold.

5.1 Parameter Optimization Scheme

For a simple two-dot system, the optimizer reproduces the analytically known sweet spot to a numerical tolerance of approximately 10^{-3} . This provides a useful check that the optimization procedure behaves correctly in the non-interacting limit.

For weakly interacting two-dot systems, the optimizer found parameter sets that are also close to the expected interacting sweet-spot conditions, where the ground-state degeneracy should be preserved. In particular, the optimized onsite energies remain close to $\epsilon_1, \epsilon_2 \approx -U/2$, with $\Delta \sim t$. This is consistent with the known interacting sweet-spot condition for two-dot systems, and suggests that the optimization is correctly identifying parameter regimes that satisfy the chosen Majorana-based criteria in the presence of weak interactions. For stronger interactions, the optimizer had more difficulty finding low-loss configurations. It also tended to push $\Delta > t$, while the relation between ϵ_i and U remained close to the expected sweet-spot condition. This trend is consistent with the constrained parameter space becoming less able to maintain even-odd degeneracy across the relevant energy levels when the interaction strength grows relative to the fixed hopping scale. However, the present searches cannot separate such a physical limitation from the increased difficulty of optimizing a more complicated loss landscape.

Beyond the two-dot sweet spot, the analytical solution rapidly becomes more complicated. Without assuming symmetry or homogeneity, the number of parameters grows with the system size, and solving the sweet-spot conditions analytically becomes increasingly difficult. This makes numerical optimization a well-motivated approach for larger systems. For the three- and four-dot systems, the optimizer found parameter regimes that are not close to a simple homogeneous sweet-spot picture. Instead, the optimized parameters show a clear trend toward strong inhomogeneity, with large-magnitude onsite potentials in the middle of the chain and, for the four-dot system, enhanced pairing amplitudes near the center. This suggests that nontrivial inhomogeneous configurations can satisfy the chosen Majorana-based criteria, but it does not by itself establish why those profiles are favorable.

The parameter searches across all system sizes show that strong interactions make it substantially harder to find low-loss configurations. This is consistent with the expectation that strong interactions can destabilize Majorana-like physics, but optimization limitations cannot be excluded. Distinguishing these explanations would require more extensive searches or controlled comparisons of the loss landscape at different interaction strengths. However, at lower interaction strengths, especially in the three-dot system, the optimizer was able to find favorable low-loss configurations. This indicates that weakly interacting parameter regimes can satisfy the combined spectral and local criteria used in the optimization. For the four-dot system, the optimizer struggled more to find low-loss configurations even at weak interactions. This could reflect limitations of the optimization strategy, but it could also indicate that the parameter space becomes more complex and potentially more constrained as the system size increases. Since the optimization budget was kept fixed across all system sizes, the larger systems may not have been explored as thoroughly as the smaller ones. It would therefore be interesting to test whether increasing the number of iterations or using a more global search strategy could help the optimizer find better configurations for the four-dot system, especially in the weak-interaction regime.

One of the more interesting findings for chains longer than two dots was the emergence of large-magnitude onsite potentials in the middle of the chain. This was not expected from the simple sweet-spot picture. The resulting interior detuning is correlated with favorable edge-localization diagnostics and is consistent with suppressing bulk Majorana weight. A controlled scan of the interior potentials would be needed to establish whether this is the mechanism responsible. Subject to that qualification, the result motivates studying controlled inhomogeneity as a possible design parameter rather than treating it only as an imperfection.

5.2 Braiding Analysis

The braiding results are mainly split into two parts. The low-energy benchmark compares the energy-level Majorana reference model with projected microscopic junction and local-operator models. The sector-resolved analysis then compares an energy-level Majorana baseline with direct and block-matched projected local-operator constructions.

The main difference between the energy-level and local-operator constructions is what they test. The energy-level construction tests whether Majorana operators built from paired eigenstates define an internally consistent effective exchange channel. The local-operator constructions instead test whether braids built from projected endpoint operators accurately execute targets defined from those local operators. In the sector-resolved results, each construction is compared with its own target. The reported self-target errors can therefore reveal sector dependence within a construction, but they do not by themselves determine whether the local constructions reproduce the energy-level exchange channel. Establishing that stronger comparison requires evaluating all constructions against a common target.

The first part of the analysis tests whether braiding can be performed in the ground-state manifold using the Majorana modes generated by the optimized parameters. Based on the post-optimization results, the optimized $U = 0.1$ three-dot system was selected as the most promising candidate for the interacting braiding analysis. The results show that the ground-state manifold is well isolated, and that the projected junction operators closely match the intended Majorana bilinears. This supports the interpretation that the optimized parameters realize Majorana-like physics

in the ground-state manifold, and that the coupling-based braid is accurately reproduced within this projected model.

After establishing the low-energy benchmark in the ground-state manifold, we extended the analysis to higher energy sectors and compared the interaction strengths $\frac{U}{t} = 0.0, 0.1, 0.5, 1.0, 2.0$. This was done in three parts. First, the energy-level Majorana baseline tested whether paired eigenstates define a stable exchange channel in each sector. Second, the direct projected local-operator construction tested whether a microscopic endpoint operator can perform its corresponding self-target braid in the same sectors. Finally, the block-matched local-operator construction resolved the internal labelled blocks of each sector and fitted the local operator independently within them.

These results are shown in Figs. 4.12 to 4.15. The reported self-target braid errors remain low across all sectors for the non-interacting and weakly interacting configurations. This is consistent with the optimization scheme favoring even-odd degeneracy across the spectrum while also favoring gaps between neighboring parity pairs.

The energy-level Majorana baseline is stable for most tested interaction strengths, but the $U = 1.0$ configuration is strongly sector dependent. Some of its sectors braid accurately, while others fail by several orders of magnitude. Since the $U = 2.0$ energy-level baseline performs much better, interaction strength alone does not explain the ordering of the selected configurations. The irregular $U = 1.0$ result may reflect its particular optimized parameters, non-monotonic interaction effects, or both. It remains possible that a better $U = 1.0$ minimum exists elsewhere in the optimization landscape.

The direct and block-matched local-operator constructions show a stronger dependence of their self-target errors on both interaction strength and sector. The $U = 0.5$ case, which remains in the low-deviation regime for the energy-level Majorana baseline, moves into the intermediate-deviation regime for both local constructions. The ground-state sector is nevertheless among the lower-error sectors in most cases. Within the self-target comparison used here, the block-matched local-operator braid gives almost the same deviations as the direct local-operator braid. Resolving the internal block structure therefore does not by itself remove the observed self-target sensitivity, although this comparison does not establish how either local construction agrees with the energy-level target.

The block-dependent exchange orientations also have consequences for quantum computation. In the successful low-interaction cases, where the fitted coefficient products have magnitude close to one, opposite exchange orientations correspond to $\sqrt{Z}$ and $\sqrt{Z}^\dagger$. These gates differ by a relative phase rather than an irrelevant global phase:

$$\sqrt{Z} : \phi \mapsto \phi + \frac{\pi}{2}, \quad \sqrt{Z}^\dagger : \phi \mapsto \phi - \frac{\pi}{2}. \quad (5.1)$$

They therefore rotate a logical qubit in opposite directions around the Bloch sphere z -axis and can produce distinguishable outcomes in later interference measurements. If computation is restricted to one known block, its exchange orientation can be tracked and incorporated into the logical gate convention. However, a coherent state occupying blocks with different orientations experiences a block-dependent logical operation:

$$\begin{aligned} U_{\text{braid}} &= U_1 \oplus U_2 \oplus U_3, \\ |\Psi\rangle &= a|\psi_1\rangle + b|\psi_2\rangle + c|\psi_3\rangle, \\ U_{\text{braid}}|\Psi\rangle &= aU_1|\psi_1\rangle + bU_2|\psi_2\rangle + cU_3|\psi_3\rangle. \end{aligned} \quad (5.2)$$

If the block label is unobserved, this can appear as dephasing of the logical qubit. Reliable computation across a larger energy sector would therefore require control of the occupied block, tracking of its exchange orientation, or a protocol producing a uniform orientation across all relevant blocks.

The main implication is that, particularly in the low-interaction configurations, the projected local operators can be represented essentially exactly within the energy-level Majorana basis. However, their block-dependent exchange orientations mean that this operator-level agreement does not guarantee one uniform logical operation across an entire higher-dimensional sector. Predictable braiding across such a sector therefore requires knowledge or control of the occupied block.

5.3 Limitations and Outlook

The main limitation of the present study is that the optimization procedure does not locate exact sweet spots; it finds numerically favorable minima of the chosen loss function. In a complicated loss landscape, a low loss may represent a local minimum even when a better solution exists elsewhere. Moreover, the spectral, charge, and Majorana-polarization diagnostics are also components of the optimization objective. Their favorable values confirm that the optimizer satisfies its intended criteria, but they are not fully independent validation of the resulting configurations. The low-energy microscopic-junction braid provides a more independent test, since it is not directly optimized. There is also no direct correspondence between the numerical value of the loss and the expected error of a later observable. The results should therefore be interpreted as evidence for approximate Majorana-like behavior within the tested models, not as proof of exact topological protection.

A second limitation is that the present braiding analysis is still highly controlled. The clean agreement found in the lowest manifold relies on projection to a small low-energy space and on an idealized, disorder-free setting. The study does not yet include disorder, quasiparticle poisoning, nonadiabatic driving errors, or explicit coupling to thermal environments. Those effects are precisely the kinds of ingredients that would determine whether the optimized configurations remain useful in a more realistic device-level setting.

Within the controlled sector-resolved projected models, a potentially useful finding is that the braiding protocol can also be implemented in higher-energy sectors. For configurations with a stable exchange channel, the self-target results are relatively insensitive to the selected sector. The strongly sector-dependent $U = 1.0$ result shows that this behavior is not guaranteed and may depend strongly on the optimized parameter set. Whether such higher-energy sectors can be prepared and manipulated in a realistic device remains an open question. The repeated interior detuning in the optimized parameters also motivates a controlled study of whether inhomogeneous onsite potentials can suppress bulk Majorana weight and improve edge localization.

A natural extension of this work would be to explore whether the energy sectors can be made simpler by breaking the exact permutation symmetry between the three identical subsystems. In the present calculations, the large block structures arise because subsystems A , B , and C have identical spectra. For example, the configurations

$$\begin{aligned} & (A \text{ excited}, B \text{ ground}, C \text{ ground}), \\ & (A \text{ ground}, B \text{ excited}, C \text{ ground}), \\ & (A \text{ ground}, B \text{ ground}, C \text{ excited}) \end{aligned} \tag{5.3}$$

can have the same total energy, producing a 24-dimensional sector made from three independent 8-dimensional blocks. Similar permutation degeneracies appear in the larger sectors.

If the three subsystem Hamiltonians were given controlled, unequal scale factors chosen to avoid accidental degeneracies, these sectors should split. Since each three-dot subsystem contains four parity pairs, the generic expectation would be $4^3 = 64 = 512/8$ distinct sectors, each with dimension 8. This would remove the need for block matching within a sector and make excited-sector braiding easier to interpret. Such a study would test whether the block-dependent exchange orientations found here are mainly a consequence of the identical-subsystem degeneracies, or whether they persist in a more generic asymmetric junction.

Chapter 6

Conclusion

This thesis investigated whether interacting quantum-dot chains can be numerically optimized to realize Majorana-like low-energy states and whether the resulting configurations support a useful braiding protocol. The optimization reproduces the known non-interacting two-dot sweet spot and, for longer chains, identifies more inhomogeneous parameter profiles with strong central structure in the onsite energies and pairing amplitudes. In particular, the recurring interior detuning is correlated with favorable edge-localization diagnostics and suppressed bulk Majorana polarization, although a controlled parameter scan would be required to establish whether it is directly responsible for this behavior.

Among the tested interacting configurations, the weakly interacting three-dot system provides the strongest overall braiding candidate. It combines a small ground-state splitting, a large excitation gap, edge-localized Majorana polarization, and strongly suppressed bulk polarization. Stronger interactions and larger systems were generally more difficult to optimize within the searches performed here. However, the optimization combines local gradient-based updates, repeated restarts, and basin hopping, and the finite numerical search cannot guarantee that the global minimum was found. The optimized configurations should therefore be interpreted as promising parameter regimes rather than proof of perfectly robust Majorana states.

Within the lowest projected manifold, the optimized three-dot system reproduces the expected Majorana exchange with high accuracy. The projected microscopic junction operators are dominated by the intended Majorana bilinears, and the energy-level Majorana reference model, projected microscopic junction, and projected local-operator models give nearly identical braid diagnostics. This demonstrates that the optimized interacting PMM system can support the expected exchange behavior within the controlled low-energy projected model.

The sector-resolved analysis shows that the self-target braid errors remain low across all identified sectors for the non-interacting and weakly interacting configurations. The selected stronger-interaction local-operator constructions contain larger and more sector-dependent errors. However, the stable $U = 2.0$ energy-level baseline and irregular $U = 1.0$ result show that interaction strength alone does not explain the observed ordering. The quality of the selected optimized configuration and the distinction between the energy-level and local exchange constructions are also important.

The block-matching analysis shows that the projected local operators can be represented essentially exactly within the energy-level Majorana basis. However, different internal blocks can follow opposite exchange orientations relative to the fixed energy-level convention. A higher-dimensional sector therefore does not necessarily

implement one uniform logical gate, and predictable braiding across such a sector requires knowledge or control of the occupied block.

Overall, optimization can identify interacting microscopic PMM configurations that reproduce effective Majorana exchange within controlled projected models. Extending this behavior beyond one known low-energy block requires additional control over the occupied block and exchange orientation, as well as a common-target comparison to determine how accurately projected local channels reproduce the energy-level exchange. Natural next steps are to improve the optimization coverage, test the role of controlled interior detuning, and include disorder, noise, finite-temperature effects, and nonadiabatic driving in the braiding analysis.

Appendix A

Block Labeling Method

The higher-dimensional energy sectors can contain several independent subspaces associated with different combinations of subsystem energy levels. This is especially clear in the non-interacting and weakly interacting configurations, where a 24-dimensional sector commonly decomposes into three 8-dimensional blocks and a 72-dimensional sector into nine such blocks. The 24-dimensional projected-operator example is illustrated in Fig. A.1. At stronger interaction strengths, an energy sector may intersect only part of one of these blocks, so neither the sector dimension nor every labelled block is necessarily a multiple of eight.

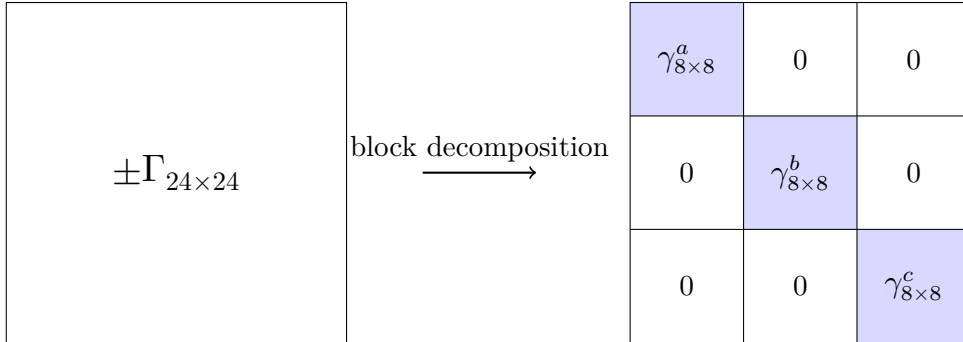


Figure A.1: Schematic decomposition of a projected local Majorana operator in a 24-dimensional energy sector. The sector separates into three independent 8×8 blocks, labelled a , b , and c , with one effective Majorana block acting within each subspace.

The blocks are identified from the energy levels of the three individual subsystems. For a single three-dot subsystem, the four even-parity eigenstates are paired with the four odd-parity eigenstates by nearest energy. For pair ℓ , define the projector

$$Q_\ell = |e_\ell\rangle \langle e_\ell| + |o_\ell\rangle \langle o_\ell|, \quad \ell = 0, 1, 2, 3. \quad (\text{A.1})$$

The single-subsystem label operator is then

$$L_{\text{single}} = \sum_{\ell=0}^3 \ell Q_\ell. \quad (\text{A.2})$$

Its eigenvalue records which even-odd energy pair a state belongs to without distinguishing the two parity states within that pair.

Appendix A. Block Labeling Method

To label the three-subsystem product states, L_{single} is embedded separately on subsystems A , B , and C :

$$\begin{aligned} L_A &= L_{\text{single}} \otimes I \otimes I, \\ L_B &= I \otimes L_{\text{single}} \otimes I, \\ L_C &= I \otimes I \otimes L_{\text{single}}. \end{aligned} \tag{A.3}$$

These operators are combined using a positional label,

$$L_{\text{full}} = L_A + BL_B + B^2L_C, \quad B = 5. \tag{A.4}$$

Because B is larger than the greatest single-subsystem label, each eigenvalue

$$\lambda(\ell_A, \ell_B, \ell_C) = \ell_A + B\ell_B + B^2\ell_C \tag{A.5}$$

uniquely identifies the tuple (ℓ_A, ℓ_B, ℓ_C) . In the full Hilbert space, each tuple spans the eight product states obtained by independently choosing even or odd parity in the three subsystems.

Let V_g contain an orthonormal basis for energy sector g . The full label operator is projected into this sector as

$$L_g = V_g^\dagger L_{\text{full}} V_g. \tag{A.6}$$

Diagonalizing L_g ,

$$L_g w_i = \lambda_i w_i, \tag{A.7}$$

groups the sector basis vectors by their encoded subsystem labels. Vectors with the same eigenvalue are collected in a block basis W_r . For an operator O_g already projected into sector g , its restriction to block r is

$$O_g^{(r)} = W_r^\dagger O_g W_r. \tag{A.8}$$

Within each labelled block, the projected local endpoint operator is fitted independently to the two corresponding energy-level Majorana components, as defined in Eq. (3.35). The fitted blocks are then reassembled into an operator on the complete sector. The label construction only identifies the independent blocks; it does not impose the Majorana algebra, which is checked separately after projection. In well defined cases, the block-matched operator is simply a signed version of the energy-level Majorana operator, but for stronger interacting systems, the block-matched operator can deviate. Numerical results for the block-matched coefficients are reported in Chapter C.

Appendix B

Energy Sectors

The figures below show the full-system energy spectrum and the ground-state splitting after the braid Hamiltonian is initialized for the three identical three-dot subsystems at each tested interaction strength. The system configuration and optimization results are reported in Table 4.1. The left y-axis gives the energy, while the right y-axis gives the number of states in each energy sector. The spectra are split into even and odd subspaces, with dashed connectors indicating near-degenerate parity pairs.

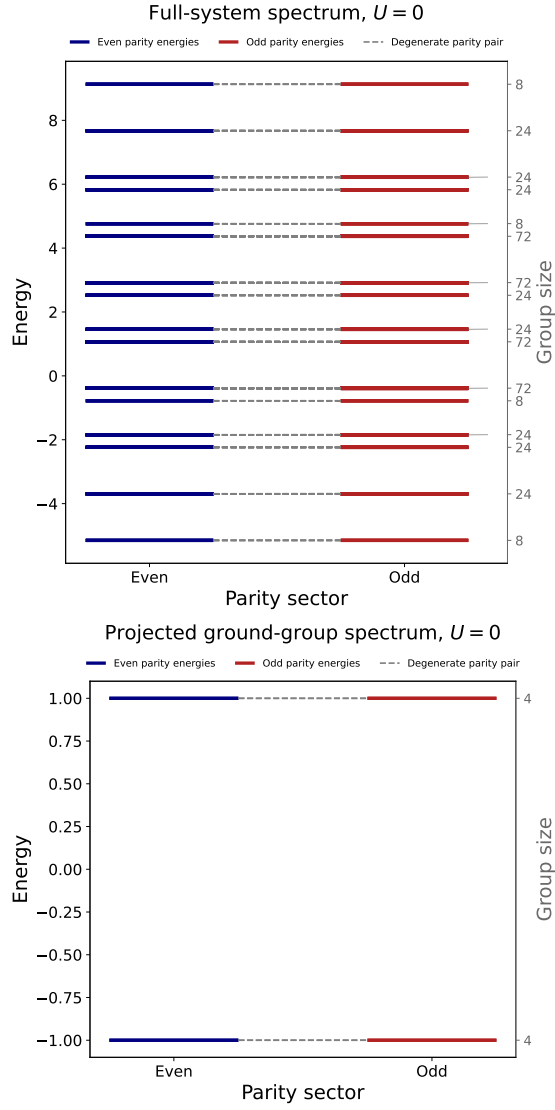


Figure B.1: Energy spectrum and ground-state splitting after Hamiltonian initialization. System configuration and optimization results are reported in Table 4.1. These figures are for the $U = 0.0$ configuration of the three identical three-dot subsystems.

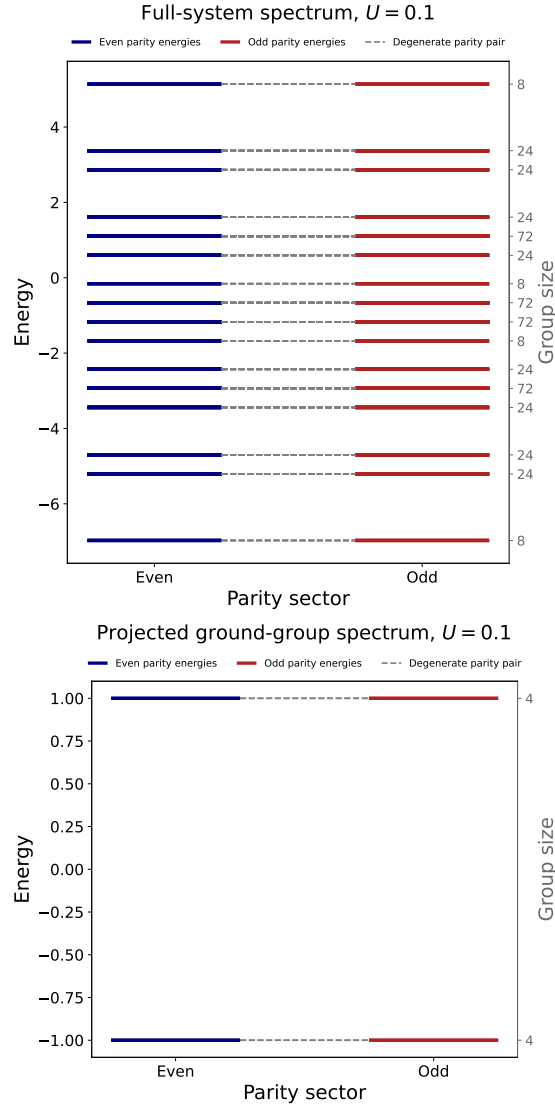


Figure B.2: Energy spectrum and ground-state splitting after Hamiltonian initialization. System configuration and optimization results are reported in Table 4.1. These figures are for the $U = 0.1$ configuration of the three identical three-dot subsystems.

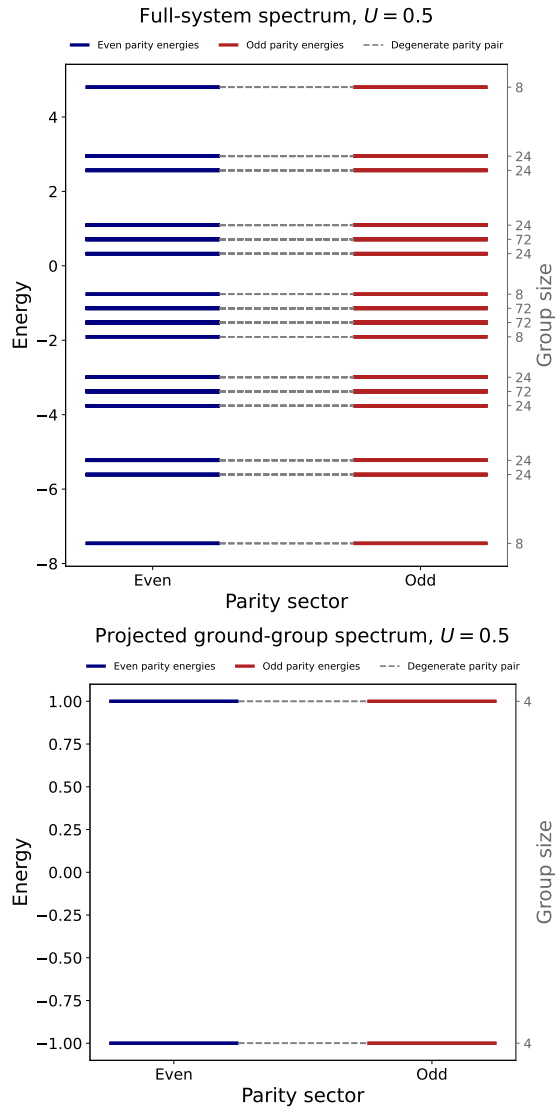


Figure B.3: Energy spectrum and ground-state splitting after Hamiltonian initialization. System configuration and optimization results are reported in Table 4.1. These figures are for the $U = 0.5$ configuration of the three identical three-dot subsystems.

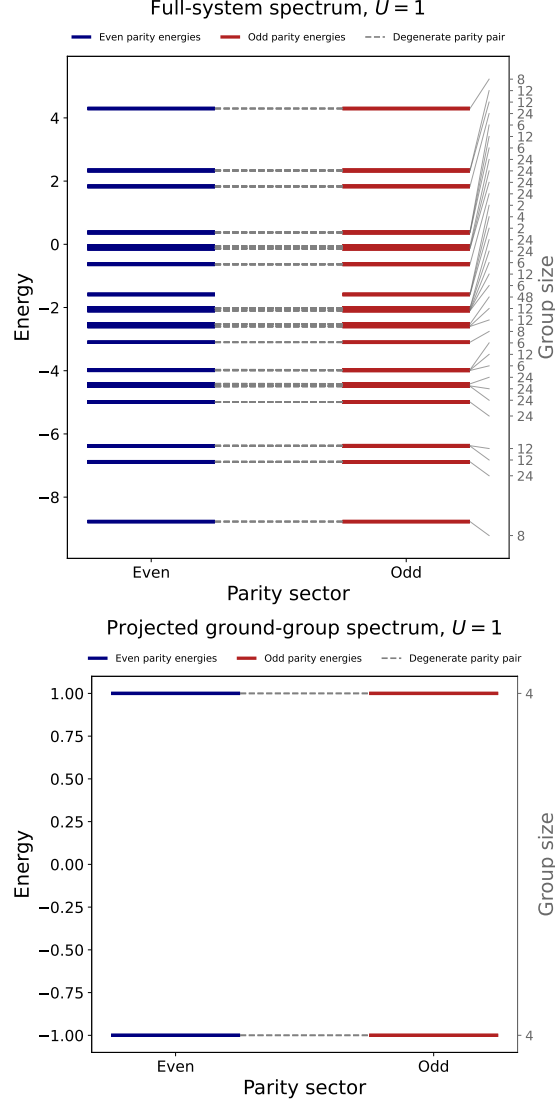


Figure B.4: Energy spectrum and ground-state splitting after Hamiltonian initialization. System configuration and optimization results are reported in Table 4.1. These figures are for the $U = 1.0$ configuration of the three identical three-dot subsystems. The irregular sector structure is consistent with the stronger sector dependence observed in the corresponding braiding results.

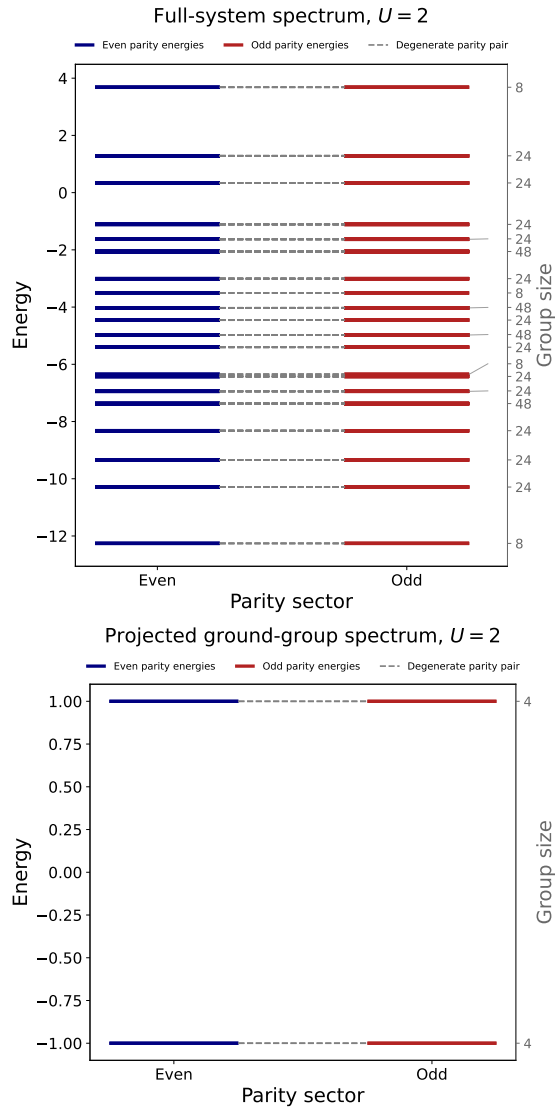


Figure B.5: Energy spectrum and ground-state splitting after Hamiltonian initialization. System configuration and optimization results are reported in Table 4.1. These figures are for the $U = 2.0$ configuration of the three identical three-dot subsystems.

Appendix C

Block-Matched Coefficients

For each selected energy sector, the projected local endpoint operators were fitted independently within the labelled blocks to the two corresponding energy-level Majorana components. The fitted first-component coefficients vanish at the saved precision, while the second-component coefficients are close to either $+1$ or -1 in most blocks. The blockwise coefficients and their relative signs are reported in Table C.1.

For each labelled block r , the projected local endpoint operator of subsystem $S = B, C$ is restricted to the block and fitted to the two energy-level Majorana components,

$$\Gamma_{S,\text{loc}}^{(r)} \approx a_{S,r} \gamma_{S1}^{(r)} + b_{S,r} \gamma_{S2}^{(r)}. \quad (\text{C.1})$$

The table reports the coefficients $b_{S,r}$, since the fitted first-component coefficients $a_{S,r}$ vanish at the saved precision.

The ideal expectation is therefore $a_{S,r} \approx 0$ and $b_{S,r} \approx \pm 1$. The sign is not by itself an error, but fixes the orientation of the fitted local operator relative to the chosen energy-level Majorana convention. The magnitude tests whether the fitted operator is still a properly normalized Majorana within the block. If the two energy-level components satisfy $(\gamma_{S1}^{(r)})^2 = (\gamma_{S2}^{(r)})^2 = P_r$ and $\{\gamma_{S1}^{(r)}, \gamma_{S2}^{(r)}\} = 0$, then

$$\left(\Gamma_{S,\text{fit}}^{(r)}\right)^2 \approx \left(a_{S,r}^2 + b_{S,r}^2\right) P_r. \quad (\text{C.2})$$

Thus, in the present case where $a_{S,r} \approx 0$, deviations of $|b_{S,r}|$ from one measure how far the projected local operator is from squaring to the block projector.

For the braid, the two fitted endpoint operators enter through the product

$$b_{B,r} b_{C,r} = s_r \alpha_r, \quad s_r = \text{sgn}(b_{B,r} b_{C,r}), \quad \alpha_r = |b_{B,r} b_{C,r}|. \quad (\text{C.3})$$

Here s_r gives the exchange orientation in block r , while α_r controls the effective rotation strength. Mixed signs therefore mean that different blocks follow opposite exchange orientations, while magnitudes different from one indicate a non-ideal Majorana normalization or rotation angle.

Since the first-component coefficients vanish at the saved precision, the fitted operators in block r can be written as

$$\Gamma_{B,\text{fit}}^{(r)} = b_{B,r} \gamma_{B2}^{(r)}, \quad \Gamma_{C,\text{fit}}^{(r)} = b_{C,r} \gamma_{C2}^{(r)}. \quad (\text{C.4})$$

The fitted target unitary within this block is then

$$\begin{aligned} U_r &= \exp \left[-\frac{\pi}{4} b_{B,r} b_{C,r} \gamma_{B2}^{(r)} \gamma_{C2}^{(r)} \right] \\ &= \exp \left[-s_r \alpha_r \frac{\pi}{4} \gamma_{B2}^{(r)} \gamma_{C2}^{(r)} \right]. \end{aligned} \quad (\text{C.5})$$

Appendix C. Block-Matched Coefficients

When $\alpha_r \approx 1$ and the projected operators satisfy the ideal Majorana algebra, the two orientations reduce, up to a global phase and in the corresponding occupation basis, to

$$s_r = +1 : \quad U_r \sim \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & i \end{pmatrix} = \sqrt{Z}, \quad s_r = -1 : \quad U_r \sim \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -i \end{pmatrix} = \sqrt{Z}^\dagger. \quad (\text{C.6})$$

Table C.1: Blockwise coefficients of the projected local endpoint operators in the energy-level Majorana basis. The entries list the fitted coefficient multiplying the second energy-level Majorana in each labelled block, in the block order used by the fit. The fitted coefficients of the first Majorana component vanish at the saved precision. The final column gives the sign of the product $b_{B,r}b_{C,r}$, which determines whether the two local operators select the same (+) or opposite (−) relative orientation in block r .

U/t	Sector	Dim.	$b_{B,r}$	$b_{C,r}$	$\text{sgn}(b_{B,r}b_{C,r})$
0.0	0	8	[+1.00]	[+1.00]	[+]
0.0	1	24	[+1.00, −1.00, +1.00]	[+1.00, +1.00, −1.00]	[+, −, −]
0.0	2	24	[−1.00, +1.00, −1.00]	[+1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[−, −, +]
0.0	3	24	[+1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[+1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[+, +, +]
0.0	4	8	[−1.00]	[−1.00]	[+]
0.0	5	72	[+1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00, +1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00]	[+1.00, +1.00, +1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00, +1.00, +1.00, −1.00]	[+, −, +, −, −, −, +, −, −]
0.0	6	72	[−1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00]	[+1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00, −1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[−, −, −, +, −, +, −, −, +]
0.0	7	24	[+1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[+1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[+, +, +]
0.0	8	24	[−1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[−1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[+, +, +]
0.0	9	72	[+1.00, −1.00, +1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[+1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00, +1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[+, −, −, +, −, +, −, −, −]
0.0	10	72	[−1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00]	[+1.00, −1.00, −1.00, +1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[−, −, +, −, −, −, +, −, +]
0.0	11	8	[+1.00]	[+1.00]	[+]
0.0	12	24	[−1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[−1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[+, +, +]
0.0	13	24	[+1.00, −1.00, +1.00]	[+1.00, +1.00, −1.00]	[+, −, −]
0.0	14	24	[−1.00, +1.00, −1.00]	[+1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[−, −, +]
0.0	15	8	[−1.00]	[−1.00]	[+]
0.1	0	8	[−1.00]	[−1.00]	[+]
0.1	1	24	[−1.00, +1.00, −1.00]	[−1.00, −1.00, +1.00]	[+, −, −]
0.1	2	24	[−1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[−1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[+, +, +]
0.1	3	24	[+1.00, −1.00, +1.00]	[−1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[−, −, +]
0.1	4	72	[−1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00]	[−1.00, −1.00, −1.00, −1.00, +1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00, +1.00]	[+, −, +, −, −, −, +, −, −]
0.1	5	24	[−1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[−1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[+, +, +]
0.1	6	8	[+1.00]	[+1.00]	[+]
0.1	7	72	[+1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00]	[−1.00, −1.00, +1.00, +1.00, +1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00, +1.00]	[−, −, −, +, −, +, −, −, +]
0.1	8	72	[−1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00]	[−1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00, −1.00, −1.00, +1.00, −1.00, +1.00]	[+, −, −, +, −, +, −, −, −]
0.1	9	8	[−1.00]	[−1.00]	[+]
0.1	10	24	[+1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[+1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[+, +, +]

Continued on next page

Table C.1 continued

U/t	Sector	Dim.	$b_{B,r}$	$b_{C,r}$	$\text{sgn}(b_{B,r}b_{C,r})$
0.1	11	72	[+1.00, -1.00, +1.00, +1.00, +1.00, -1.00, +1.00, -1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[-1.00, +1.00, +1.00, -1.00, -1.00, +1.00, +1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[-, -, +, -, -, -, +, -, +]
0.1	12	24	[-1.00, +1.00, -1.00]	[-1.00, -1.00, +1.00]	[+, -, -]
0.1	13	24	[+1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[+1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[+, +, +]
0.1	14	24	[+1.00, -1.00, +1.00]	[-1.00, +1.00, +1.00]	[-, -, +]
0.1	15	8	[+1.00]	[+1.00]	[+]
0.5	0	8	[+1.00]	[+1.00]	[+]
0.5	1	24	[+1.01, +0.99, +1.01]	[+1.01, +1.01, +0.99]	[+, +, +]
0.5	2	24	[+1.00, -1.00, +1.00]	[+1.00, +1.00, -1.00]	[+, -, -]
0.5	3	24	[+0.99, +1.01, +0.99]	[+1.01, +0.99, +0.99]	[+, +, +]
0.5	4	72	[+1.00, +0.98, -1.01, -1.01, +1.00, -1.01, +1.00, +0.98, +1.00]	[+1.00, +1.00, +1.00, +1.00, +0.98, +0.98, -1.01, -1.01, -1.01]	[+, +, -, -, +, -, -, -, -]
0.5	5	24	[-1.00, +1.00, -1.00]	[+1.00, -1.00, -1.00]	[-, -, +]
0.5	6	8	[+1.00]	[+1.00]	[+]
0.5	7	72	[+0.99, -1.01, +1.01, +0.99, -1.01, -1.01, +0.99, +1.01, +0.99]	[+1.01, +1.01, +0.99, +0.99, +0.99, -1.01, -1.01, -1.01]	[+, -, +, +, -, -, -, -, -]
0.5	8	72	[-1.00, -1.00, -1.00, +1.00, +0.98, -1.00, -1.00, +1.00, -1.00]	[+1.00, +1.00, +0.98, -1.00, -1.00, -1.00, -1.00, -1.00, -1.00]	[-, -, -, -, -, +, +, -, +]
0.5	9	8	[-1.00]	[-1.00]	[+]
0.5	10	24	[+0.99, -1.02, +0.99]	[+0.99, +0.99, -1.02]	[+, -, -]
0.5	11	72	[-1.01, -1.01, -1.01, +0.98, -1.01, +1.00, +0.98, -1.01, -1.01]	[+1.00, +0.98, +0.98, -1.01, -1.01, -1.01, -1.01, -1.01, -1.01]	[-, -, -, -, +, -, -, +, +]
0.5	12	24	[-1.00, -1.00, -1.00]	[-1.00, -1.00, -1.00]	[+, +, +]
0.5	13	24	[-1.01, +0.98, -1.01]	[+0.98, -1.01, -1.01]	[-, -, +]
0.5	14	24	[-1.00, -1.00, -1.00]	[-1.00, -1.00, -1.00]	[+, +, +]
0.5	15	8	[-1.00]	[-1.00]	[+]
1.0	0	8	[+1.00]	[+1.00]	[+]
1.0	1	24	[+1.02, +0.95, +1.02]	[+1.02, +1.02, +0.95]	[+, +, +]
1.0	2	12	[+1.22, +1.23, +1.22]	[+1.22, +1.22, +1.23]	[+, +, +]
1.0	3	12	[+1.22, +1.23, +1.22]	[+1.22, +1.22, +1.23]	[+, +, +]
1.0	4	24	[+0.98, +1.05, +0.98]	[+1.05, +0.98, +0.98]	[+, +, +]
1.0	5	24	[+1.18, +1.27, +1.27, +1.27, +1.27, +1.18]	[+1.27, +1.27, +1.18, +1.18, +1.27, +1.27]	[+, +, +, +, +, +]
1.0	6	24	[+1.18, +1.27, +1.27, +1.27, +1.27, +1.18]	[+1.27, +1.27, +1.18, +1.18, +1.27, +1.27]	[+, +, +, +, +, +]
1.0	7	24	[+0.99, -1.01, +0.99]	[+0.99, +0.99, -1.01]	[+, -, -]
1.0	8	6	[+1.74, +1.73, +1.74]	[+1.73, +1.75, +1.74]	[+, +, +]
1.0	9	12	[+1.74, +1.73, +1.74]	[+1.73, +1.75, +1.74]	[+, +, +]
1.0	10	6	[+1.71, +1.73, +1.73]	[+1.73, +1.74, +1.75]	[+, +, +]
1.0	11	8	[+1.00]	[+1.00]	[+]

Continued on next page

Table C.1 continued

U/t	Sector	Dim.	$b_{B,r}$	$b_{C,r}$	$\text{sgn}(b_{B,r}b_{C,r})$
1.0	12	12	[+1.22, +1.32, +1.22]	[+1.22, +1.22, +1.32]	[+, +, +]
1.0	13	12	[+1.22, +1.31, +1.22]	[+1.22, +1.22, +1.32]	[+, +, +]
1.0	14	48	[+0.95, -1.04, +1.01, -1.04, +1.01, +0.95]	[+1.01, +1.01, +0.95, +0.95, -1.04, -1.04]	[+, -, +, -, -, -]
1.0	15	6	[+1.86, +1.73, +1.86]	[+1.73, +1.84, +1.84]	[+, +, +]
1.0	16	12	[+1.87, +1.73, +1.86]	[+1.73, +1.86, +1.86]	[+, +, +]
1.0	17	6	[+1.87, +1.73, +1.86]	[+1.73, +1.86, +1.89]	[+, +, +]
1.0	18	24	[+1.22, -1.24, +1.21, -1.24, +1.21, +1.21]	[+1.21, +1.21, +1.22, +1.21, -1.24, -1.24]	[+, -, +, -, -, -]
1.0	19	24	[+1.21, -1.24, +1.21, -1.24, +1.21, +1.22]	[+1.21, +1.21, +1.21, +1.21, -1.24, -1.24]	[+, -, +, -, -, -]
1.0	20	2	[+1.02]	[+4.81]	[+]
1.0	21	4	[+1.25]	[+1.66]	[+]
1.0	22	2	[+1.78]	[+1.21]	[+]
1.0	23	24	[+0.97, -1.06, +0.97]	[+0.97, +0.97, -1.06]	[+, -, -]
1.0	24	24	[+1.26, -1.28, +1.17, -1.28, +1.17, +1.25]	[+1.17, +1.17, +1.26, +1.26, -1.28, -1.28]	[+, -, +, -, -, -]
1.0	25	24	[+1.26, -1.28, +1.17, -1.28, +1.17, +1.25]	[+1.17, +1.17, +1.25, +1.25, -1.28, -1.28]	[+, -, +, -, -, -]
1.0	26	24	[-1.01, +0.99, -1.01]	[+0.99, -1.01, -1.01]	[-, -, +]
1.0	27	6	[+1.70, -1.73, +1.70]	[+1.70, +1.70, -1.73]	[+, -, -]
1.0	28	12	[+1.70, -1.73, +1.70]	[+1.70, +1.70, -1.73]	[+, -, -]
1.0	29	6	[+1.71, -1.73, +1.71]	[+1.72, +1.70, -1.73]	[+, -, -]
1.0	30	24	[-1.03, +0.94, -1.03]	[+0.94, -1.03, -1.03]	[-, -, +]
1.0	31	12	[-1.22, +1.20, -1.22]	[+1.20, -1.22, -1.22]	[-, -, +]
1.0	32	12	[-1.22, +1.20, -1.22]	[+1.19, -1.22, -1.22]	[-, -, +]
1.0	33	8	[-1.00]	[-1.00]	[+]
2.0	0	8	[-1.00]	[-1.00]	[+]
2.0	1	24	[-1.02, +0.96, -1.02]	[-1.02, -1.02, +0.96]	[+, -, -]
2.0	2	24	[-1.11, +0.74, -1.11]	[-1.11, -1.11, +0.74]	[+, -, -]
2.0	3	24	[+0.98, -1.04, +0.98]	[-1.04, +0.98, +0.98]	[-, -, +]
2.0	4	48	[+1.07, +0.76, -1.14, +0.76, -1.14, +1.07]	[-1.14, -1.14, +1.07, +1.07, +0.76, +0.76]	[-, -, -, +, -, +]
2.0	5	24	[-1.09, -0.80, -1.09]	[-1.09, -1.09, -0.80]	[+, +, +]
2.0	6	24	[+0.84, -1.26, +0.84]	[-1.26, +0.84, +0.84]	[-, -, +]
2.0	7	8	[+1.00]	[+1.00]	[+]
2.0	8	24	[+1.09, +0.78, +1.09]	[+1.09, +1.09, +0.78]	[+, +, +]
2.0	9	48	[+1.05, -0.82, -1.11, -0.82, -1.11, +1.05]	[-1.11, -1.11, +1.05, +1.05, -0.82, -0.82]	[-, +, -, -, +, -]
2.0	10	24	[+0.87, +1.22, +0.87]	[+1.22, +0.87, +0.87]	[+, +, +]
2.0	11	48	[+0.82, -0.90, -1.23, -0.90, -1.23, +0.82]	[-1.23, -1.23, +0.82, +0.82, -0.90, -0.90]	[-, +, -, -, +, -]
2.0	12	8	[+1.00]	[+1.00]	[+]
2.0	13	24	[+1.07, -0.84, +1.07]	[+1.07, +1.07, -0.84]	[+, -, -]
2.0	14	48	[+0.84, -0.93, +1.19, -0.93, +1.19, +0.84]	[+1.19, +1.19, +0.84, +0.84, -0.93, -0.93]	[+, -, +, -, -, -]
2.0	15	24	[-0.88, -1.20, -0.88]	[-1.20, -0.88, -0.88]	[+, +, +]
2.0	16	24	[+0.97, -1.07, +0.97]	[+0.97, +0.97, -1.07]	[+, -, -]

Continued on next page

Table C.1 continued

U/t	Sector	Dim.	$b_{B,r}$	$b_{C,r}$	$\text{sgn}(b_{B,r}b_{C,r})$
2.0	17	24	$[-0.91, +1.16, -0.91]$	$[+1.16, -0.91, -0.91]$	$[-, -, +]$
2.0	18	24	$[-1.03, +0.93, -1.03]$	$[+0.93, -1.03, -1.03]$	$[-, -, +]$
2.0	19	8	$[-1.00]$	$[-1.00]$	$[+]$

Bibliography

- [1] Ramón Aguado et al., eds. *New Trends and Platforms for Quantum Technologies*. Vol. 1025. Lecture Notes in Physics. Cham: Springer Nature Switzerland, 2024. ISBN: 978-3-031-55657-9. DOI: 10.1007/978-3-031-55657-9. URL: <https://link.springer.com/10.1007/978-3-031-55657-9> (visited on 06/13/2026).
- [2] Anton Akhmerov, Jay Sau, and Bernard van Heck. *Bulk-Edge Correspondence in the Kitaev Chain*. Course material licensed under CC BY-SA 4.0. Topology in Condensed Matter. URL: <https://topocondmat.org/w1-topointro/d-1/> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [3] Jason Alicea. “New Directions in the Pursuit of Majorana Fermions in Solid State Systems”. In: *Reports on Progress in Physics* 75.7 (July 1, 2012), p. 076501. ISSN: 0034-4885, 1361-6633. DOI: 10.1088/0034-4885/75/7/076501. arXiv: 1202.1293 [cond-mat.supr-con]. URL: <http://arxiv.org/abs/1202.1293> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [4] Nur R. Ayukaryana, Mohammad H. Fauzi, and Eddwi H. Hasdeo. “The Quest and Hope of Majorana Zero Modes in Topological Superconductor for Fault-Tolerant Quantum Computing: An Introductory Overview”. In: PROCEEDINGS OF THE 4TH INTERNATIONAL SEMINAR ON METALLURGY AND MATERIALS (ISMM2020): Accelerating Research and Innovation on Metallurgy and Materials for Inclusive and Sustainable Industry. Tangerang Selatan, Indonesia, 2021, p. 020007. DOI: 10.1063/5.0059974. URL: <https://pubs.aip.org/aip/acp/article/783518> (visited on 06/13/2026).
- [5] Stephen D. Bartlett, Terry Rudolph, and Robert W. Spekkens. “Reference Frames, Superselection Rules, and Quantum Information”. In: *Reviews of Modern Physics* 79.2 (Apr. 5, 2007), pp. 555–609. ISSN: 0034-6861, 1539-0756. DOI: 10.1103/RevModPhys.79.555. URL: <https://link.aps.org/doi/10.1103/RevModPhys.79.555> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [6] Carlo Beenakker. “Search for Non-Abelian Majorana Braiding Statistics in Superconductors”. In: *SciPost Physics Lecture Notes* (Aug. 4, 2020), p. 15. ISSN: 2590-1990. DOI: 10.21468/SciPostPhysLectNotes.15. URL: <https://scipost.org/10.21468/SciPostPhysLectNotes.15> (visited on 06/16/2026).
- [7] Piet W. Brouwer. “Enter the Majorana Fermion”. In: *Science* 336.6084 (May 25, 2012), pp. 989–990. ISSN: 0036-8075, 1095-9203. DOI: 10.1126/science.1223302. URL: <https://www.science.org/doi/10.1126/science.1223302> (visited on 06/13/2026).

- [8] G. Castagnoli and M. Rasetti. “The Notions of Symmetry and Computational Feedback in the Paradigm of Steady, Simultaneous Quantum Computation”. In: *International Journal of Theoretical Physics* 32.12 (Dec. 1993), pp. 2335–2347. ISSN: 0020-7748, 1572-9575. DOI: 10.1007/BF00673003. URL: <http://link.springer.com/10.1007/BF00673003> (visited on 06/13/2026).
- [9] Charles Dugas et al. “Incorporating Second-Order Functional Knowledge for Better Option Pricing”. In: *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*. Ed. by T. Leen, T. Dietterich, and V. Tresp. Vol. 13. MIT Press, 2000. URL: https://proceedings.neurips.cc/paper_files/paper/2000/file/44968aece94f667e4095002d140b5896-Paper.pdf.
- [10] Tom Dvir et al. “Realization of a Minimal Kitaev Chain in Coupled Quantum Dots”. In: *Nature* 614.7948 (Feb. 2023), pp. 445–450. ISSN: 1476-4687. DOI: 10.1038/s41586-022-05585-1. URL: <https://www.nature.com/articles/s41586-022-05585-1> (visited on 05/14/2026).
- [11] Nikhil Harle, Oles Shtanko, and Ramis Movassagh. “Observing and Braiding Topological Majorana Modes on Programmable Quantum Simulators”. In: *Nature Communications* 14.1 (Apr. 21, 2023), p. 2286. ISSN: 2041-1723. DOI: 10.1038/s41467-023-37725-0. URL: <https://www.nature.com/articles/s41467-023-37725-0> (visited on 06/13/2026).
- [12] Fabian Hassler. *Topological Quantum Computing*. Oct. 21, 2024. DOI: 10.48550/arXiv.2410.13547. arXiv: 2410.13547 [quant-ph]. URL: <http://arxiv.org/abs/2410.13547> (visited on 06/16/2026). Pre-published.
- [13] Michiel Hazewinkel, ed. *Encyclopaedia of Mathematics*. Berlin: Springer, 2002. ISBN: 978-1-4020-0609-8.
- [14] Raúl Hidalgo-Sacoto, Thomas Busch, and D. Blume. “Two Identical One-Dimensional Anyons with Zero-Range Interactions: Exchange Statistics, Scattering Theory, and Anyon-Anyon Mapping”. In: *Physical Review A* 112.6 (Dec. 11, 2025), p. 063310. ISSN: 2469-9926, 2469-9934. DOI: 10.1103/h2vs-119d. URL: <https://link.aps.org/doi/10.1103/h2vs-119d> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [15] P. Jordan and E. Wigner. “Über das Paulische Äquivalenzverbot”. In: *Zeitschrift für Physik* 47.9–10 (Sept. 1928), pp. 631–651. ISSN: 1434-6001, 1434-601X. DOI: 10.1007/BF01331938. URL: <http://link.springer.com/10.1007/BF01331938> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [16] Tosio Kato. “On the Adiabatic Theorem of Quantum Mechanics”. In: *Journal of the Physical Society of Japan* 5.6 (Nov. 15, 1950), pp. 435–439. ISSN: 0031-9015, 1347-4073. DOI: 10.1143/JPSJ.5.435. URL: <http://journals.jps.jp/doi/10.1143/JPSJ.5.435> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [17] G. Kells, N. Moran, and D. Meidan. “Localization Enhanced and Degraded Topological Order in Interacting p -Wave Wires”. In: *Physical Review B* 97.8 (Feb. 20, 2018), p. 085425. ISSN: 2469-9950, 2469-9969. DOI: 10.1103/PhysRevB.97.085425. URL: <https://link.aps.org/doi/10.1103/PhysRevB.97.085425> (visited on 06/16/2026).
- [18] Diederik P Kingma and Jimmy Ba. “Adam: A method for stochastic optimization”. In: *arXiv preprint arXiv:1412.6980* (2014).

- [19] Alexei Kitaev. “Unpaired Majorana Fermions in Quantum Wires”. In: *Physics-Uspekhi* 44 (10S Oct. 1, 2001), pp. 131–136. ISSN: 1468-4780. DOI: 10.1070/1063-7869/44/10S/S29. arXiv: cond-mat/0010440. URL: <http://arxiv.org/abs/cond-mat/0010440> (visited on 06/13/2026).
- [20] Ville Lahtinen and Jiannis Pachos. “A Short Introduction to Topological Quantum Computation”. In: *SciPost Physics* 3.3 (Sept. 9, 2017), p. 021. ISSN: 2542-4653. DOI: 10.21468/SciPostPhys.3.3.021. URL: <https://scipost.org/10.21468/SciPostPhys.3.3.021> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [21] Martin Leijnse and Karsten Flensberg. “Introduction to Topological Superconductivity and Majorana Fermions”. In: *Semiconductor Science and Technology* 27.12 (Dec. 5, 2012), p. 124003. ISSN: 0268-1242, 1361-6641. DOI: 10.1088/0268-1242/27/12/124003. URL: <https://iopscience.iop.org/article/10.1088/0268-1242/27/12/124003> (visited on 06/16/2026).
- [22] Martin Leijnse and Karsten Flensberg. “Parity Qubits and Poor Man’s Majorana Bound States in Double Quantum Dots”. In: *Physical Review B* 86.13 (Oct. 23, 2012), p. 134528. ISSN: 1098-0121, 1550-235X. DOI: 10.1103/PhysRevB.86.134528. URL: <https://link.aps.org/doi/10.1103/PhysRevB.86.134528> (visited on 05/14/2026).
- [23] J. M. Leinaas and J. Myrheim. “On the Theory of Identical Particles”. In: *Il Nuovo Cimento B Series 11* 37.1 (Jan. 1977), pp. 1–23. ISSN: 1826-9877. DOI: 10.1007/BF02727953. URL: <http://link.springer.com/10.1007/BF02727953> (visited on 06/25/2026).
- [24] Biao Lian et al. “Topological Quantum Computation Based on Chiral Majorana Fermions”. In: *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences* 115.43 (Oct. 23, 2018), pp. 10938–10942. ISSN: 0027-8424, 1091-6490. DOI: 10.1073/pnas.1810003115. URL: <https://pnas.org/doi/full/10.1073/pnas.1810003115> (visited on 06/13/2026).
- [25] Ettore Majorana. “Teoria simmetrica dell’elettrone e del positrone”. In: *Il Nuovo Cimento* 14.4 (Apr. 1937), pp. 171–184. ISSN: 0029-6341, 1827-6121. DOI: 10.1007/BF02961314. URL: <http://link.springer.com/10.1007/BF02961314> (visited on 06/13/2026).
- [26] V. Mourik et al. “Signatures of Majorana Fermions in Hybrid Superconductor-Semiconductor Nanowire Devices”. In: *Science* 336.6084 (May 25, 2012), pp. 1003–1007. ISSN: 0036-8075, 1095-9203. DOI: 10.1126/science.1222360. URL: <https://www.science.org/doi/10.1126/science.1222360> (visited on 06/13/2026).
- [27] Dana Najjar. *Milestone Evidence for Anyons, a Third Kingdom of Particles*. Illustration by 5W Infographics. Quanta Magazine. May 12, 2020. URL: <https://www.quantamagazine.org/milestone-evidence-for-anyons-a-third-kingdom-of-particles-20200512/> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [28] J. Nakamura et al. “Direct Observation of Anyonic Braiding Statistics”. In: *Nature Physics* 16.9 (Sept. 2020), pp. 931–936. ISSN: 1745-2473, 1745-2481. DOI: 10.1038/s41567-020-1019-1. URL: <https://www.nature.com/articles/s41567-020-1019-1> (visited on 06/25/2026).
- [29] Boris Narozhny. “Majorana Fermions in the Nonuniform Ising-Kitaev Chain: Exact Solution”. In: *Scientific Reports* 7.1 (May 3, 2017), p. 1447. ISSN: 2045-2322. DOI: 10.1038/s41598-017-01413-z. URL: <https://www.nature.com/articles/s41598-017-01413-z> (visited on 06/13/2026).

- [30] Chetan Nayak et al. “Non-Abelian Anyons and Topological Quantum Computation”. In: *Reviews of Modern Physics* 80.3 (Sept. 12, 2008), pp. 1083–1159. ISSN: 0034-6861, 1539-0756. DOI: 10.1103/RevModPhys.80.1083. URL: <https://link.aps.org/doi/10.1103/RevModPhys.80.1083> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [31] Michael A Nielsen et al. “The Fermionic canonical commutation relations and the Jordan-Wigner transform”. In: *School of Physical Sciences The University of Queensland* 59 (2005), p. 75.
- [32] Maximilian Nitsch et al. “Adiabatic Nonabelian Braiding of Imperfect Majoranas”. In: (2025). DOI: 10.48550/arXiv.2507.11039. arXiv: 2507.11039 [cond-mat.mes-hall].
- [33] Adam Paszke et al. “Automatic differentiation in PyTorch”. In: *NIPS-W*. 2017.
- [34] William Samuelson, Viktor Svensson, and Martin Leijnse. “Minimal Quantum Dot Based Kitaev Chain with Only Local Superconducting Proximity Effect”. In: *Physical Review B* 109 (2024), p. 035415. DOI: 10.1103/PhysRevB.109.035415. arXiv: 2310.03536 [cond-mat.mes-hall]. URL: <https://arxiv.org/abs/2310.03536> (visited on 06/27/2026).
- [35] William Samuelson et al. “Quantifying Robustness and Locality of Majorana Bound States in Interacting Systems”. In: *PRX Quantum* 7.2 (May 28, 2026), p. 020341. ISSN: 2691-3399. DOI: 10.1103/pw51-tnsz. arXiv: 2510.20538 [cond-mat.mes-hall]. URL: <http://arxiv.org/abs/2510.20538> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [36] J E Sanches et al. “Revisiting the Poor Man’s Majoranas: The Spin-Exchange Induced Spillover Effect”. In: *Journal of Physics: Condensed Matter* 38.2 (Jan. 16, 2026), p. 023001. ISSN: 0953-8984, 1361-648X. DOI: 10.1088/1361-648X/ae2f13. URL: <https://iopscience.iop.org/article/10.1088/1361-648X/ae2f13> (visited on 06/13/2026).
- [37] Sankar Das Sarma, Michael Freedman, and Chetan Nayak. “Majorana Zero Modes and Topological Quantum Computation”. In: *npj Quantum Information* 1.1 (Oct. 27, 2015), p. 15001. ISSN: 2056-6387. DOI: 10.1038/npjqi.2015.1. URL: <https://www.nature.com/articles/npjqi20151> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [38] Jay D. Sau and S. Das Sarma. “Realizing a Robust Practical Majorana Chain in a Quantum-Dot-Superconductor Linear Array”. In: *Nature Communications* 3.1 (July 17, 2012), p. 964. ISSN: 2041-1723. DOI: 10.1038/ncomms1966. URL: <https://www.nature.com/articles/ncomms1966> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [39] Kirill Shtengel. “A Home for Anyon?” In: *Nature Physics* 3.11 (Nov. 2007), pp. 763–763. ISSN: 1745-2473, 1745-2481. DOI: 10.1038/nphys767. URL: <https://www.nature.com/articles/nphys767> (visited on 06/14/2026).
- [40] Viktor Svensson and Martin Leijnse. “Quantum Dot Based Kitaev Chains: Majorana Quality Measures and Scaling with Increasing Chain Length”. In: *Physical Review B* 110.15 (Oct. 25, 2024), p. 155436. ISSN: 2469-9950, 2469-9969. DOI: 10.1103/PhysRevB.110.155436. URL: <https://link.aps.org/doi/10.1103/PhysRevB.110.155436> (visited on 06/13/2026).

- [41] Zhi-Lei Zhang, Guo-Jian Qiao, and C. P. Sun. “Poor Man’s Majorana Modes in Two Quantum Dots Dressed by Superconducting Quasiexcitations”. In: *Physical Review B* 113.19 (May 15, 2026), p. 195416. ISSN: 2469-9950, 2469-9969. DOI: 10.1103/qp5g-942h. URL: <https://link.aps.org/doi/10.1103/qp5g-942h> (visited on 06/13/2026).
- [42] Guoyi Zhu, Ruirui Wang, and Guangming Zhang. “Majorana Fermions and Topological Quantum Computation”. In: *Physics* 46.3 (2017), p. 154. DOI: 10.7693/wl20170303. URL: <http://www.wuli.ac.cn/CN/10.7693/wl20170303> (visited on 06/13/2026).